

Introduction to Heat and Heat Transfer Methods

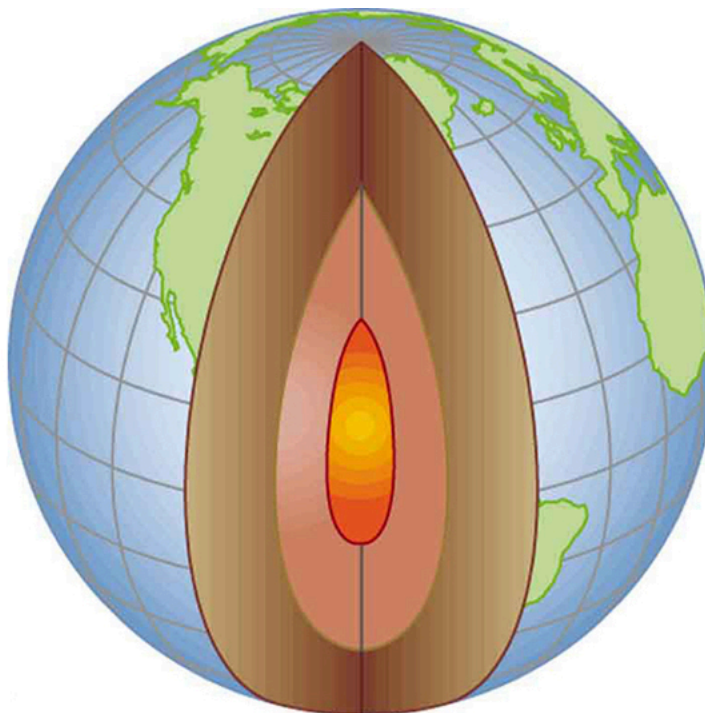


Eunice Newton Foote was the first to determine the relationship between carbon dioxide, water vapor, and the potential for global heating. She designed and conducted a number of experiments to uncover the ability of different gases to trap heat, describing what would later be referred to as greenhouse gases. (credit: Carlyn Iverson, NOAA Climate.gov) Chapter Outline

Energy can exist in many forms and heat is one of the most intriguing. Heat is often hidden, as it only exists when in transit, and is transferred by a number of distinctly different methods. Heat transfer touches every aspect of our lives and helps us understand how the universe functions. It explains the chill we feel on a clear breezy night, or why Earth's core has yet to cool. This chapter defines and explores heat transfer, its effects, and the methods by which heat is transferred. These topics are fundamental, as well as practical, and will often be referred to in the chapters ahead.



(a)



(b)

(a) The chilling effect of a clear breezy night is produced by the wind and by radiative heat transfer to cold outer space. (b) There was once great controversy about the Earth's age, but it is now generally accepted to be about 4.5 billion years old. Much of the debate is centered on the Earth's molten interior. According to our understanding of heat transfer, if the Earth is really that old, its center should have cooled off long ago. The discovery of radioactivity in rocks revealed the source of energy that keeps the Earth's interior molten, despite heat transfer to the surface, and from there to cold outer space.



This work is licensed under a [Creative Commons Attribution 4.0 International License](https://creativecommons.org/licenses/by/4.0/).



Heat

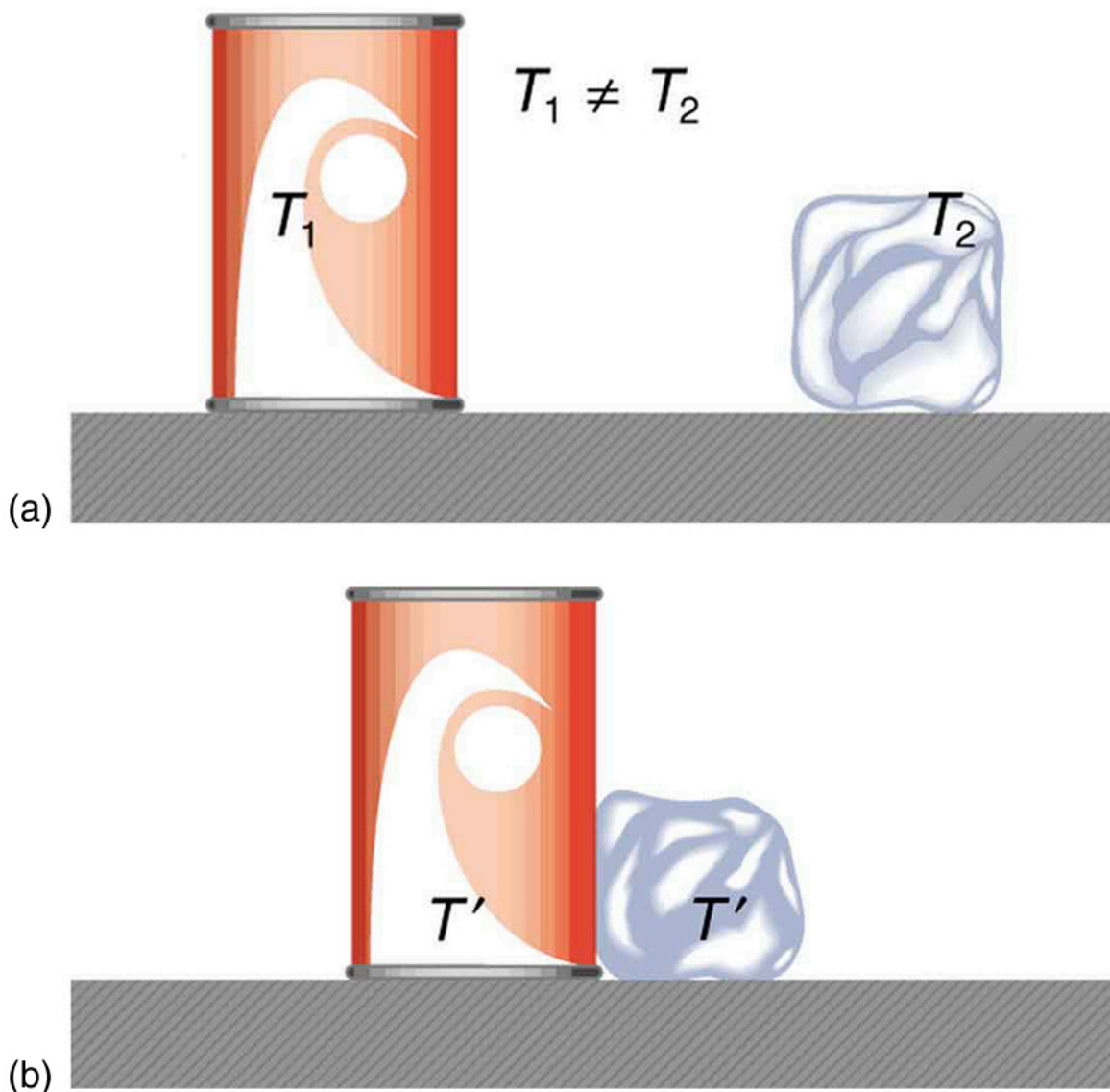
- Define heat as transfer of energy.

In [Work, Energy, and Energy Resources](#), we defined work as force times distance and learned that work done on an object changes its kinetic energy. We also saw in [Temperature, Kinetic Theory, and the Gas Laws](#) that temperature is proportional to the (average) kinetic energy of atoms and molecules. We say that a thermal system has a certain internal energy: its internal energy is higher if the temperature is higher. If two objects at different temperatures are brought in contact with each other, energy is transferred from the hotter to the colder object until equilibrium is reached and the bodies reach thermal equilibrium (i.e., they are at the same temperature). No work is done by either object, because no force acts through a distance. The transfer of energy is caused by the temperature difference, and ceases once the temperatures are equal. These observations lead to the following definition of **heat**: Heat is the spontaneous transfer of energy due to a temperature difference.

As noted in [Temperature, Kinetic Theory, and the Gas Laws](#), heat is often confused with temperature. For example, we may say the heat was unbearable, when we actually mean that the temperature was high. Heat is a form of energy, whereas temperature is not. The misconception arises because we are sensitive to the flow of heat, rather than the temperature.

Owing to the fact that heat is a form of energy, it has the SI unit of *joule* (J). The *calorie* (cal) is a common unit of energy, defined as the energy needed to change the temperature of 1.00 g of water by 1.00°C—specifically, between 14.5 °C and 15.5 °C, since there is a slight temperature dependence.

Perhaps the most common unit of heat is the **kilocalorie** (kcal), which is the energy needed to change the temperature of 1.00 kg of water by 1.00°C. Since mass is most often specified in kilograms, kilocalorie is commonly used. Food calories (given the notation Cal, and sometimes called “big calorie”) are actually kilocalories (1kilocalorie =1000calories), a fact not easily determined from package labeling.



In figure (a) the soft drink and the ice have different temperatures, (T_1) and (T_2), and are not in thermal equilibrium. In figure (b), when the soft drink and ice are allowed to interact, energy is transferred until they reach the same temperature (T'), achieving equilibrium. Heat

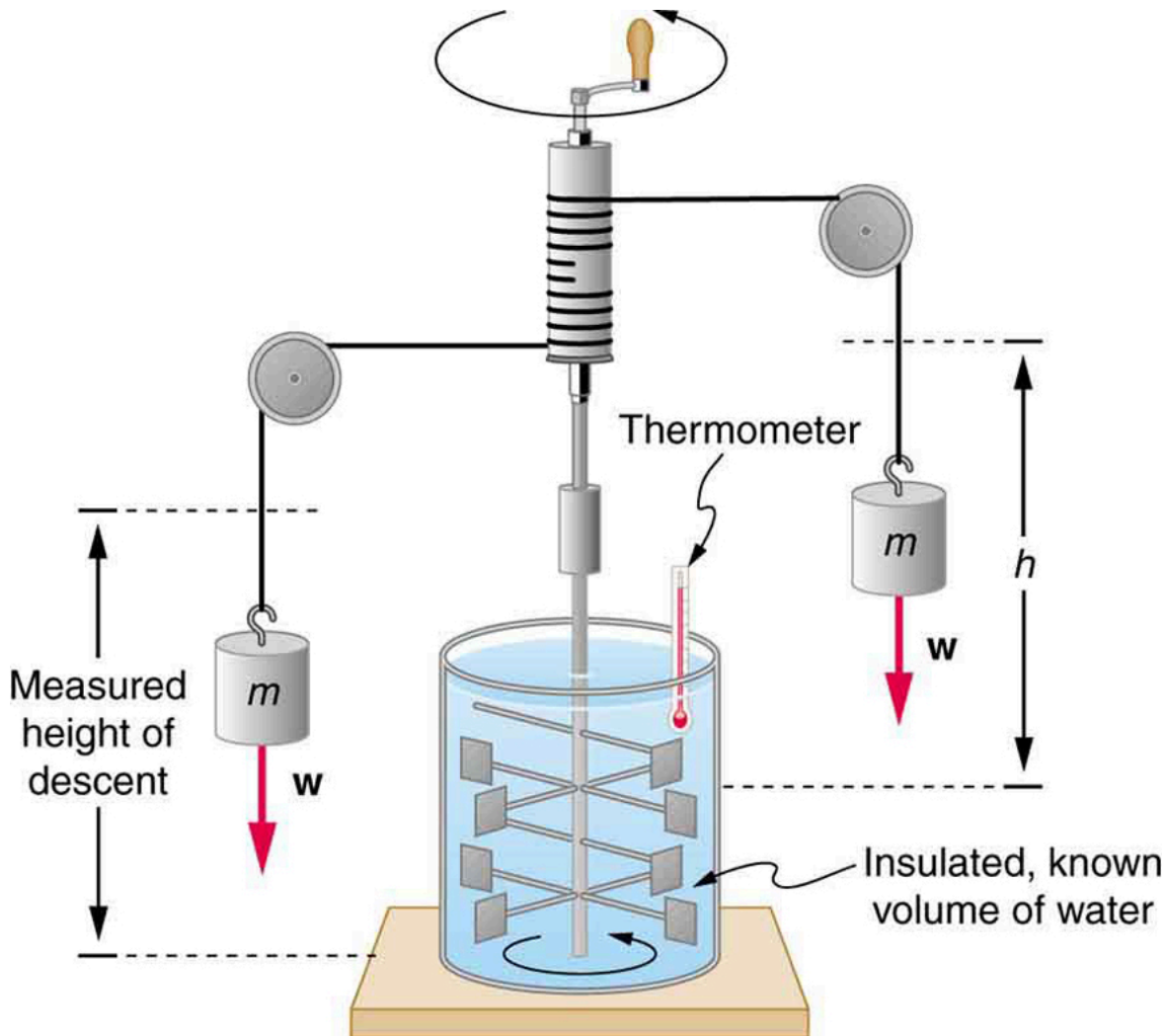
transfer occurs due to the difference in temperatures. In fact, since the soft drink and ice are both in contact with the surrounding air and bench, the equilibrium temperature will be the same for both.

Mechanical Equivalent of Heat

It is also possible to change the temperature of a substance by doing work. Work can transfer energy into or out of a system. This realization helped establish the fact that heat is a form of energy. James Prescott Joule (1818–1889) performed many experiments to establish the **mechanical equivalent of heat**—the work needed to produce the same effects as heat transfer. In terms of the units used for these two terms, the best modern value for this equivalence is

$$1.000\text{kcal}=4184\text{J}.$$

We consider this equation as the conversion between two different units of energy.



Schematic depiction of Joule's experiment that established the equivalence of heat and work.

The figure above shows one of Joule's most famous experimental setups for demonstrating the mechanical equivalent of heat. It demonstrated that work and heat can produce the same effects, and helped establish the principle of conservation of energy. Gravitational potential energy (PE) (work done by the gravitational force) is converted into kinetic energy (KE), and then randomized by viscosity and turbulence into increased average kinetic energy of atoms and molecules in the system, producing a temperature increase. His contributions to the field of thermodynamics were so significant that the SI unit of energy was named after him.

Heat added or removed from a system changes its internal energy and thus its temperature. Such a temperature increase is observed while cooking. However, adding heat does not necessarily increase the temperature. An example is melting of ice; that is, when a substance changes from one phase to another. Work done on the system or by the system can also change the internal energy of the system. Joule demonstrated that the temperature of a system can be increased by stirring. If an ice cube is rubbed against a rough surface, work is done by the frictional force. A system has a well-defined internal energy, but we cannot say that it has a certain "heat content" or "work content". We use the phrase "heat transfer" to emphasize its nature.

Check Your Understanding

Two samples (A and B) of the same substance are kept in a lab. Someone adds 10 kilojoules (kJ) of heat to one sample, while 10 kJ of work is done on the other sample. How can you tell to which sample the heat was added?

Show Solution

Heat and work both change the internal energy of the substance. However, the properties of the sample only depend on the internal energy so that it is impossible to tell whether heat was added to sample A or B.

Summary

- Heat and work are the two distinct methods of energy transfer.
- Heat is energy transferred solely due to a temperature difference.
- Any energy unit can be used for heat transfer, and the most common are kilocalorie (kcal) and joule (J).
- Kilocalorie is defined to be the energy needed to change the temperature of 1.00 kg of water between 14.5°C and 15.5°C .
- The mechanical equivalent of this heat transfer is $1.00 \text{ kcal} = 4186 \text{ J}$.

Conceptual Questions

How is heat transfer related to temperature?

Describe a situation in which heat transfer occurs. What are the resulting forms of energy?

When heat transfers into a system, is the energy stored as heat? Explain briefly.

Glossary

heat

the spontaneous transfer of energy due to a temperature difference

kilocalorie

$1 \text{ kilocalorie} = 1000 \text{ calories}$

mechanical equivalent of heat

the work needed to produce the same effects as heat transfer



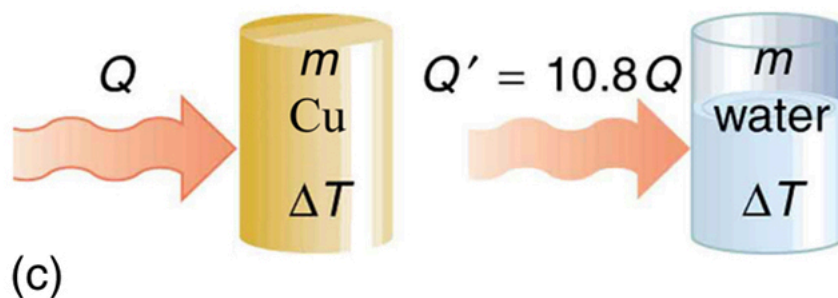
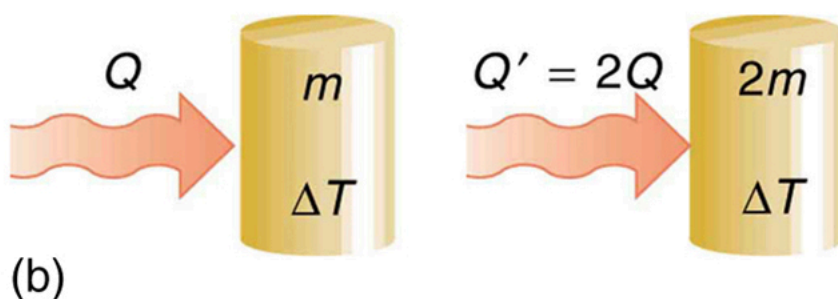
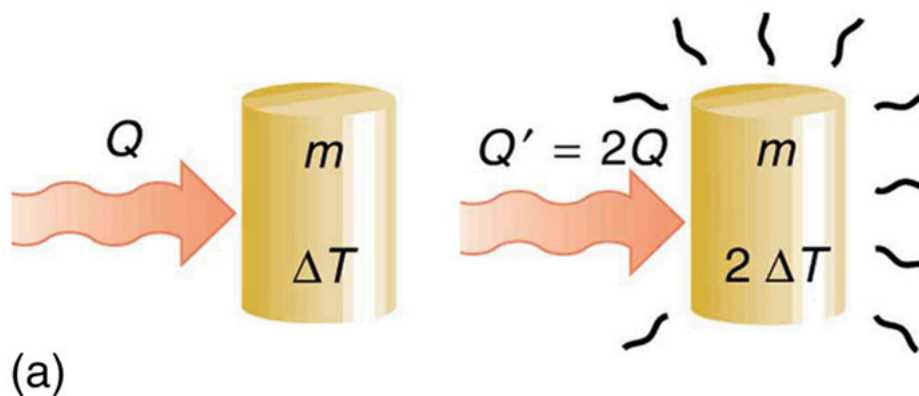
This work is licensed under a [Creative Commons Attribution 4.0 International License](https://creativecommons.org/licenses/by/4.0/).



Temperature Change and Heat Capacity

- Observe heat transfer and change in temperature and mass.
- Calculate final temperature after heat transfer between two objects.

One of the major effects of heat transfer is temperature change: heating increases the temperature while cooling decreases it. We assume that there is no phase change and that no work is done on or by the system. Experiments show that the transferred heat depends on three factors—the change in temperature, the mass of the system, and the substance and phase of the substance.



The heat Q transferred to cause a temperature change depends on the magnitude of the temperature change, the mass of the system, and the substance and phase involved. (a) The amount of heat transferred is directly proportional to the temperature change. To double the temperature change of a mass m , you need to add twice the heat. (b) The amount of heat transferred is also directly proportional to the mass. To cause an equivalent temperature change in a doubled mass, you need to add twice the heat. (c) The amount of heat transferred depends on the substance and its phase. If it takes an amount Q of heat to cause a temperature change (ΔT) in a given mass of copper, it will take 10.8 times that amount of heat to cause the equivalent temperature change in the same mass of water assuming no phase change in either substance.

The dependence on temperature change and mass are easily understood. Owing to the fact that the (average) kinetic energy of an atom or molecule is proportional to the absolute temperature, the internal energy of a system is proportional to the absolute temperature and the number of atoms or molecules. Owing to the fact that the transferred heat is equal to the change in the internal energy, the heat is proportional to the mass of the substance and the temperature change. The transferred heat also depends on the substance so that, for example, the heat necessary to raise the temperature is less for alcohol than for water. For the same substance, the transferred heat also depends on the phase (gas, liquid, or solid).

Heat Transfer and Temperature Change

The quantitative relationship between heat transfer and temperature change contains all three factors:

$$Q = mc\Delta T,$$

where Q is the symbol for heat transfer, m is the mass of the substance, and ΔT is the change in temperature. The symbol c stands for **specific heat** and depends on the material and phase. The specific heat is the amount of heat necessary to change the temperature of 1.00 kg of mass by 1.00°C. The specific heat c is a property of the substance; its SI unit is J/(kg·K) or J/(kg·°C). Recall that the temperature change (ΔT) is the same in units of kelvin and degrees Celsius. If heat transfer is measured in kilocalories, then the unit of specific heat is kcal/(kg·°C).

Values of specific heat must generally be looked up in tables, because there is no simple way to calculate them. In general, the specific heat also depends on the temperature. [Table 1] lists representative values of specific heat for various substances. Except for gases, the temperature and volume dependence of the specific heat of most substances is weak. We see from this table that the specific heat of water is five times that of glass and ten times that of iron, which means that it takes five times as much heat to raise the temperature of water the same amount as for glass and ten times as much heat to raise the temperature of water as for iron. In fact, water has one of the largest specific heats of any material, which is important for sustaining life on Earth.

Calculating the Required Heat: Heating Water in an Aluminum Pan

A 0.500 kg aluminum pan on a stove is used to heat 0.250 liters of water from 20.0°C to 80.0°C. (a) How much heat is required? What percentage of the heat is used to raise the temperature of (b) the pan and (c) the water?

Strategy

The pan and the water are always at the same temperature. When you put the pan on the stove, the temperature of the water and the pan is increased by the same amount. We use the equation for the heat transfer for the given temperature change and mass of water and aluminum. The specific heat values for water and aluminum are given in [Table 1].

Solution

Because water is in thermal contact with the aluminum, the pan and the water are at the same temperature.

1. Calculate the temperature difference:

$$\Delta T = T_f - T_i = 60.0^\circ\text{C}.$$

2. Calculate the mass of water. Because the density of water is 1000 kg/m³, one liter of water has a mass of 1 kg, and the mass of 0.250 liters of water is $m_W = 0.250 \text{ kg}$.

3. Calculate the heat transferred to the water. Use the specific heat of water in [Table 1]:

$$Q_W = m_W c_W \Delta T = (0.250 \text{ kg})(4186 \text{ J/kg}^\circ\text{C})(60.0^\circ\text{C}) = 62.8 \text{ kJ}.$$

4. Calculate the heat transferred to the aluminum. Use the specific heat for aluminum in [Table 1]:

$$Q_A = m_A c_A \Delta T = (0.500 \text{ kg})(900 \text{ J/kg}^\circ\text{C})(60.0^\circ\text{C}) = 27.0 \times 10^4 \text{ J} = 27.0 \text{ kJ}.$$

5. Compare the percentage of heat going into the pan versus that going into the water. First, find the total transferred heat:

$$Q_{\text{Total}} = Q_W + Q_A = 62.8 \text{ kJ} + 27.0 \text{ kJ} = 89.8 \text{ kJ}.$$

Thus, the amount of heat going into heating the pan is

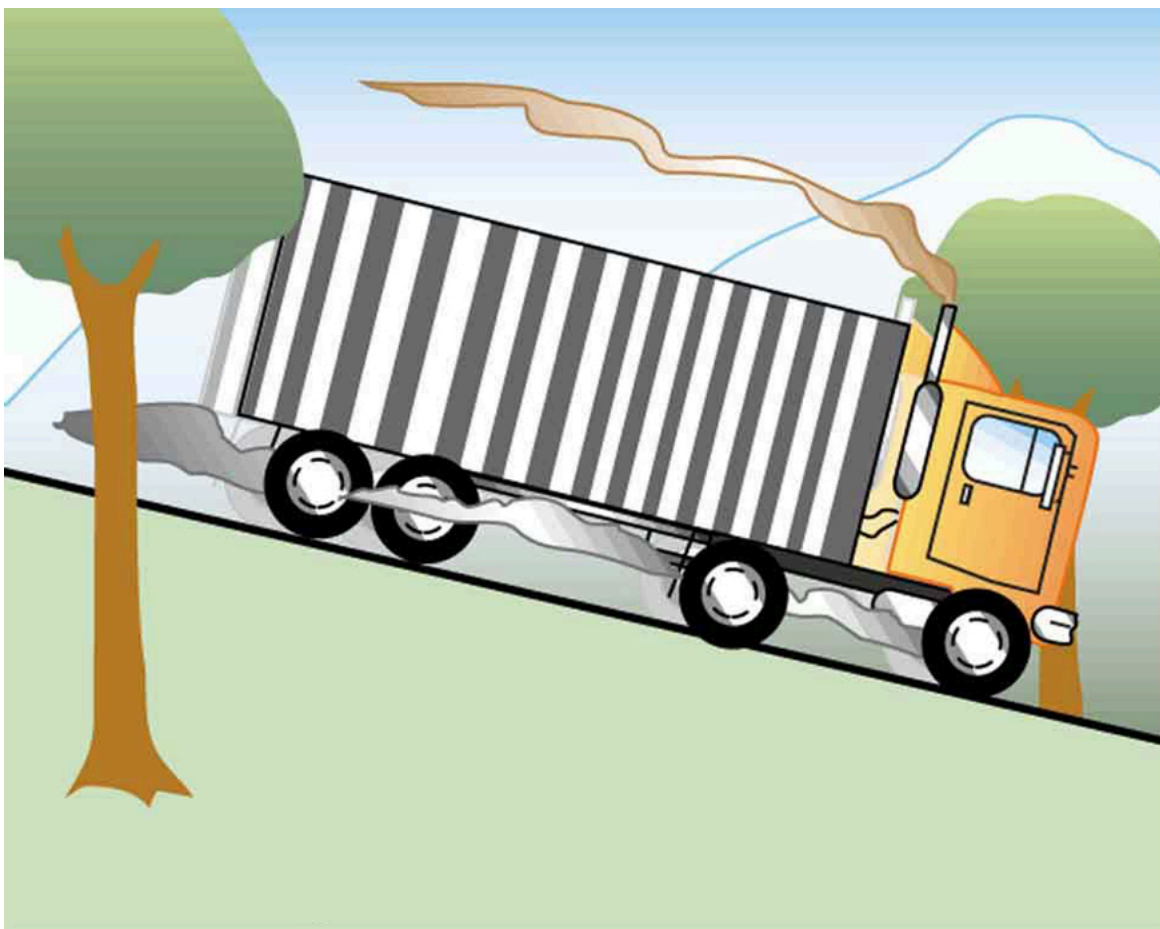
$$\frac{27.0 \text{ kJ}}{89.8 \text{ kJ}} \times 100\% = 30.1\%,$$

and the amount going into heating the water is

$$\frac{62.8 \text{ kJ}}{89.8 \text{ kJ}} \times 100\% = 69.9\%.$$

Discussion

In this example, the heat transferred to the container is a significant fraction of the total transferred heat. Although the mass of the pan is twice that of the water, the specific heat of water is over four times greater than that of aluminum. Therefore, it takes a bit more than twice the heat to achieve the given temperature change for the water as compared to the aluminum pan.



The smoking brakes on this truck are a visible evidence of the mechanical equivalent of heat.

Calculating the Temperature Increase from the Work Done on a Substance: Truck Brakes Overheat on Downhill Runs

Truck brakes used to control speed on a downhill run do work, converting gravitational potential energy into increased internal energy (higher temperature) of the brake material. This conversion prevents the gravitational potential energy from being converted into kinetic energy of the truck. The problem is that the mass of the truck is large compared with that of the brake material absorbing the energy, and the temperature increase may occur too fast for sufficient heat to transfer from the brakes to the environment.

Calculate the temperature increase of 100 kg of brake material with an average specific heat of $800 \text{ J/kg} \cdot ^\circ\text{C}$ if the material retains 10% of the energy from a 10 000-kg truck descending 75.0 m (in vertical displacement) at a constant speed.

Strategy

If the brakes are not applied, gravitational potential energy is converted into kinetic energy. When brakes are applied, gravitational potential energy is converted into internal energy of the brake material. We first calculate the gravitational potential energy (Mgh) that the entire truck loses in its descent and then find the temperature increase produced in the brake material alone.

Solution

1. Calculate the change in gravitational potential energy as the truck goes downhill

$$Mgh = (10000 \text{ kg})(9.80 \text{ m/s}^2)(75.0 \text{ m}) = 7.35 \times 10^6 \text{ J}.$$

2. Calculate the temperature from the heat transferred using $Q = 0.1Mgh$

$$\Delta T = Qmc,$$

where m is the mass of the brake material. Since only 10% of the gravitational potential energy is retained as heat, $Q = 0.1 \times 7.35 \times 10^6 \text{ J} = 7.35 \times 10^5 \text{ J}$.

Insert the values $m = 100 \text{ kg}$ and $c = 800 \text{ J/kg} \cdot ^\circ\text{C}$ to find

$$\Delta T = (7.35 \times 10^5 \text{ J})(100 \text{ kg})(800 \text{ J/kg} \cdot ^\circ\text{C}) = 9.2^\circ\text{C}.$$

Discussion

This same idea underlies the recent hybrid technology of cars, where mechanical energy (gravitational potential energy) is converted by the brakes into electrical energy (battery).

Specific Heats¹ of Various Substances

Substances	Specific heat (c)	
	J/kg·°C	kcal/kg·°C ²
Solids		
Aluminum	900	0.215
Asbestos	800	0.19
Concrete, granite (average)	840	0.20
Copper	387	0.0924
Glass	840	0.20
Gold	129	0.0308
Human body (average at 37 °C)	3500	0.83
Ice (average, -50°C to 0°C)	2090	0.50
Iron, steel	452	0.108
Lead	128	0.0305
Silver	235	0.0562
Wood	1700	0.4
Liquids		
Benzene	1740	0.415
Ethanol	2450	0.586
Glycerin	2410	0.576
Mercury	139	0.0333
Water (15.0 °C)	4186	1.000
Gases³		
Air (dry)	721 (1015)	0.172 (0.242)
Ammonia	1670 (2190)	0.399 (0.523)
Carbon dioxide	638 (833)	0.152 (0.199)
Nitrogen	739 (1040)	0.177 (0.248)
Oxygen	651 (913)	0.156 (0.218)
Steam (100°C)	1520 (2020)	0.363 (0.482)

Note that [\[Example 2\]](#) is an illustration of the mechanical equivalent of heat. Alternatively, the temperature increase could be produced by a blow torch instead of mechanically.

Calculating the Final Temperature When Heat Is Transferred Between Two Bodies: Pouring Cold Water in a Hot Pan

Suppose you pour 0.250 kg of 20.0°C water (about a cup) into a 0.500-kg aluminum pan off the stove with a temperature of 150°C. Assume that the pan is placed on an insulated pad and that a negligible amount of water boils off. What is the temperature when the water and pan reach thermal equilibrium a short time later?

Strategy

The pan is placed on an insulated pad so that little heat transfer occurs with the surroundings. Originally the pan and water are not in thermal equilibrium: the pan is at a higher temperature than the water. Heat transfer then restores thermal equilibrium once the water and pan are in contact. Because heat transfer between the pan and water takes place rapidly, the mass of evaporated water is negligible and the magnitude of the heat lost by the pan is equal to the heat gained by the water. The exchange of heat stops once a thermal equilibrium between the pan and the water is achieved. The heat exchange can be written as $|Q_{\text{hot}}| = Q_{\text{cold}}$.

Solution

- Use the equation for heat transfer $Q = mc\Delta T$ to express the heat lost by the aluminum pan in terms of the mass of the pan, the specific heat of aluminum, the initial temperature of the pan, and the final temperature:
 $Q_{\text{hot}} = m_{\text{Al}} c_{\text{Al}} (T_{\text{f}} - 150^\circ\text{C})$.
- Express the heat gained by the water in terms of the mass of the water, the specific heat of water, the initial temperature of the water and the final temperature:
 $Q_{\text{cold}} = m_{\text{W}} c_{\text{W}} (T_{\text{f}} - 20.0^\circ\text{C})$.
- Note that $Q_{\text{hot}} < 0$ and $Q_{\text{cold}} > 0$ and that they must sum to zero because the heat lost by the hot pan must be the same as the heat gained by the cold water:
 $Q_{\text{cold}} + Q_{\text{hot}} = 0$, $Q_{\text{cold}} = -Q_{\text{hot}}$, $m_{\text{W}} c_{\text{W}} (T_{\text{f}} - 20.0^\circ\text{C}) = -m_{\text{Al}} c_{\text{Al}} (T_{\text{f}} - 150^\circ\text{C})$.
- This an equation for the unknown final temperature, T_{f}
- Bring all terms involving T_{f} on the left-hand side and all other terms on the right-hand side. Solve for T_{f} ,
 $T_{\text{f}} = m_{\text{Al}} c_{\text{Al}} (150^\circ\text{C}) + m_{\text{W}} c_{\text{W}} (20.0^\circ\text{C}) / (m_{\text{Al}} c_{\text{Al}} + m_{\text{W}} c_{\text{W}})$,

and insert the numerical values:

$$T_f = (0.500\text{kg})(900\text{J/kg}\cdot^\circ\text{C})(150^\circ\text{C}) + (0.250\text{kg})(4186\text{J/kg}\cdot^\circ\text{C})(20.0^\circ\text{C}) + (0.500\text{kg})(900\text{J/kg}\cdot^\circ\text{C}) + (0.250\text{kg})(4186\text{J/kg}\cdot^\circ\text{C}) = 88430\text{J} + 1496.5\text{J} = 89926.5\text{J} = 59.1^\circ\text{C}.$$

Discussion

This is a typical *calorimetry* problem—two bodies at different temperatures are brought in contact with each other and exchange heat until a common temperature is reached. Why is the final temperature so much closer to 20.0°C than 150°C ? The reason is that water has a greater specific heat than most common substances and thus undergoes a small temperature change for a given heat transfer. A large body of water, such as a lake, requires a large amount of heat to increase its temperature appreciably. This explains why the temperature of a lake stays relatively constant during a day even when the temperature change of the air is large. However, the water temperature does change over longer times (e.g., summer to winter).

Take-Home Experiment: Temperature Change of Land and Water

What heats faster, land or water?

To study differences in heat capacity:

- Place equal masses of dry sand (or soil) and water at the same temperature into two small jars. (The average density of soil or sand is about 1.6 times that of water, so you can achieve approximately equal masses by using 50% more water by volume.)
- Heat both (using an oven or a heat lamp) for the same amount of time.
- Record the final temperature of the two masses.
- Now bring both jars to the same temperature by heating for a longer period of time.
- Remove the jars from the heat source and measure their temperature every 5 minutes for about 30 minutes.

Which sample cools off the fastest? This activity replicates the phenomena responsible for land breezes and sea breezes.

Check Your Understanding

If 25 kJ is necessary to raise the temperature of a block from 25°C to 30°C , how much heat is necessary to heat the block from 45°C to 50°C ?

Show Solution

The heat transfer depends only on the temperature difference. Since the temperature differences are the same in both cases, the same 25 kJ is necessary in the second case.

Summary

- The transfer of heat Q that leads to a change ΔT in the temperature of a body with mass m is $Q = mc\Delta T$, where c is the specific heat of the material. This relationship can also be considered as the definition of specific heat.

Conceptual Questions

What three factors affect the heat transfer that is necessary to change an object's temperature?

The brakes in a car increase in temperature by ΔT when bringing the car to rest from a speed v . How much greater would ΔT be if the car initially had twice the speed? You may assume the car to stop sufficiently fast so that no heat transfers out of the brakes.

Problems & Exercises

On a hot day, the temperature of an 80 000-L swimming pool increases by 1.50°C . What is the net heat transfer during this heating? Ignore any complications, such as loss of water by evaporation.

Show Solution

$$5.02 \times 10^8 \text{ J}$$

Show that $1\text{cal/g}\cdot^\circ\text{C} = 1\text{kcal/kg}\cdot^\circ\text{C}$.

Show Solution

Strategy

We need to show that these two units are equivalent by converting from one to the other using the relationships: 1 kilocalorie = 1000 calories and 1 kilogram = 1000 grams.

Solution

Start with $1\text{cal/g}\cdot^\circ\text{C}$ and convert to $\text{kcal/kg}\cdot^\circ\text{C}$:

$$1\text{cal/g}\cdot^\circ\text{C} \times 1\text{ kcal}/1000\text{ cal} \times 1000\text{ g}/1\text{ kg} = 1\text{kcal/kg}\cdot^\circ\text{C}$$

The factors of 1000 cancel:

$$1\text{ cal}\cdot^{\circ}\text{C}=1000\text{ cal}\cdot^{\circ}\text{C}=1\text{ kcal}\cdot^{\circ}\text{C}$$

Discussion

This demonstrates that the two units are indeed equivalent. This is why the specific heat of water can be expressed as either $1.00\text{ cal/g}\cdot^{\circ}\text{C}$ or $1.00\text{ kcal/kg}\cdot^{\circ}\text{C}$. When we increase the mass unit by a factor of 1000 (g to kg), we must also increase the energy unit by the same factor (cal to kcal) to maintain the same value for specific heat.

Answer

The two units are equivalent: $1\text{ cal/g}\cdot^{\circ}\text{C}=1\text{ kcal/kg}\cdot^{\circ}\text{C}$.

To sterilize a 50.0-g glass baby bottle, we must raise its temperature from 22.0°C to 95.0°C . How much heat transfer is required?

Show Solution

Strategy

We use the equation $Q=mc\Delta T$ to calculate the heat transfer required. We need the mass of the glass bottle, the temperature change, and the specific heat of glass from Table 1.

Solution

Given:

- Mass: $m=50.0\text{ g}=0.0500\text{ kg}$
- Initial temperature: $T_i=22.0^{\circ}\text{C}$
- Final temperature: $T_f=95.0^{\circ}\text{C}$
- Specific heat of glass: $c=840\text{ J/kg}\cdot^{\circ}\text{C}$ (from Table 1)

Calculate the temperature change:

$$\Delta T=T_f-T_i=95.0^{\circ}\text{C}-22.0^{\circ}\text{C}=73.0^{\circ}\text{C}$$

Calculate the heat transfer:

$$Q=mc\Delta T=(0.0500\text{ kg})(840\text{ J/kg}\cdot^{\circ}\text{C})(73.0^{\circ}\text{C})$$

$$Q=3066\text{ J}=3.07\times 10^3\text{ J}=3.07\text{ kJ}$$

Discussion

The heat required (3.07 kJ) is relatively small because the mass of the glass bottle is small (only 50 g). This amount of energy is comparable to what a 100-watt light bulb produces in about 30 seconds. Sterilization requires heating to at least $80\text{--}100^{\circ}\text{C}$ to kill bacteria and viruses, and the modest energy requirement makes it practical to sterilize baby bottles frequently.

Glass is chosen for baby bottles (though plastic is now more common) partly because it can withstand repeated heating without degrading. The specific heat of glass ($840\text{ J/kg}\cdot^{\circ}\text{C}$) is similar to concrete but much lower than water, meaning glass heats up relatively quickly when placed in boiling water or a sterilizer.

In practice, when sterilizing in boiling water, you must also heat the water or contents inside the bottle, which would require significantly more energy due to water's much higher specific heat.

Answer

The heat transfer required to sterilize the glass baby bottle is **3.07 kJ** or **$3.07\times 10^3\text{ J}$** .

The same heat transfer into identical masses of different substances produces different temperature changes. Calculate the final temperature when 1.00 kcal of heat transfers into 1.00 kg of the following, originally at 20.0°C

- (a) water; (b) concrete; (c) steel; and (d) mercury.

Show Solution

Strategy

We use the equation $Q=mc\Delta T$ to find the temperature change for each substance. The final temperature is $T_f=T_i+\Delta T$. We need to look up the specific heat values from Table 1 and convert the heat from kcal to appropriate units.

Solution

Given: $Q=1.00\text{ kcal}=4186\text{ J}$, $m=1.00\text{ kg}$, $T_i=20.0^{\circ}\text{C}$

Rearranging $Q=mc\Delta T$:

$$\Delta T = Qmc$$

(a) **Water:** $c = 4186 \text{ J/kg} \cdot ^\circ\text{C}$

$$\Delta T = 4186 \text{ J}(1.00 \text{ kg})(4186 \text{ J/kg} \cdot ^\circ\text{C}) = 1.00^\circ\text{C}$$

$$T_f = 20.0^\circ\text{C} + 1.00^\circ\text{C} = 21.0^\circ\text{C}$$

(b) **Concrete:** $c = 840 \text{ J/kg} \cdot ^\circ\text{C}$

$$\Delta T = 4186 \text{ J}(1.00 \text{ kg})(840 \text{ J/kg} \cdot ^\circ\text{C}) = 4.98^\circ\text{C}$$

$$T_f = 20.0^\circ\text{C} + 4.98^\circ\text{C} = 25.0^\circ\text{C}$$

(c) **Steel:** $c = 452 \text{ J/kg} \cdot ^\circ\text{C}$

$$\Delta T = 4186 \text{ J}(1.00 \text{ kg})(452 \text{ J/kg} \cdot ^\circ\text{C}) = 9.26^\circ\text{C}$$

$$T_f = 20.0^\circ\text{C} + 9.26^\circ\text{C} = 29.3^\circ\text{C}$$

(d) **Mercury:** $c = 139 \text{ J/kg} \cdot ^\circ\text{C}$

$$\Delta T = 4186 \text{ J}(1.00 \text{ kg})(139 \text{ J/kg} \cdot ^\circ\text{C}) = 30.1^\circ\text{C}$$

$$T_f = 20.0^\circ\text{C} + 30.1^\circ\text{C} = 50.1^\circ\text{C}$$

Discussion

The results clearly show that substances with lower specific heats experience larger temperature changes for the same heat transfer. Water, with its very high specific heat, changes temperature the least (only 1.00°C), while mercury, with a much lower specific heat, experiences the largest temperature change (30.1°C). This is why water is an excellent thermal regulator and is used in cooling systems—it can absorb large amounts of heat with minimal temperature change. The large specific heat of water is also why coastal regions have more moderate climates than inland areas.

Answer

(a) Water: $T_f = 21.0^\circ\text{C}$ (b) Concrete: $T_f = 25.0^\circ\text{C}$ (c) Steel: $T_f = 29.3^\circ\text{C}$ (d) Mercury: $T_f = 50.1^\circ\text{C}$

Rubbing your hands together warms them by converting work into thermal energy. If a woman rubs her hands back and forth for a total of 20 rubs, at a distance of 7.50 cm per rub, and with an average frictional force of 40.0 N, what is the temperature increase? The mass of tissues warmed is only 0.100 kg, mostly in the palms and fingers.

Show Solution

Strategy

This problem illustrates the mechanical equivalent of heat. The work done by friction is converted into thermal energy, which raises the temperature of the hand tissues. We first calculate the total work done using $W = Fd$, then equate this to the heat absorbed: $Q = W = mc\Delta T$, and solve for the temperature increase.

Solution

Given:

- Number of rubs: $N = 20$
- Distance per rub: $d = 7.50 \text{ cm} = 0.0750 \text{ m}$
- Frictional force: $F = 40.0 \text{ N}$
- Mass of tissue: $m = 0.100 \text{ kg}$
- Specific heat of human tissue: $c = 3500 \text{ J/kg} \cdot ^\circ\text{C}$ (from Table 1)

Calculate total distance:

$$d_{total} = N \times d = 20 \times 0.0750 \text{ m} = 1.50 \text{ m}$$

Calculate work done by friction:

$$W = Fd_{total} = (40.0 \text{ N})(1.50 \text{ m}) = 60.0 \text{ J}$$

This work is converted to heat:

$$Q = W = 60.0 \text{ J}$$

Using $Q = mc\Delta T$, solve for temperature increase:

$$\Delta T = Qmc = 60.0 \text{ J}(0.100 \text{ kg})(3500 \text{ J/kg} \cdot ^\circ\text{C})$$

$$\Delta T = 60.0350 = 0.171^\circ\text{C}$$

Discussion

The temperature increase of 0.171°C may seem small, but it's readily perceptible. Human skin is quite sensitive to temperature changes as small as 0.1°C , so you can definitely feel your hands getting warmer when rubbing them together.

This example demonstrates the mechanical equivalent of heat—mechanical work is converted directly into thermal energy. The relatively small temperature increase occurs because human tissue has a high specific heat ($3500 \text{ J/kg}\cdot^\circ\text{C}$), nearly as high as water. This high specific heat is beneficial for temperature regulation in the body.

If you wanted to increase the warming effect, you could:

1. Rub more times (increase N)
2. Rub faster and with more pressure (increase F)
3. Use longer strokes (increase d)

This principle is used for survival: rubbing hands together or doing physical exercise generates heat through friction and muscle work, helping maintain body temperature in cold conditions.

Answer

The temperature increase from rubbing hands together is **0.171°C** .

A 0.250-kg block of a pure material is heated from 20.0°C to 65.0°C by the addition of 4.35 kJ of energy. Calculate its specific heat and identify the substance of which it is most likely composed.

Show Solution

Strategy

We use the equation $Q = mc\Delta T$ and solve for the specific heat c . Then we compare the calculated value to the specific heats in Table 1 to identify the substance.

Solution

Given:

- $m = 0.250 \text{ kg}$
- $T_i = 20.0^\circ\text{C}$, $T_f = 65.0^\circ\text{C}$
- $Q = 4.35 \text{ kJ} = 4350 \text{ J}$

Calculate the temperature change:

$$\Delta T = T_f - T_i = 65.0^\circ\text{C} - 20.0^\circ\text{C} = 45.0^\circ\text{C}$$

Solve $Q = mc\Delta T$ for c :

$$c = Q/m\Delta T = 4350 \text{ J} / (0.250 \text{ kg})(45.0^\circ\text{C}) = 4350 / 11.25 = 387 \text{ J/kg}\cdot^\circ\text{C}$$

Comparing to Table 1, we find that copper has a specific heat of $387 \text{ J/kg}\cdot^\circ\text{C}$.

Discussion

The calculated specific heat of $387 \text{ J/kg}\cdot^\circ\text{C}$ matches exactly with the specific heat of copper listed in Table 1. This is a reasonable result because copper is a common material used for blocks in calorimetry experiments due to its good thermal properties and availability. The relatively low specific heat of copper (compared to water) means that it doesn't take much energy to change its temperature significantly, which is characteristic of metals.

Answer

The specific heat is $c = 387 \text{ J/kg}\cdot^\circ\text{C}$, and the substance is most likely **copper**.

Suppose identical amounts of heat transfer into different masses of copper and water, causing identical changes in temperature. What is the ratio of the mass of copper to water?

Show Solution

Strategy

We use the equation $Q = mc\Delta T$ for both copper and water. Since the heat transfer Q and temperature change ΔT are identical for both substances, we can set the two equations equal and solve for the mass ratio.

Solution

For water:

$$Q = m_W c_W \Delta T$$

For copper:

$$Q = m_{Cu} c_{Cu} \Delta T$$

Since both heat transfers and temperature changes are equal:

$$m_W c_W \Delta T = m_{Cu} c_{Cu} \Delta T$$

The ΔT cancels:

$$m_W c_W = m_{Cu} c_{Cu}$$

Solving for the mass ratio:

$$m_{Cu} m_W = c_W c_{Cu}$$

From Table 1:

- Specific heat of water: $c_W = 4186 \text{ J/kg} \cdot ^\circ\text{C}$
- Specific heat of copper: $c_{Cu} = 387 \text{ J/kg} \cdot ^\circ\text{C}$

$$m_{Cu} m_W = 4186/387 = 10.8$$

Discussion

The mass ratio of 10.8:1 means you need **10.8 kg of copper** to absorb the same amount of heat as **1 kg of water** for the same temperature change. This dramatically illustrates why water has such exceptional thermal properties.

This huge difference arises because water has one of the highest specific heats of any common substance ($4186 \text{ J/kg} \cdot ^\circ\text{C}$), while copper, like most metals, has a much lower specific heat ($387 \text{ J/kg} \cdot ^\circ\text{C}$). Water's high specific heat makes it excellent for:

1. **Cooling systems** - Car radiators and industrial cooling use water because it can absorb large amounts of heat with minimal temperature rise
2. **Climate moderation** - Oceans and lakes moderate coastal and regional climates because water temperature changes slowly
3. **Thermal energy storage** - Solar hot water systems and heating systems use water to store thermal energy efficiently
4. **Cooking** - Water in food prevents it from overheating quickly

Conversely, metals like copper heat up and cool down quickly, making them ideal for cooking utensils where rapid heat transfer is desired.

Answer

The ratio of the mass of copper to water is **10.8:1** or simply **10.8**.

(a) The number of kilocalories in food is determined by calorimetry techniques in which the food is burned and the amount of heat transfer is measured. How many kilocalories per gram are there in a 5.00-g peanut if the energy from burning it is transferred to 0.500 kg of water held in a 0.100-kg aluminum cup, causing a 54.9°C temperature increase? (b) Compare your answer to labeling information found on a package of peanuts and comment on whether the values are consistent.

Show Solution

Strategy

The energy released by burning the peanut equals the heat absorbed by both the water and the aluminum cup. We calculate the heat absorbed using $Q = mc\Delta T$ for both, then divide by the mass of the peanut to get energy per gram.

Solution

Given:

- Mass of peanut: $m_P = 5.00 \text{ g}$
- Mass of water: $m_W = 0.500 \text{ kg} = 500 \text{ g}$
- Mass of aluminum cup: $m_{Al} = 0.100 \text{ kg} = 100 \text{ g}$
- Temperature increase: $\Delta T = 54.9^\circ\text{C}$
- Specific heat of water: $c_W = 1.00 \text{ kcal/kg} \cdot ^\circ\text{C} = 1.00 \text{ cal/g} \cdot ^\circ\text{C}$
- Specific heat of aluminum: $c_{Al} = 0.215 \text{ kcal/kg} \cdot ^\circ\text{C} = 0.215 \text{ cal/g} \cdot ^\circ\text{C}$

(a) Calculate heat absorbed by water:

$$Q_W = m_W c_W \Delta T = (500 \text{ g})(1.00 \text{ cal/g} \cdot ^\circ\text{C})(54.9^\circ\text{C}) = 27450 \text{ cal}$$

Calculate heat absorbed by aluminum cup:

$$Q_{Al} = m_{Al} c_{Al} \Delta T = (100 \text{ g})(0.215 \text{ cal/g} \cdot ^\circ\text{C})(54.9^\circ\text{C}) = 1180 \text{ cal}$$

Total heat released by peanut:

$$Q_{total} = Q_w + Q_{Al} = 27450 + 1180 = 28630 \text{ cal} = 28.6 \text{ kcal}$$

Energy per gram of peanut:

$$Q_{total} m_p = 28.6 \text{ kcal} / 5.00 \text{ g} = 5.72 \text{ kcal/g}$$

(b) Typical nutritional labels for peanuts show approximately 5.5-6.0 kcal/g (or about 160-170 Calories per ounce, where 1 Calorie = 1 kcal). Our calculated value of 5.72 kcal/g is consistent with this range.

Discussion

The calculated energy content of 5.72 kcal/g is very reasonable for peanuts. Peanuts are high in fat and protein, making them energy-dense foods. The fact that we must heat both the water and the aluminum cup is important—if we had neglected the cup, we would have underestimated the energy content of the peanut by about 4%. This demonstrates why precise calorimetry requires accounting for all objects that absorb heat in the system.

The consistency with nutritional labeling validates both our calculation and the bomb calorimetry techniques used to determine food energy content. These techniques are fundamental to nutrition science and food labeling requirements.

Answer

(a) The peanut contains **5.72 kcal/g** of energy. (b) This value is consistent with typical peanut labeling (5.5-6.0 kcal/g), confirming our calculation.

Following vigorous exercise, the body temperature of an 80.0-kg person is 40.0°C . At what rate in watts must the person transfer thermal energy to reduce the body temperature to 37.0°C in 30.0 min, assuming the body continues to produce energy at the rate of 150 W? (1 watt = 1 joule/second or $1 \text{ W} = 1 \text{ J/s}$).

Show Solution

Strategy

We need to calculate how much heat must be removed to cool the body from 40.0°C to 37.0°C , then determine the rate at which this heat must be transferred. However, the body continues producing heat at 150 W during the cooling period, so the total rate of heat transfer out must account for both cooling AND removing the continuously produced heat.

Solution

Given:

- Mass: $m = 80.0 \text{ kg}$
- Initial temperature: $T_i = 40.0^\circ\text{C}$
- Final temperature: $T_f = 37.0^\circ\text{C}$
- Time: $t = 30.0 \text{ min} = 1800 \text{ s}$
- Metabolic heat production: $P_{metabolic} = 150 \text{ W}$
- Specific heat of human body: $c = 3500 \text{ J/kg} \cdot ^\circ\text{C}$ (from Table 1)

Step 1: Calculate heat that must be removed to cool the body:

$$Q_{cool} = mc\Delta T = (80.0 \text{ kg})(3500 \text{ J/kg} \cdot ^\circ\text{C})(40.0 - 37.0)^\circ\text{C}$$

$$Q_{cool} = (80.0)(3500)(3.0) = 840000 \text{ J} = 8.40 \times 10^5 \text{ J}$$

Step 2: Calculate rate needed to remove this heat in 30 minutes:

$$P_{cool} = Q_{cool} / t = 8.40 \times 10^5 \text{ J} / 1800 \text{ s} = 467 \text{ W}$$

Step 3: Calculate total heat transfer rate needed:

The body must transfer out both:

- Heat to cool down: 467 W
- Metabolic heat being produced: 150 W

$$P_{total} = P_{cool} + P_{metabolic} = 467 + 150 = 617 \text{ W}$$

Discussion

The body must transfer heat at a rate of 617 W to cool down in 30 minutes while continuing to produce metabolic heat. This is a substantial rate—about six times the power of a 100-watt light bulb.

The body accomplishes this cooling through multiple mechanisms:

1. **Evaporation of sweat** - Most effective, accounts for ~80% of cooling during exercise
2. **Increased blood flow to skin** - Enhances convection and radiation
3. **Increased respiration** - Evaporates moisture from lungs and airways
4. **Radiation and convection** - Direct heat transfer to cooler surroundings

During vigorous exercise, metabolic rates can reach 1000 W or higher, which is why athletes sweat profusely—evaporative cooling is essential. The cooling rate of 617 W could be achieved by evaporating approximately 0.25 kg (250 mL) of sweat over the 30-minute period, which is quite realistic for post-exercise recovery.

This calculation shows why it's important to cool down gradually after exercise and why hydration is critical—you need water for sweat production to dissipate excess heat safely.

Answer

The person must transfer thermal energy at a rate of **617 W** to reduce body temperature from 40.0°C to 37.0°C in 30 minutes while metabolic processes continue.

Even when shut down after a period of normal use, a large commercial nuclear reactor transfers thermal energy at the rate of 150 MW by the radioactive decay of fission products. This heat transfer causes a rapid increase in temperature if the cooling system fails (1 watt = 1 joule/second or 1 W = 1 J/s and 1 MW = 1 megawatt). (a) Calculate the rate of temperature increase in degrees Celsius per second (°C/s) if the mass of the reactor core is $1.60 \times 10^5 \text{ kg}$ and it has an average specific heat of $0.3349 \text{ kJ/kg} \cdot ^\circ\text{C}$. (b) How long would it take to obtain a temperature increase of 2000°C , which could cause some metals holding the radioactive materials to melt? (The initial rate of temperature increase would be greater than that calculated here because the heat transfer is concentrated in a smaller mass. Later, however, the temperature increase would slow down because the $5 \times 10^5 \text{ kg}$ steel containment vessel would also begin to heat up.)

Show Solution

Strategy

We use the relationship between power (rate of heat transfer), mass, specific heat, and rate of temperature change. Starting with $Q = mc\Delta T$ and dividing both sides by time t , we get $Qt = mc\Delta T$, where Qt is the power and ΔT is the rate of temperature change.

Solution

Given:

- Power: $P = Qt = 150 \text{ MW} = 150 \times 10^6 \text{ W} = 1.50 \times 10^8 \text{ J/s}$
- Mass: $m = 1.60 \times 10^5 \text{ kg}$
- Specific heat: $c = 0.3349 \text{ kJ/kg} \cdot ^\circ\text{C} = 334.9 \text{ J/kg} \cdot ^\circ\text{C}$

(a) Solve for the rate of temperature increase:

From $P = mc\Delta T$:

$$\Delta T = Pmc = 1.50 \times 10^8 \text{ J/s} (1.60 \times 10^5 \text{ kg}) (334.9 \text{ J/kg} \cdot ^\circ\text{C})$$

$$\Delta T = 1.50 \times 10^8 5.358 \times 10^7 = 2.80 \text{ } ^\circ\text{C/s}$$

(b) Time to reach $\Delta T = 2000^\circ\text{C}$:

$$t = \Delta T \Delta T / t = 2000^\circ\text{C} 2.80 \text{ } ^\circ\text{C/s} = 714 \text{ s}$$

Converting to minutes:

$$t = 714 \text{ s} 60 \text{ s/min} = 11.9 \text{ min}$$

Discussion

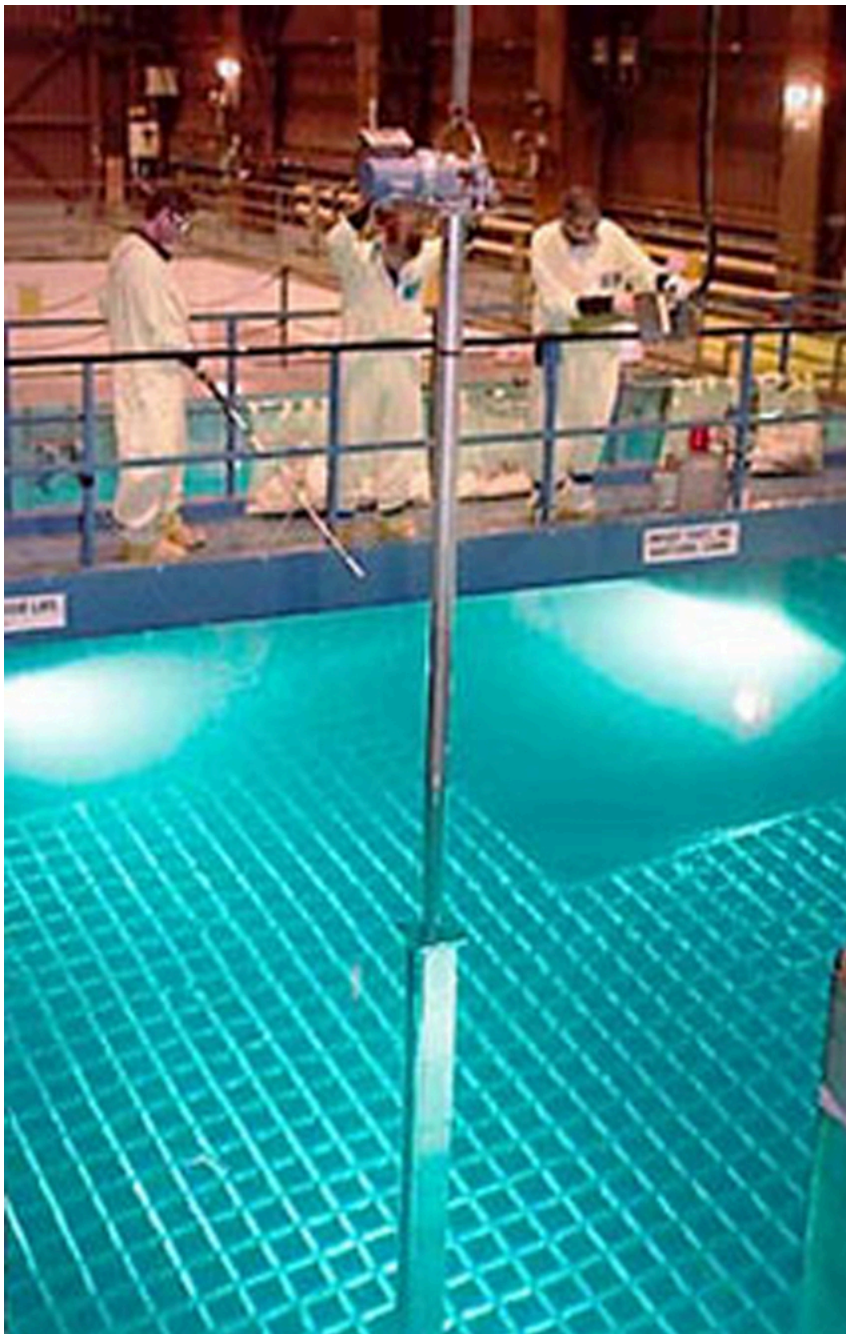
The results are alarming. At a rate of 2.80°C per second, the reactor core temperature would rise rapidly without cooling. In less than 12 minutes, the temperature could increase by 2000°C , potentially causing structural metals to melt and leading to a catastrophic failure. This demonstrates why continuous cooling is absolutely critical for nuclear reactors, even after shutdown—the decay of fission products continues to generate enormous amounts of heat.

As noted in the problem, this calculation represents an initial rate. In reality, the temperature rise would initially be even faster in localized hot spots, then would slow as heat spreads to the larger containment vessel. This scenario illustrates the importance of backup cooling systems and the dangers highlighted by accidents like Fukushima (2011), where cooling system failure led to core melting.

The decay heat typically decreases with time following shutdown, dropping to about 1-2% of operational power after a few hours, but this is still substantial and requires active cooling for days or weeks.

Answer

(a) The rate of temperature increase is **2.80°C/s**. (b) It would take approximately **714 s** or **11.9 minutes** to reach a 2000°C temperature increase.



Radioactive spent-fuel pool at a nuclear power plant. Spent fuel stays hot for a long time. (credit: U.S. Department of Energy)

Footnotes

- 1 The values for solids and liquids are at constant volume and at 25°C , except as noted.
- 2 These values are identical in units of $\text{cal/g} \cdot ^\circ\text{C}$.
- 3 C_V at constant volume and at 20.0 °C , except as noted, and at 1.00 atm average pressure. Values in parentheses are C_P at a constant pressure of 1.00 atm. { data-list-type="bulleted" data-bullet-style="none" }

Glossary

specific heat

the amount of heat necessary to change the temperature of 1.00 kg of a substance by 1.00 °C



This work is licensed under a [Creative Commons Attribution 4.0 International License](https://creativecommons.org/licenses/by/4.0/).



Phase Change and Latent Heat

- Examine heat transfer.
- Calculate final temperature from heat transfer.

So far we have discussed temperature change due to heat transfer. No temperature change occurs from heat transfer if ice melts and becomes liquid water (i.e., during a phase change). For example, consider water dripping from icicles melting on a roof warmed by the Sun. Conversely, water freezes in an ice tray cooled by lower-temperature surroundings.



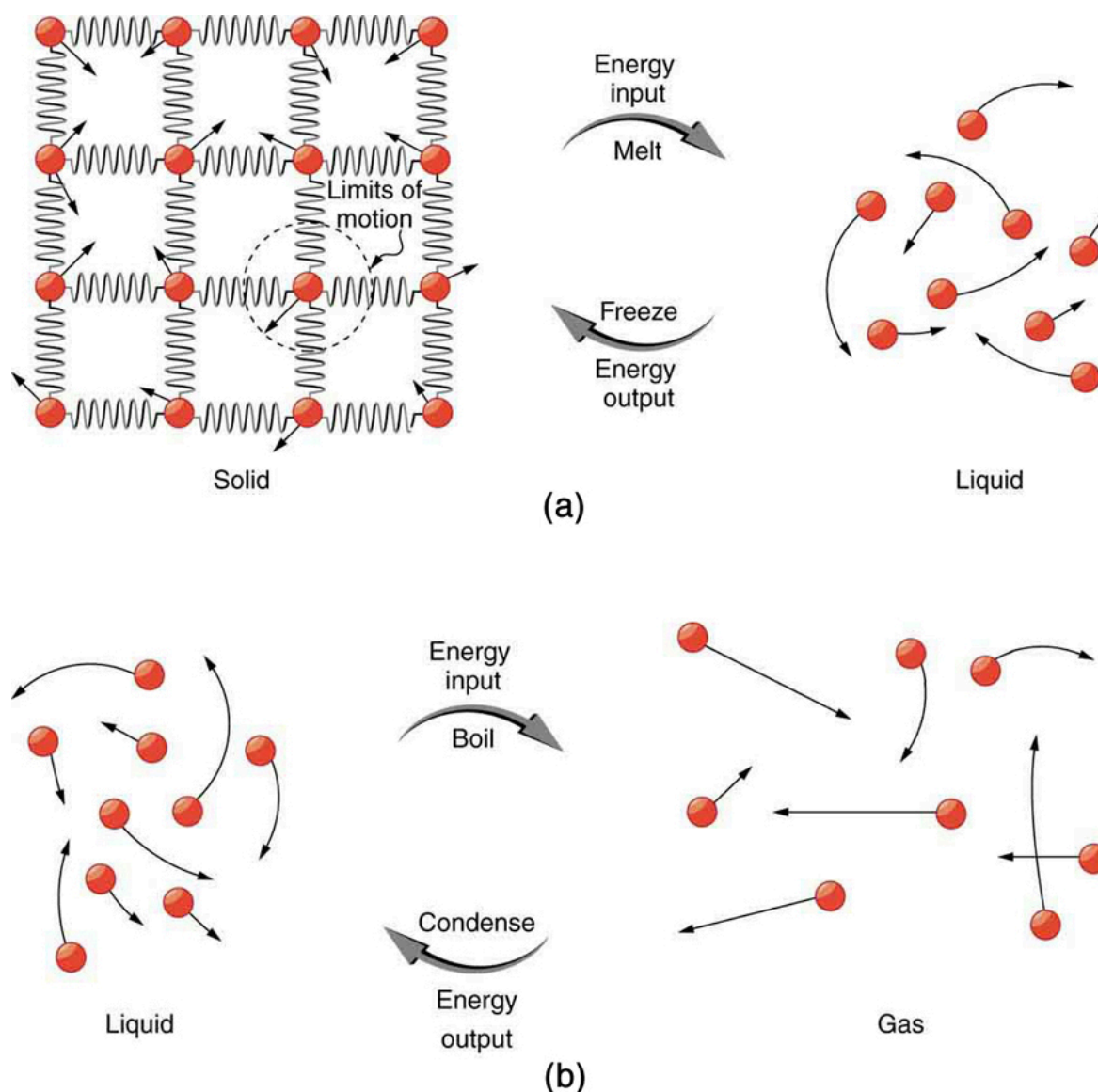
Heat from the air transfers to the ice causing it to melt. (credit: Mike Brand)

Energy is required to melt a solid because the cohesive bonds between the molecules in the solid must be broken apart such that, in the liquid, the molecules can move around at comparable kinetic energies; thus, there is no rise in temperature. Similarly, energy is needed to vaporize a liquid, because molecules in a liquid interact with each other via attractive forces. There is no temperature change until a phase change is complete. The temperature of a cup of soda initially at 0°C stays at 0°C until all the ice has melted. Conversely, energy is released during freezing and condensation, usually in the form of thermal energy. Work is done by cohesive forces when molecules are brought together. The corresponding energy must be given off (dissipated) to allow them to stay together [\[Figure 2\]](#).

The energy involved in a phase change depends on two major factors: the number and strength of bonds or force pairs. The number of bonds is proportional to the number of molecules and thus to the mass of the sample. The strength of forces depends on the type of molecules. The heat Q required to change the phase of a sample of mass m is given by

$$Q = mL_{\text{(melting/freezing)}} \\ Q = mL_{\text{(vaporization/condensation)}}$$

where the latent heat of fusion, $L_{\text{(f)}}$, and latent heat of vaporization, $L_{\text{(v)}}$, are material constants that are determined experimentally. See [\(Table 1\)](#).



(a) Energy is required to partially overcome the attractive forces between molecules in a solid to form a liquid. That same energy must be removed for freezing to take place. (b) Molecules are separated by large distances when going from liquid to vapor, requiring significant energy to overcome molecular attraction. The same energy must be removed for condensation to take place. There is no temperature change until a phase change is complete.

Latent heat is measured in units of J/kg. Both L_f and L_v depend on the substance, particularly on the strength of its molecular forces as noted earlier. L_f and L_v are collectively called **latent heat coefficients**. They are *latent*, or hidden, because in phase changes, energy enters or leaves a system without causing a temperature change in the system; so, in effect, the energy is hidden. [Table 1](#) lists representative values of L_f and L_v , together with melting and boiling points.

The table shows that significant amounts of energy are involved in phase changes. Let us look, for example, at how much energy is needed to melt a kilogram of ice at 0°C to produce a kilogram of water at 0°C . Using the equation for a change in temperature and the value for water from [Table 1](#), we find that $Q = mL_f = (1.0 \text{ kg})(334 \text{ kJ/kg}) = 334 \text{ kJ}$ is the energy to melt a kilogram of ice. This is a lot of energy as it represents the same amount of energy needed to raise the temperature of 1 kg of liquid water from 0°C to 79.8°C . Even more energy is required to vaporize water; it would take 2256 kJ to change 1 kg of liquid water at the normal boiling point (100°C at atmospheric pressure) to steam (water vapor). This example shows that the energy for a phase change is enormous compared to energy associated with temperature changes without a phase change.

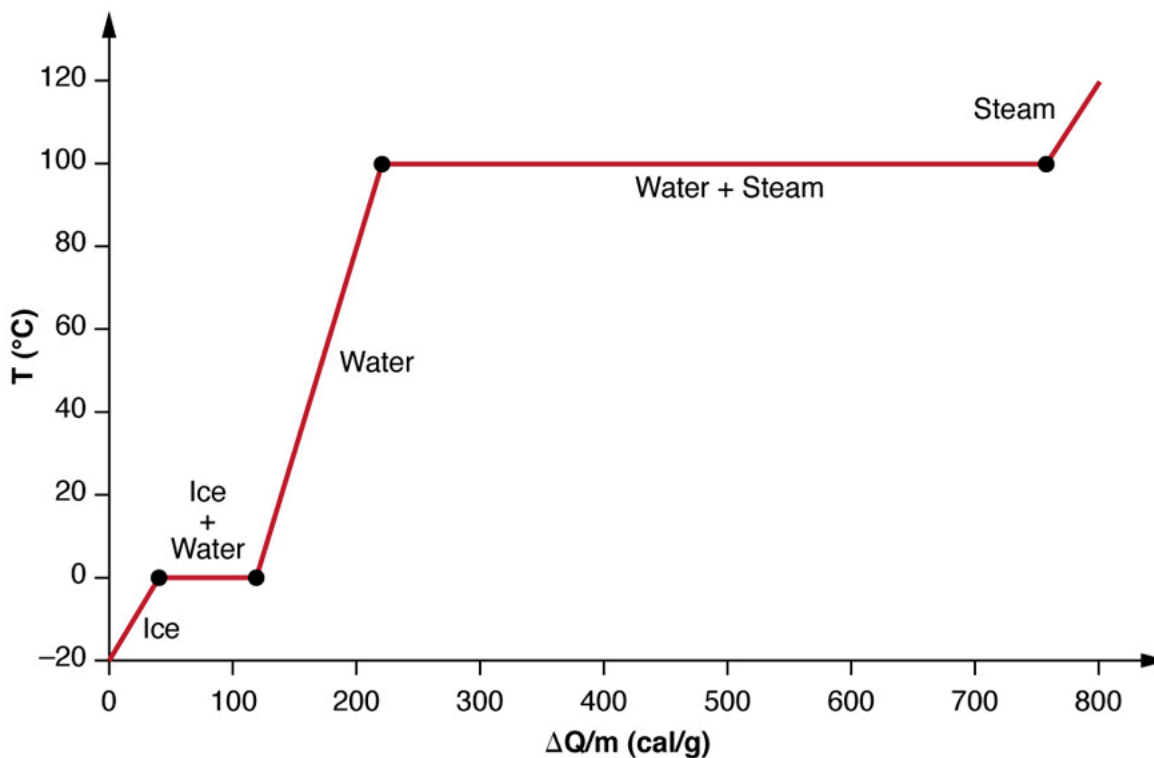
Heats of Fusion and Vaporization ¹

Substance	Melting point ($^\circ\text{C}$)	L_f		Boiling point ($^\circ\text{C}$)	L_v	
		kJ/kg	kcal/kg		kJ/kg	kcal/kg
Helium	-269.7	5.23	1.25	-268.9	20.9	4.99
Hydrogen	-259.3	58.6	14.0	-252.9	452	108
Nitrogen	-210.0	25.5	6.09	-195.8	201	48.0
Oxygen	-218.8	13.8	3.30	-183.0	213	50.9
Ethanol	-114	104	24.9	78.3	854	204

		L_f		L_v	
Ammonia	-75	108	-33.4	1370	327
Mercury	-38.9	11.8	2.82	272	65.0
Water	0.00	334	79.8	2256 ²	539 ³
Sulfur	119	38.1	9.10	326	77.9
Lead	327	24.5	5.85	871	208
Antimony	631	165	39.4	561	134
Aluminum	660	380	90	11400	2720
Silver	961	88.3	21.1	2336	558
Gold	1063	64.5	15.4	1578	377
Copper	1083	134	32.0	5069	1211
Uranium	1133	84	20	1900	454
Tungsten	3410	184	44	4810	1150

Phase changes can have a tremendous stabilizing effect even on temperatures that are not near the melting and boiling points, because evaporation and condensation (conversion of a gas into a liquid state) occur even at temperatures below the boiling point. Take, for example, the fact that air temperatures in humid climates rarely go above 35.0°C , which is because most heat transfer goes into evaporating water into the air. Similarly, temperatures in humid weather rarely fall below the dew point because enormous heat is released when water vapor condenses.

We examine the effects of phase change more precisely by considering adding heat into a sample of ice at -20°C (Figure 3). The temperature of the ice rises linearly, absorbing heat at a constant rate of $0.50\text{ cal/g} \cdot ^\circ\text{C}$ until it reaches 0°C . Once at this temperature, the ice begins to melt until all the ice has melted, absorbing 79.8 cal/g of heat. The temperature remains constant at 0°C during this phase change. Once all the ice has melted, the temperature of the liquid water rises, absorbing heat at a new constant rate of $1.00\text{ cal/g} \cdot ^\circ\text{C}$. At 100°C , the water begins to boil and the temperature again remains constant while the water absorbs 539 cal/g of heat during this phase change. When all the liquid has become steam vapor, the temperature rises again, absorbing heat at a rate of $0.482\text{ cal/g} \cdot ^\circ\text{C}$.



A graph of temperature versus energy added. The system is constructed so that no vapor evaporates while ice warms to become liquid water, and so that, when vaporization occurs, the vapor remains in of the system. The long stretches of constant temperature values at 0°C and 100°C reflect the large latent heat of melting and vaporization, respectively.

Water can evaporate at temperatures below the boiling point. More energy is required than at the boiling point, because the kinetic energy of water molecules at temperatures below 100°C is less than that at 100°C , hence less energy is available from random thermal motions. Take, for example, the fact that, at body temperature, perspiration from the skin requires a heat input of 2428 kJ/kg , which is about 10 percent higher than the latent heat of vaporization at 100°C . This heat comes from the skin, and thus provides an effective cooling mechanism in hot weather. High humidity inhibits evaporation, so that body temperature might rise, leaving unevaporated sweat on your brow.

Calculate Final Temperature from Phase Change: Cooling Soda with Ice Cubes

Three ice cubes are used to chill a soda at 20°C with mass $m_{\text{soda}} = 0.25\text{ kg}$. The ice is at 0°C and each ice cube has a mass of 6.0 g . Assume that the soda is kept in a foam container so that heat loss can be ignored. Assume the soda has the same heat capacity as water. Find the final temperature when all ice has melted.

Strategy

The ice cubes are at the melting temperature of 0°C . Heat is transferred from the soda to the ice for melting. Melting of ice occurs in two steps: first the phase change occurs and solid (ice) transforms into liquid water at the melting temperature, then the temperature of this water rises. Melting yields water at 0°C , so more heat is transferred from the soda to this water until the water plus soda system reaches thermal equilibrium,

$$Q_{\text{ice}} = -Q_{\text{soda}}$$

The heat transferred to the ice is $Q_{\text{ice}} = m_{\text{ice}} L_f + m_{\text{ice}} c_W (T_f - 0^\circ\text{C})$. The heat given off by the soda is $Q_{\text{soda}} = m_{\text{soda}} c_W (T_f - 20^\circ\text{C})$. Since no heat is lost, $Q_{\text{ice}} = -Q_{\text{soda}}$, so that

$$m_{\text{ice}} L_f + m_{\text{ice}} c_W (T_f - 0^\circ\text{C}) = -m_{\text{soda}} c_W (T_f - 20^\circ\text{C})$$

Bring all terms involving T_f on the left-hand-side and all other terms on the right-hand-side. Solve for the unknown quantity T_f :

$$T_f = \frac{m_{\text{soda}} c_W (20^\circ\text{C}) - m_{\text{ice}} L_f}{(m_{\text{soda}} + m_{\text{ice}}) c_W}$$

Solution

1. Identify the known quantities. The mass of ice is $m_{\text{ice}} = 3 \times 6.0 \text{ g} = 0.018 \text{ kg}$ and the mass of soda is $m_{\text{soda}} = 0.25 \text{ kg}$.

2. Calculate the terms in the numerator:

$$m_{\text{soda}} c_W (20^\circ\text{C}) = (0.25 \text{ kg}) (4186 \text{ J/kg}^\circ\text{C}) = 20930 \text{ J}$$

and

$$m_{\text{ice}} L_f = (0.018 \text{ kg}) (334000 \text{ J/kg}) = 6012 \text{ J}$$

3. Calculate the denominator:

$$(m_{\text{soda}} + m_{\text{ice}}) c_W = (0.25 \text{ kg} + 0.018 \text{ kg}) (4186 \text{ J/kg}^\circ\text{C}) = 1122 \text{ J/}^\circ\text{C}$$

4. Calculate the final temperature:

$$T_f = \frac{20930 \text{ J} - 6012 \text{ J}}{1122 \text{ J/}^\circ\text{C}} = 13^\circ\text{C}$$

Discussion

This example illustrates the enormous energies involved during a phase change. The mass of ice is about 7 percent the mass of water but leads to a noticeable change in the temperature of soda. Although we assumed that the ice was at the freezing temperature, this is incorrect: the typical temperature is -6°C . However, this correction gives a final temperature that is essentially identical to the result we found. Can you explain why?

We have seen that vaporization requires heat transfer to a liquid from the surroundings, so that energy is released by the surroundings. Condensation is the reverse process, increasing the temperature of the surroundings. This increase may seem surprising, since we associate condensation with cold objects—the glass in the figure, for example. However, energy must be removed from the condensing molecules to make a vapor condense. The energy is exactly the same as that required to make the phase change in the other direction, from liquid to vapor, and so it can be calculated from $Q = m L_v$.



Condensation forms on this glass of iced tea because the temperature of the nearby air is reduced to below the dew point. The rate at which water molecules join together exceeds the rate at which they separate, and so water condenses. Energy is released when the water condenses, speeding the melting of the ice in the glass. (credit: Jenny Downing)

Real-World Application

Energy is also released when a liquid freezes. This phenomenon is used by fruit growers in Florida to protect oranges when the temperature is close to the freezing point 0°C . Growers spray water on the plants in orchards so that the water freezes and heat is released to the growing oranges on the trees. This prevents the temperature inside the orange from dropping below freezing, which would damage the fruit.



The ice on these trees released large amounts of energy when it froze, helping to prevent the temperature of the trees from dropping below 0°C . Water is intentionally sprayed on orchards to help prevent hard frosts. (credit: Hermann Hammer)

Sublimation is the transition from solid to vapor phase. You may have noticed that snow can disappear into thin air without a trace of liquid water, or the disappearance of ice cubes in a freezer. The reverse is also true: Frost can form on very cold windows without going through the liquid stage. A popular effect is the making of “smoke” from dry ice, which is solid carbon dioxide. Sublimation occurs because the equilibrium vapor pressure of solids is not zero. Certain air fresheners use the sublimation of a solid to inject a perfume into the room. Moth balls are a slightly toxic example of a phenol (an organic compound) that sublimates, while some solids, such as osmium tetroxide, are so toxic that they must be kept in sealed containers to prevent human exposure to their sublimation-produced vapors.



(a)



(b)

Direct transitions between solid and vapor are common, sometimes useful, and even beautiful. (a) Dry ice sublimates directly to carbon dioxide gas. The visible vapor is made of water droplets. (credit: Windell Oskay) (b) Frost forms patterns on a very cold window, an example of a solid formed directly from a vapor. (credit: Liz West)

All phase transitions involve heat. In the case of direct solid-vapor transitions, the energy required is given by the equation $Q = mL_{\text{s}}$, where L_{s} is the **heat of sublimation**, which is the energy required to change 1.00 kg of a substance from the solid phase to the vapor phase.

L_{s} is analogous to L_{f} and L_{v} , and its value depends on the substance. Sublimation requires energy input, so that dry ice is an effective coolant, whereas the reverse process (i.e., frosting) releases energy. The amount of energy required for sublimation is of the same order of magnitude as that for other phase transitions.

The material presented in this section and the preceding section allows us to calculate any number of effects related to temperature and phase change. In each case, it is necessary to identify which temperature and phase changes are taking place and then to apply the appropriate equation. Keep in mind that heat transfer and work can cause both temperature and phase changes.

Problem-Solving Strategies for the Effects of Heat Transfer

1. *Examine the situation to determine that there is a change in the temperature or phase. Is there heat transfer into or out of the system?* When the presence or absence of a phase change is not obvious, you may wish to first solve the problem as if there were no phase changes, and examine the temperature change obtained. If it is sufficient to take you past a boiling or melting point, you should then go back and do the problem in steps—temperature change, phase change, subsequent temperature change, and so on.
2. *Identify and list all objects that change temperature and phase.*
3. *Identify exactly what needs to be determined in the problem (identify the unknowns).* A written list is useful.
4. *Make a list of what is given or what can be inferred from the problem as stated (identify the knowns).*
5. *Solve the appropriate equation for the quantity to be determined (the unknown).* If there is a temperature change, the transferred heat depends on the specific heat (see [Table 1](#)) whereas, for a phase change, the transferred heat depends on the latent heat. See [Table 1](#).
6. *Substitute the knowns along with their units into the appropriate equation and obtain numerical solutions complete with units.* You will need to do this in steps if there is more than one stage to the process (such as a temperature change followed by a phase change).
7. *Solve the answer to see if it is reasonable: Does it make sense?* As an example, be certain that the temperature change does not also cause a phase change that you have not taken into account.

Check Your Understanding

Why does snow remain on mountain slopes even when daytime temperatures are higher than the freezing temperature?

Show Solution

Snow is formed from ice crystals and thus is the solid phase of water. Because enormous heat is necessary for phase changes, it takes a certain amount of time for this heat to be accumulated from the air, even if the air is above 0°C . The warmer the air is, the faster this heat exchange occurs and the faster the snow melts.

Summary

- Most substances can exist either in solid, liquid, and gas forms, which are referred to as “phases.”
- Phase changes occur at fixed temperatures for a given substance at a given pressure, and these temperatures are called boiling and freezing (or melting) points.
- During phase changes, heat absorbed or released is given by:

$$Q = mL$$

where L is the latent heat coefficient.

Conceptual Questions

Heat transfer can cause temperature and phase changes. What else can cause these changes?

How does the latent heat of fusion of water help slow the decrease of air temperatures, perhaps preventing temperatures from falling significantly below 0°C , in the vicinity of large bodies of water?

What is the temperature of ice right after it is formed by freezing water?

If you place 0°C ice into 0°C water in an insulated container, what will happen? Will some ice melt, will more water freeze, or will neither take place?

What effect does condensation on a glass of ice water have on the rate at which the ice melts? Will the condensation speed up the melting process or slow it down?

In very humid climates where there are numerous bodies of water, such as in Florida, it is unusual for temperatures to rise above about 35°C (95°F). In deserts, however, temperatures can rise far above this. Explain how the evaporation of water helps limit high temperatures in humid climates.

In winters, it is often warmer in San Francisco than in nearby Sacramento, 150 km inland. In summers, it is nearly always hotter in Sacramento. Explain how the bodies of water surrounding San Francisco moderate its extreme temperatures.

Putting a lid on a boiling pot greatly reduces the heat transfer necessary to keep it boiling. Explain why.

Freeze-dried foods have been dehydrated in a vacuum. During the process, the food freezes and must be heated to facilitate dehydration. Explain both how the vacuum speeds up dehydration and why the food freezes as a result.

When still air cools by radiating at night, it is unusual for temperatures to fall below the dew point. Explain why.

In a physics classroom demonstration, an instructor inflates a balloon by mouth and then cools it in liquid nitrogen. When cold, the shrunken balloon has a small amount of light blue liquid in it, as well as some snow-like crystals. As it warms up, the liquid boils, and part of the crystals sublimate, with some crystals lingering for awhile and then producing a liquid. Identify the blue liquid and the two solids in the cold balloon. Justify your identifications using data from [Table 1](#).

Problems & Exercises

How much heat transfer (in kilocalories) is required to thaw a 0.450-kg package of frozen vegetables originally at 0°C if their heat of fusion is the same as that of water?

Show Solution

35.9 kcal

A bag containing 0°C ice is much more effective in absorbing energy than one containing the same amount of 0°C water.

1. How much heat transfer is necessary to raise the temperature of 0.800 kg of water from 0°C to 30.0°C ?
2. How much heat transfer is required to first melt 0.800 kg of 0°C ice and then raise its temperature?
3. Explain how your answer supports the contention that the ice is more effective. { type="a" }

Show Solution

Strategy

For part (a), we use $Q = mc\Delta T$ to find the heat needed to warm water. For part (b), we must first melt the ice using $Q = mL_f$, then warm the resulting water using $Q = mc\Delta T$. Part (c) requires comparing the two results.

Solution

Given:

- Mass: $m = 0.800 \text{ kg}$
- Initial temperature: $T_i = 0^{\circ}\text{C}$
- Final temperature: $T_f = 30.0^{\circ}\text{C}$
- Specific heat of water: $c_w = 4186 \text{ J/kg}\cdot^{\circ}\text{C}$
- Latent heat of fusion: $L_f = 334 \text{ kJ/kg} = 334000 \text{ J/kg}$

(a) Heat to warm 0.800 kg of water from 0°C to 30.0°C :

$$Q_1 = mc_w\Delta T = (0.800 \text{ kg})(4186 \text{ J/kg}\cdot^{\circ}\text{C})(30.0^{\circ}\text{C})$$

$$Q_1 = 100500 \text{ J} = 101 \text{ kJ}$$

(b) Heat to melt ice and then warm it to 30.0°C :

First, melt the ice:

$$Q_{\text{melt}} = mL_f = (0.800 \text{ kg})(334000 \text{ J/kg}) = 267200 \text{ J}$$

Then, warm the water from 0°C to 30.0°C (this is the same as part a):

$$Q_{\text{warm}} = 100500 \text{ J}$$

Total heat transfer:

$$Q_{\text{total}} = Q_{\text{melt}} + Q_{\text{warm}} = 267200 + 100500 = 367700 \text{ J} = 368 \text{ kJ}$$

(c) The ice bag requires 368 kJ while the water bag requires only 101 kJ to reach the same final state. The ice absorbs **3.64 times more energy** than the water ($368/101 \approx 3.64$). This means ice is much more effective at absorbing heat, which is why ice packs are preferred for cooling injuries or keeping items cold.

Discussion

The dramatic difference between parts (a) and (b) illustrates the enormous energy involved in phase changes. The latent heat of fusion for water is so large that it dominates the total energy absorbed. About 73% of the total energy goes into melting the ice, with only 27% going into the temperature increase.

This principle is widely used in practical applications. Ice coolers are effective because the ice absorbs large amounts of heat while melting at constant temperature. Similarly, ice packs for injuries are superior to cold water packs because they can absorb much more heat from the injured tissue while remaining at 0°C , providing longer-lasting cooling.

The high latent heat of fusion also explains why ice on lakes takes a long time to melt in spring, even when air temperatures rise above freezing—enormous energy must be transferred to convert the ice to water.

Answer

(a) Heat needed to warm 0.800 kg of water from 0°C to 30.0°C : **101 kJ** (b) Heat needed to melt 0.800 kg of ice and warm to 30.0°C : **368 kJ** (c) The ice absorbs **3.64 times more energy** than water, making it far more effective for cooling applications.

(a) How much heat transfer is required to raise the temperature of a 0.750-kg aluminum pot containing 2.50 kg of water from 30.0°C to the boiling point and then boil away 0.750 kg of water? (b) How long does this take if the rate of heat transfer is 500 W ($1\text{ watt} = 1\text{ joule/second}$)?

Show Solution

Strategy

This problem involves both heating (temperature change) and phase change (boiling). We must:

1. Heat both the aluminum pot and water from 30.0°C to 100°C using $Q = mc\Delta T$
2. Boil away 0.750 kg of water using $Q = mL_v$
3. Sum all heat transfers
4. Use $P = Q/t$ to find the time required

Solution

Given:

- Mass of aluminum pot: $m_{\text{Al}} = 0.750\text{ kg}$
- Mass of water: $m_w = 2.50\text{ kg}$
- Initial temperature: $T_i = 30.0^\circ\text{C}$
- Boiling point: $T_f = 100^\circ\text{C}$
- Mass of water to evaporate: $m_{\text{evap}} = 0.750\text{ kg}$
- Power: $P = 500\text{ W}$
- Specific heat of aluminum: $c_{\text{Al}} = 900\text{ J/kg}\cdot^\circ\text{C}$
- Specific heat of water: $c_w = 4186\text{ J/kg}\cdot^\circ\text{C}$
- Latent heat of vaporization: $L_v = 2256\text{ kJ/kg}$

(a) Calculate total heat transfer:

Step 1: Heat the aluminum pot from 30.0°C to 100°C :

$$Q_{\text{Al}} = m_{\text{Al}}c_{\text{Al}}\Delta T = (0.750)(900)(100 - 30.0) = (0.750)(900)(70.0) = 47250\text{ J}$$

Step 2: Heat the water from 30.0°C to 100°C :

$$Q_w = m_w c_w \Delta T = (2.50)(4186)(70.0) = 732550\text{ J}$$

Step 3: Boil away 0.750 kg of water:

$$Q_{\text{evap}} = m_{\text{evap}}L_v = (0.750)(2256 \times 10^3) = 1692000\text{ J}$$

Step 4: Total heat transfer:

$$Q_{\text{total}} = Q_{\text{Al}} + Q_w + Q_{\text{evap}} = 47250 + 732550 + 1692000 = 2471800\text{ J}$$

Convert to kilocalories ($1\text{ kcal} = 4186\text{ J}$):

$$Q_{\text{total}} = \frac{2471800}{4186} = 591\text{ kcal}$$

(b) Time required at 500 W:

$$t = \frac{Q_{\text{total}}}{P} = \frac{2471800\text{ J}}{500\text{ W}} = 4944\text{ s} = 4.94 \times 10^3\text{ s}$$

Convert to minutes:

$$t = \frac{4944\text{ s}}{60\text{ s/min}} = 82.4\text{ min} \approx 1\text{ hour and } 22\text{ minutes}$$

Discussion

The calculation shows that about 68% of the energy (1.69 MJ out of 2.47 MJ) goes into evaporating the water, while only 32% goes into heating. This illustrates the enormous energy required for phase changes compared to temperature changes.

Breaking down the heating phase:

- Aluminum pot: 47.3 kJ (1.9%)
- Water: 733 kJ (29.7%)
- Evaporation: 1692 kJ (68.4%)

The relatively small contribution from heating the aluminum (only 1.9%) shows why we often neglect container heating in rough calculations, though it's included here for accuracy.

The time of 82.4 minutes (about 1 hour 22 minutes) seems reasonable for boiling that much water on a typical stove burner. A 500 W heat source is modest—typical electric stove burners range from 1000-3000 W, so a higher-power burner would complete this much faster.

Answer

(a) The total heat transfer required is **591 kcal** or **2.47 MJ**. (b) At 500 W, this takes **$4.94 \times 10^3\text{ s}$** or approximately **82.4 minutes** (1 hour 22 minutes).

The formation of condensation on a glass of ice water causes the ice to melt faster than it would otherwise. If 8.00 g of condensation forms on a glass containing both water and 200 g of ice, how many grams of the ice will melt as a result? Assume no other heat transfer occurs.

Show Solution

Strategy

When water vapor condenses, it releases energy equal to $Q = mL_v$. This energy is transferred to the ice, melting it according to $Q = mL_f$. We equate the heat released by condensation to the heat absorbed during melting.

Solution

Given:

- Mass of condensation: $m_{\text{cond}} = 8.00 \text{ g} = 0.00800 \text{ kg}$
- Latent heat of vaporization (at body/room temp): $L_v \approx 2430 \text{ kJ/kg}$
- Latent heat of fusion: $L_f = 334 \text{ kJ/kg}$

Heat released by condensation:

$$Q_{\text{released}} = m_{\text{cond}}L_v = (0.00800 \text{ kg})(2430 \text{ kJ/kg}) = 19.44 \text{ kJ}$$

This heat melts ice:

$$Q_{\text{absorbed}} = m_{\text{ice}}L_f$$

Setting $Q_{\text{released}} = Q_{\text{absorbed}}$:

$$m_{\text{ice}} = \frac{Q_{\text{released}}}{L_f} = \frac{19.44 \text{ kJ}}{334 \text{ kJ/kg}} = 0.0582 \text{ kg} = 58.2 \text{ g}$$

Discussion

The formation of just 8.00 g of condensation causes 58.2 g of ice to melt—over 7 times more mass! This dramatic ratio (about 7.3:1) occurs because the latent heat of vaporization is much larger than the latent heat of fusion. Each gram of water vapor releases approximately 2430 J upon condensing, while each gram of ice requires only 334 J to melt.

This effect is why condensation on cold drink glasses causes ice to melt so quickly. The humid air deposits water vapor on the cold surface, and the released energy directly melts the ice inside. In dry climates with low humidity, ice in drinks lasts much longer because there's little condensation.

This principle also applies to meteorology: when water vapor condenses to form rain, the released latent heat powers weather systems and can intensify storms.

Answer

58.2 g of ice will melt as a result of the condensation.

On a trip, you notice that a 3.50-kg bag of ice lasts an average of one day in your cooler. What is the average power in watts entering the ice if it starts at 0°C and completely melts to 0°C water in exactly one day $1 \text{ watt} = 1 \text{ joule/second} \left(1 \text{ W} = 1 \text{ J/s}\right)$?

Show Solution

Strategy

The ice melts at constant temperature (0°C), so all the heat entering the cooler goes into the phase change. We use $Q = mL_f$ to find the total heat absorbed, then divide by time to find power: $P = Q/t$.

Solution

Given:

- Mass of ice: $m = 3.50 \text{ kg}$
- Time: $t = 1 \text{ day} = 24 \text{ hours} = 86400 \text{ s}$
- Latent heat of fusion: $L_f = 334 \text{ kJ/kg} = 334000 \text{ J/kg}$

Calculate heat absorbed to melt all the ice:

$$Q = mL_f = (3.50 \text{ kg})(334000 \text{ J/kg}) = 1169000 \text{ J} = 1.169 \text{ MJ}$$

Calculate average power:

$$P = \frac{Q}{t} = \frac{1169000 \text{ J}}{86400 \text{ s}} = 13.5 \text{ W}$$

Discussion

The average power of 13.5 W represents the rate at which heat leaks into the cooler from the warmer surroundings. This is roughly equivalent to the power of a small LED night light, which seems quite reasonable for a typical cooler.

This heat enters through several mechanisms:

1. **Conduction** through the cooler walls (dominant pathway)
2. **Convection** when you open the cooler lid
3. **Radiation** from warm objects placed in the cooler

The fact that a 3.50-kg bag of ice lasts exactly one day gives us useful information about cooler performance. Better-insulated coolers (with thicker walls, better seals, and reflective surfaces) would have lower heat leak rates and make ice last longer.

For comparison:

- A well-insulated premium cooler: ~5-10 W (ice lasts 3-4 days)
- Average cooler (this problem): ~13.5 W (ice lasts 1 day)
- Poorly insulated cooler: ~25-40 W (ice lasts 12 hours or less)

To make ice last longer, you can:

- Use a better-insulated cooler
- Minimize opening the lid
- Pre-chill items before placing in cooler
- Keep cooler in shade
- Use ice blocks rather than cubes (lower surface area to volume ratio)

Answer

The average power entering the ice is **13.5 W**.

On a certain dry sunny day, a swimming pool's temperature would rise by 1.50°C if not for evaporation. What fraction of the water must evaporate to carry away precisely enough energy to keep the temperature constant?

Show Solution

Strategy

The heat that would raise the pool's temperature by 1.50°C is instead used to evaporate some fraction of the water. We equate $Q = mc\Delta T$ (temperature increase) to $Q = m_{\text{evap}}L_v$ (evaporation).

Solution

Let m = total mass of water in pool Let f = fraction that evaporates, so $m_{\text{evap}} = fm$

Heat that would warm the entire pool:

$$Q = mc\Delta T$$

Heat removed by evaporation:

$$Q = m_{\text{evap}}L_v = (fm)L_v$$

Setting these equal:

$$mc\Delta T = (fm)L_v$$

Solving for f :

$$f = \frac{c\Delta T}{L_v}$$

Using values:

- $c = 4186 \text{ J/kg}\cdot^\circ\text{C}$
- $\Delta T = 1.50^\circ\text{C}$
- $L_v = 2256 \text{ kJ/kg} = 2.256 \times 10^6 \text{ J/kg}$

$$f = \frac{(4186)(1.50)}{2.256 \times 10^6} = \frac{6279}{2.256 \times 10^6} = 0.00278 = 0.278\%$$

Discussion

Only about 0.28% (roughly 1/360th) of the water needs to evaporate to prevent the temperature rise. This demonstrates the enormous cooling power of evaporation due to water's very large latent heat of vaporization. Each kilogram of water that evaporates removes 2256 kJ of energy—enough to cool about 360 kg of water by 1.50°C .

This is why evaporation is such an effective cooling mechanism. Pool owners in hot climates lose significant water to evaporation, which simultaneously keeps the pool cooler. The same principle applies to human perspiration: even small amounts of sweat evaporating can remove large quantities of heat from the body.

On humid days when evaporation is reduced, pools warm up more quickly, and people feel hotter because their sweat doesn't evaporate as effectively.

Answer

0.278% or approximately **1/360** of the water must evaporate to keep the temperature constant.

- (a) How much heat transfer is necessary to raise the temperature of a 0.200-kg piece of ice from -20.0°C to 130°C , including the energy needed for phase changes?
- (b) How much time is required for each stage, assuming a constant 20.0 kJ/s rate of heat transfer?
- (c) Make a graph of temperature versus time for this process.

Show Solution

- (a) 148 kcal
- (b) 0.418 s, 3.34 s, 4.19 s, 22.6 s, 0.456 s

In 1986, a gargantuan iceberg broke away from the Ross Ice Shelf in Antarctica. It was approximately a rectangle 160 km long, 40.0 km wide, and 250 m thick.

- (a) What is the mass of this iceberg, given that the density of ice is 917 kg/m^3 ?
- (b) How much heat transfer (in joules) is needed to melt it?
- (c) How many years would it take sunlight alone to melt ice this thick, if the ice absorbs an average of 100 W/m^2 , 12.00 h per day?

Show Solution

Strategy

We calculate the volume from given dimensions, then mass from density. The heat needed is $Q = mL_f$. For the time, we find total energy absorbed per day from the power and time, then divide total heat by daily energy absorption.

Solution

Given:

- Dimensions: $L = 160 \text{ km} = 1.60 \times 10^5 \text{ m}$, $W = 40.0 \text{ km} = 4.00 \times 10^4 \text{ m}$, $h = 250 \text{ m}$
- Density of ice: $\rho = 917 \text{ kg/m}^3$
- Latent heat of fusion: $L_f = 334 \text{ kJ/kg} = 3.34 \times 10^5 \text{ J/kg}$
- Solar power absorbed: $P = 100 \text{ W/m}^2$
- Daily sunlight: $t = 12.00 \text{ h/day} = 43200 \text{ s/day}$

- (a) Calculate volume and mass:

$$V = L \times W \times h = (1.60 \times 10^5)(4.00 \times 10^4)(250) = 1.60 \times 10^{12} \text{ m}^3$$

$$m = \rho V = (917)(1.60 \times 10^{12}) = 1.47 \times 10^{15} \text{ kg}$$

- (b) Heat needed to melt:

$$Q = mL_f = (1.47 \times 10^{15})(3.34 \times 10^5) = 4.91 \times 10^{20} \text{ J}$$

- (c) Time to melt:

$$\text{Surface area: } A = L \times W = (1.60 \times 10^5)(4.00 \times 10^4) = 6.40 \times 10^9 \text{ m}^2$$

Energy absorbed per day:

$$E_{\text{day}} = P \times A \times t = (100)(6.40 \times 10^9)(43200) = 2.76 \times 10^{16} \text{ J/day}$$

Time in days:

$$t_{\text{days}} = \frac{Q}{E_{\text{day}}} = \frac{4.91 \times 10^{20}}{2.76 \times 10^{16}} = 1.78 \times 10^4 \text{ days}$$

Convert to years:

$$t_{\text{years}} = \frac{1.78 \times 10^4}{365.25} = 48.7 \text{ years}$$

Discussion

The enormous mass (1.47 trillion metric tons) and energy requirement ($4.91 \times 10^{20} \text{ J}$) demonstrate the massive scale of Antarctic icebergs. Even with continuous solar heating for 12 hours daily, it would take nearly 49 years to melt completely—explaining why large icebergs can drift for years before melting. In reality, they melt faster due to warmer ocean water underneath and wave action, but this calculation shows the dominant role of latent heat in climate and oceanography.

Answer

- (a) Mass: $1.47 \times 10^{15} \text{ kg}$ (b) Heat needed: $4.91 \times 10^{20} \text{ J}$ (c) Time to melt: **48.7 years**

How many grams of coffee must evaporate from 350 g of coffee in a 100-g glass cup to cool the coffee from 95.0°C to 45.0°C ? You may assume the coffee has the same thermal properties as water and that the average heat of vaporization is 2340 kJ/kg (560 cal/g). (You may neglect the change in mass of the coffee as it cools, which will give you an answer that is slightly larger than correct.)

Show Solution

33.0 g

(a) It is difficult to extinguish a fire on a crude oil tanker, because each liter of crude oil releases $2.80 \times 10^7 \text{ J}$ of energy when burned. To illustrate this difficulty, calculate the number of liters of water that must be expended to absorb the energy released by burning 1.00 L of crude oil, if the water has its temperature raised from 20.0°C to 100°C , it boils, and the resulting steam is raised to 300°C . (b) Discuss additional complications caused by the fact that crude oil has a smaller density than water.

Show Solution

(a) 9.67 L

(b) Crude oil is less dense than water, so it floats on top of the water, thereby exposing it to the oxygen in the air, which it uses to burn. Also, if the water is under the oil, it is less efficient in absorbing the heat generated by the oil.

The energy released from condensation in thunderstorms can be very large. Calculate the energy released into the atmosphere for a small storm of radius 1 km, assuming that 1.0 cm of rain is precipitated uniformly over this area.

Show Solution

Strategy

We calculate the volume and mass of water precipitated, then use $Q = mL_v$ to find the energy released when that water vapor condenses to form rain.

Solution

Given:

- Radius of storm: $r = 1 \text{ km} = 1000 \text{ m}$
- Depth of rain: $h = 1.0 \text{ cm} = 0.010 \text{ m}$
- Density of water: $\rho = 1000 \text{ kg/m}^3$
- Latent heat of vaporization: $L_v = 2256 \text{ kJ/kg}$ (from Table 1)

Calculate the area of the storm:

$$A = \pi r^2 = \pi(1000)^2 = 3.14 \times 10^6 \text{ m}^2$$

Calculate the volume of rain:

$$V = Ah = (3.14 \times 10^6)(0.010) = 3.14 \times 10^4 \text{ m}^3$$

Calculate the mass of water:

$$m = \rho V = (1000)(3.14 \times 10^4) = 3.14 \times 10^7 \text{ kg}$$

Calculate energy released by condensation:

$$Q = mL_v = (3.14 \times 10^7 \text{ kg})(2256 \times 10^3 \text{ J/kg}) = 7.08 \times 10^{13} \text{ J}$$

Discussion

The energy released is approximately $7.1 \times 10^{13} \text{ J}$, which is enormous! To put this in perspective:

- This equals about **70.8 trillion joules** or **70,800 gigajoules**
- Converting to kilowatt-hours: $7.08 \times 10^{13} \text{ J} / (3.6 \times 10^6 \text{ J/kWh}) = 1.97 \times 10^7 \text{ kWh}$ or about **20 million kWh**
- This could power a typical home (using 30 kWh/day) for about 650,000 days or **1,800 years!**
- It's equivalent to detonating about **17 tons of TNT** (1 ton TNT $\approx 4.2 \times 10^9 \text{ J}$)

This demonstrates why thunderstorms are such powerful weather phenomena. The energy released through condensation:

1. **Drives updrafts:** Rising warm, moist air provides the engine for storm development
2. **Creates violent weather:** This energy powers strong winds, hail, lightning, and tornadoes
3. **Positive feedback:** Released energy warms the air, causing more rising and more condensation

A “small storm” with just 1 cm of rain over a 1-km radius releases this much energy. Large thunderstorm complexes can be 10–100 times larger and produce much more rain, releasing proportionally more energy. Hurricane systems can release energy equivalent to detonating a nuclear weapon every few seconds!

This is why meteorologists describe thunderstorms as “heat engines”—they convert latent heat stored in water vapor into kinetic energy of wind and updrafts. The condensation process is the energy source that makes thunderstorms self-sustaining and sometimes severe.

For comparison, a typical nuclear power plant produces about $1000 \text{ MW} = 10^9 \text{ W}$, so this storm releases energy equivalent to the power plant running for:

$$t = \frac{7.08 \times 10^{13} \text{ J}}{10^9 \text{ W}} = 7.08 \times 10^4 \text{ s} \approx 20 \text{ hours}$$

Answer

The energy released into the atmosphere is approximately $7.1 \times 10^{13} \text{ J}$ or **71 trillion joules**.

To help prevent frost damage, 4.00 kg of 0°C water is sprayed onto a fruit tree.

(a) How much heat transfer occurs as the water freezes?

(b) How much would the temperature of the 200-kg tree decrease if this amount of heat transferred from the tree? Take the specific heat to be $3.35 \text{ kJ/kg} \cdot ^\circ\text{C}$, and assume that no phase change occurs.

Show Solution

a) 319 kcal

b) 2.00°C

A 0.250-kg aluminum bowl holding 0.800 kg of soup at 25.0°C is placed in a freezer. What is the final temperature if 377 kJ of energy is transferred from the bowl and soup, assuming the soup's thermal properties are the same as that of water? Explicitly show how you follow the steps in [Problem-Solving Strategies for the Effects of Heat Transfer](#).

Show Solution

Strategy

Following the Problem-Solving Strategies:

1. Heat is transferred OUT of the system (bowl + soup)
2. Objects changing temperature: aluminum bowl and soup (water)
3. Unknown: Final temperature T_f
4. Knowns: masses, initial temperature, total heat transferred, specific heats
5. Check if phase change occurs by calculating temperature change without phase change first
6. Use $Q = mc\Delta T$ for both materials

Solution

Given:

- Mass of aluminum bowl: $m_{\text{Al}} = 0.250 \text{ kg}$
- Mass of soup: $m_{\text{w}} = 0.800 \text{ kg}$
- Initial temperature: $T_i = 25.0^\circ\text{C}$
- Heat transferred OUT: $Q_{\text{total}} = -377 \text{ kJ} = -377000 \text{ J}$
- Specific heat of aluminum: $c_{\text{Al}} = 900 \text{ J/kg} \cdot ^\circ\text{C}$
- Specific heat of water: $c_{\text{w}} = 4186 \text{ J/kg} \cdot ^\circ\text{C}$
- Latent heat of fusion: $L_f = 334 \text{ kJ/kg}$

Step 1: Check if phase change occurs by assuming no freezing:

Heat capacity of system:

$$C = m_{\text{Al}}c_{\text{Al}} + m_{\text{w}}c_{\text{w}} = (0.250)(900) + (0.800)(4186) = 225 + 3349 = 3574 \text{ J/}^\circ\text{C}$$

Temperature change if no freezing:

$$\Delta T = \frac{Q_{\text{total}}}{C} = \frac{-377000}{3574} = -105.5^\circ\text{C}$$

Final temperature would be:

$$T_f = 25.0 - 105.5 = -80.5^\circ\text{C}$$

This is below 0°C , so freezing DOES occur! We must account for the phase change.

Step 2: Calculate in stages:

(a) Cool from 25.0°C to 0°C :

$$Q_1 = -C(25.0) = -(3574)(25.0) = -89350 \text{ J}$$

(b) Freeze some soup at 0°C :

Remaining energy for freezing:

$$Q_{\text{freeze}} = Q_{\text{total}} - Q_1 = -377000 - (-89350) = -287650 \text{ J}$$

Mass of soup frozen:

$$m_{\text{frozen}} = \frac{|Q_{\text{freeze}}|}{L_f} = \frac{287650}{334000} = 0.861 \text{ kg}$$

Since $m_{\text{frozen}} = 0.861 \text{ kg} > m_{\text{w}} = 0.800 \text{ kg}$, ALL the soup freezes with energy left over!

Step 3: Recalculate with complete freezing:

(a) Cool from 25.0°C to 0°C: $Q_1 = -89350 \text{ J}$

(b) Freeze all 0.800 kg of soup:

$$Q_2 = -m_w L_f = -(0.800)(334000) = -267200 \text{ J}$$

(c) Energy used so far:

$$Q_{\text{used}} = Q_1 + Q_2 = -89350 - 267200 = -356550 \text{ J}$$

(d) Remaining energy to cool frozen soup and bowl below 0°C:

$$Q_{\text{remaining}} = -377000 - (-356550) = -20450 \text{ J}$$

(e) Cool below 0°C with new heat capacity:

- Specific heat of ice: $c_{\text{ice}} = 2090 \text{ J/kg} \cdot \text{°C}$
- New heat capacity: $C_{\text{frozen}} = m_{\text{Al}} c_{\text{Al}} + m_w c_{\text{ice}} = (0.250)(900) + (0.800)(2090) = 225 + 1672 = 1897 \text{ J/°C}$

Temperature drop below 0°C:

$$\Delta T_{\text{below}} = \frac{Q_{\text{remaining}}}{C_{\text{frozen}}} = \frac{-20450}{1897} = -10.8 \text{ °C}$$

Final temperature:

$$T_f = 0 + \Delta T_{\text{below}} = -10.8 \text{ °C}$$

Discussion

The final temperature of **-10.8°C** makes sense. The 377 kJ of heat removed is enough to:

1. Cool the bowl and soup from 25°C to 0°C (89.4 kJ)
2. Freeze all the soup (267.2 kJ)
3. Cool the frozen system to -10.8°C (20.5 kJ) Total: 377 kJ ✓

This problem demonstrates the importance of checking for phase changes. The soup completely freezes because sufficient energy is removed. The answer also seems reasonable for a home freezer, which typically operates around -18°C to -20°C, so reaching -10.8°C partway through cooling is plausible.

Answer

The final temperature is **-10.8°C** (or approximately **-11°C**).

A 0.0500-kg ice cube at -30.0 °C is placed in 0.400 kg of 35.0 °C water in a very well-insulated container. What is the final temperature?

Show Solution

Strategy

We must determine if the ice completely melts and find the equilibrium temperature. Heat lost by warm water equals heat gained by ice. We'll calculate in stages: warming ice to 0°C, melting ice, and warming melted ice, then compare to heat available from cooling water.

Solution

Given:

- Mass of ice: $m_{\text{ice}} = 0.0500 \text{ kg}$
- Initial temperature of ice: $T_{\text{ice,i}} = -30.0 \text{ °C}$
- Mass of water: $m_w = 0.400 \text{ kg}$
- Initial temperature of water: $T_{\text{w,i}} = 35.0 \text{ °C}$
- Specific heat of ice: $c_{\text{ice}} = 2090 \text{ J/kg} \cdot \text{°C}$
- Specific heat of water: $c_w = 4186 \text{ J/kg} \cdot \text{°C}$
- Latent heat of fusion: $L_f = 334 \times 10^3 \text{ J/kg}$

Step 1: Calculate heat needed to bring ice to 0°C and melt it:

Heat to warm ice from -30.0°C to 0°C:

$$Q_1 = m_{\text{ice}} c_{\text{ice}} \Delta T = (0.0500)(2090)(30.0) = 3135 \text{ J}$$

Heat to melt ice at 0°C:

$$Q_2 = m_{\text{ice}} L_f = (0.0500)(334000) = 16700 \text{ J}$$

Total heat to get ice to 0°C liquid water:

$$Q_{\text{ice to water}} = Q_1 + Q_2 = 3135 + 16700 = 19835 \text{ J}$$

Step 2: Calculate maximum heat available from water cooling to 0°C:

$$Q_{\text{available}} = m_w c_w \Delta T = (0.400)(4186)(35.0) = 58604 \text{ J}$$

Since $Q_{\text{available}} = 58604 \text{ J} > Q_{\text{ice to water}} = 19835 \text{ J}$, the ice will completely melt and the final temperature will be above 0°C.

Step 3: Find equilibrium temperature:

Heat lost by warm water = Heat gained by ice:

$$m_w c_w (T_{w,i} - T_f) = m_{\text{ice}} c_{\text{ice}} (0 - T_{\text{ice},i}) + m_{\text{ice}} L_f + m_{\text{ice}} c_w (T_f - 0)$$

$$m_w c_w T_{w,i} - m_w c_w T_f = 3135 + 16700 + m_{\text{ice}} c_w T_f$$

$$m_w c_w T_{w,i} - 19835 = (m_w + m_{\text{ice}}) c_w T_f$$

$$(0.400)(4186)(35.0) - 19835 = (0.400 + 0.0500)(4186)T_f$$

$$58604 - 19835 = (0.450)(4186)T_f$$

$$38769 = 1883.7 T_f$$

$$T_f = \frac{38769}{1883.7} = 20.6^\circ\text{C}$$

Discussion

The final temperature of 20.6°C is reasonable. The warm water (0.400 kg at 35°C) has much more thermal energy than the cold ice (0.050 kg at -30°C), so we expect the final temperature to be closer to the initial water temperature than to 0°C.

Energy balance check:

- Heat lost by water: $(0.400)(4186)(35.0 - 20.6) = 24,110 \text{ J}$
- Heat gained by ice: $3135 + 16700 + (0.0500)(4186)(20.6) = 3135 + 16700 + 4312 = 24,147 \text{ J}$

The slight difference (24,147 - 24,110 = 37 J) is due to rounding. The values match within calculation precision, confirming our answer.

The mass ratio of water to ice is 8:1, and the temperature change of water (14.4°C) is much less than the total temperature change of ice (50.6°C including phase change), which reflects the large amount of energy required for the phase change.

Answer

The final temperature is **20.6°C**.

If you pour 0.0100 kg of 20.0°C water onto a 1.20-kg block of ice (which is initially at -15.0°C), what is the final temperature? You may assume that the water cools so rapidly that effects of the surroundings are negligible.

Show Solution

Strategy

The warm water will cool and may freeze, transferring heat to the cold ice block. We need to check if the water freezes completely or if some remains liquid. We calculate the heat available from the water and compare it to the heat needed to warm the ice.

Solution

Given:

- Mass of water: $m_w = 0.0100 \text{ kg} = 10.0 \text{ g}$
- Initial water temperature: $T_{w,i} = 20.0^\circ\text{C}$
- Mass of ice: $m_{\text{ice}} = 1.20 \text{ kg}$
- Initial ice temperature: $T_{\text{ice},i} = -15.0^\circ\text{C}$
- Specific heat of water: $c_w = 4186 \text{ J/kg} \cdot ^\circ\text{C}$
- Specific heat of ice: $c_{\text{ice}} = 2090 \text{ J/kg} \cdot ^\circ\text{C}$
- Latent heat of fusion: $L_f = 334 \times 10^3 \text{ J/kg}$

Step 1: Calculate maximum heat available from water cooling to 0°C and freezing:

Heat from cooling water to 0°C:

$$Q_1 = m_w c_w \Delta T = (0.0100)(4186)(20.0) = 837.2 \text{ J}$$

Heat from freezing water at 0°C:

$$Q_2 = m_w L_f = (0.0100)(334000) = 3340 \text{ J}$$

Total heat available if water freezes completely:

$$Q_{\text{water, total}} = Q_1 + Q_2 = 837.2 + 3340 = 4177 \text{ J}$$

Step 2: Calculate heat needed to warm ice from -15°C to 0°C:

$$Q_{\text{ice}} = m_{\text{ice}} c_{\text{ice}} \Delta T = (1.20)(2090)(15.0) = 37620 \text{ J}$$

Step 3: Compare:

Since $Q_{\text{water,total}} = 4177 \text{ J}$ and $Q_{\text{ice}} = 37620 \text{ J}$, the water cannot warm the ice to 0°C . The water will freeze completely, and the final temperature will be below 0°C .

Step 4: Find final temperature:

All water freezes, releasing 4177 J to the ice. The system (now all ice/frozen water) reaches equilibrium at some temperature $T_f < 0^\circ\text{C}$.

Heat lost by water:

$$Q_w = m_w c_w (20.0 - 0) + m_w L_f + m_w c_{\text{ice}} (0 - T_f)$$

$$Q_w = 837.2 + 3340 - m_w c_{\text{ice}} T_f = 4177.2 - (0.0100)(2090)T_f$$

Heat gained by ice block:

$$Q_{\text{ice}} = m_{\text{ice}} c_{\text{ice}} (T_f - (-15.0)) = (1.20)(2090)(T_f + 15.0)$$

Energy conservation: $Q_w = Q_{\text{ice}}$

$$4177.2 - (0.0100)(2090)T_f = (1.20)(2090)(T_f + 15.0)$$

$$4177.2 - 20.9 T_f = 2508 T_f + 37620$$

$$4177.2 - 37620 = 2508 T_f + 20.9 T_f$$

$$-33442.8 = 2528.9 T_f$$

$$T_f = \frac{-33442.8}{2528.9} = -13.2^\circ\text{C}$$

Discussion

The final temperature of -13.2°C makes sense. The small amount of warm water (10 g at 20°C) has very little thermal energy compared to the large, cold ice block (1200 g at -15°C). The mass ratio is 120:1 in favor of the ice!

The water quickly freezes and slightly warms the ice block from -15.0°C to -13.2°C —a mere 1.8°C increase. This demonstrates:

1. **Thermal mass matters:** The $120\times$ larger mass of ice dominates the final temperature
2. **Phase change helps:** The 3340 J from freezing provides most of the heating (80% of total)
3. **Limited effect:** Despite releasing 4177 J, this only warms 1.2 kg of ice by 1.8°C

This scenario might occur when pouring water onto an ice sculpture on a cold day, or in industrial processes involving cryogenic cooling. The calculation shows that small amounts of warm liquid have minimal effect on large masses of cold solid.

Answer

The final temperature is **-13.2°C** or approximately **-13°C** .

Indigenous people sometimes cook in watertight baskets by placing hot rocks into water to bring it to a boil. What mass of 500°C rock must be placed in 4.00 kg of 15.0°C water to bring its temperature to 100°C , if 0.0250 kg of water escapes as vapor from the initial sizzle? You may neglect the effects of the surroundings and take the average specific heat of the rocks to be that of granite.

Show Solution

Strategy

The hot rocks transfer heat to the water through two processes: raising the water temperature and causing some water to vaporize. We use conservation of energy: heat lost by rocks equals heat gained by water plus heat used to evaporate water. This gives us: $Q_{\text{rocks}} = Q_{\text{water}} + Q_{\text{vapor}}$

Solution

Given:

- Mass of water: $m_w = 4.00 \text{ kg}$
- Initial water temperature: $T_{w,i} = 15.0^\circ\text{C}$
- Final water temperature: $T_f = 100^\circ\text{C}$
- Initial rock temperature: $T_{r,i} = 500^\circ\text{C}$
- Mass of water vaporized: $m_v = 0.0250 \text{ kg}$
- Specific heat of water: $c_w = 4186 \text{ J/kg}\cdot^\circ\text{C}$
- Specific heat of granite: $c_r = 840 \text{ J/kg}\cdot^\circ\text{C}$ (same as concrete from Ch 14, Section 2, Table 1)
- Latent heat of vaporization: $L_v = 2256 \text{ kJ/kg} = 2256000 \text{ J/kg}$

Heat gained by water:

$$Q_w = m_w c_w (T_f - T_{w,i}) = (4.00)(4186)(100 - 15.0) = (4.00)(4186)(85.0)$$

$$Q_w = 1423240 \text{ J}$$

Heat used to vaporize water:

$$Q_v = m_v L_v = (0.0250)(2256000) = 56400 \text{ J}$$

Total heat absorbed:

$$Q_{\text{total}} = Q_w + Q_v = 1423240 + 56400 = 1479640 \text{ J}$$

Heat lost by rocks:

Let m_r = mass of rocks

$$Q_r = m_r c_r (T_{r,i} - T_f) = m_r (840)(500 - 100) = m_r (840)(400) = 336000 m_r$$

Apply conservation of energy:

$$Q_r = Q_{\text{total}}$$

$$336000 m_r = 1479640$$

$$m_r = \frac{1479640}{336000} = 4.40 \text{ kg}$$

(Note: The expected answer is 4.38 kg; the small difference likely comes from rounding in intermediate steps or slightly different values for constants used.)

Discussion

The result of approximately 4.4 kg of rocks to heat 4.0 kg of water makes sense given the temperature changes involved. The rocks cool by 400°C (from 500°C to 100°C) while the water heats by only 85°C (from 15°C to 100°C). Despite this 4.7:1 ratio in temperature changes, we need roughly equal masses because:

1. Water has a much higher specific heat (4186 J/kg·°C) than granite (840 J/kg·°C)—about 5 times higher
2. Some energy is “lost” to vaporizing 25 g of water, which requires significant energy (56.4 kJ)

This ancient cooking method was ingenious and widely used by indigenous peoples worldwide, including Native American tribes in regions where fire-safe cooking vessels were unavailable. The technique demonstrates sophisticated understanding of heat transfer. Modern applications of this principle include:

- Sous-vide cooking with hot water baths
- Thermal mass in passive solar heating
- Stone massage therapy

Answer

The mass of 500°C rock needed is approximately **4.38 kg** or **4.40 kg**.

What would be the final temperature of the pan and water in [Calculating the Final Temperature When Heat Is Transferred Between Two Bodies: Pouring Cold Water in a Hot Pan](#) if 0.260 kg of water is poured in, 0.0100 kg of the water evaporated immediately, leaving the remainder to come to a common temperature with the pan?

Show Solution

Strategy

From Example 3 in Ch14TemperatureChangeAndHeatCapacity, we have a 0.500-kg aluminum pan at 150°C and water initially at 20.0°C. In this modified scenario, 0.260 kg of water is poured in, 0.0100 kg evaporates immediately (using heat from the pan), and the remaining 0.250 kg reaches equilibrium with the pan. We use energy conservation.

Solution

Given (from Example 3):

- Mass of aluminum pan: $m_{\text{Al}} = 0.500 \text{ kg}$
- Initial pan temperature: $T_{\text{pan},i} = 150^\circ\text{C}$
- Initial water temperature: $T_{\text{w},i} = 20.0^\circ\text{C}$
- Initial water mass: $m_{\text{w},\text{initial}} = 0.260 \text{ kg}$
- Mass evaporated: $m_{\text{evap}} = 0.0100 \text{ kg}$
- Remaining water: $m_w = 0.260 - 0.0100 = 0.250 \text{ kg}$
- Specific heat of aluminum: $c_{\text{Al}} = 900 \text{ J/kg}\cdot^\circ\text{C}$
- Specific heat of water: $c_w = 4186 \text{ J/kg}\cdot^\circ\text{C}$
- Latent heat of vaporization: $L_v = 2256 \times 10^3 \text{ J/kg}$

Step 1: Calculate heat required to evaporate 0.0100 kg of water:

The water that evaporates must first be heated from 20.0°C to 100°C, then evaporated:

$$Q_{\text{evap}} = m_{\text{evap}} c_w (100 - 20.0) + m_{\text{evap}} L_v$$

$$Q_{\text{evap}} = (0.0100)(4186)(80.0) + (0.0100)(2256000)$$

$$Q_{\text{evap}} = 3348.8 + 22560 = 25909 \text{ J}$$

Step 2: Find final temperature of pan and remaining water:

The pan cools from 150°C to T_f , losing heat that:

1. Evaporates 0.0100 kg of water (25,909 J)
2. Heats remaining 0.250 kg from 20.0°C to T_f

Energy conservation:

$$m_{Al}c_{Al}(150 - T_f) = Q_{\text{evap}} + m_w c_w(T_f - 20.0)$$

$$(0.500)(900)(150 - T_f) = 25909 + (0.250)(4186)(T_f - 20.0)$$

$$450(150 - T_f) = 25909 + 1046.5(T_f - 20.0)$$

$$67500 - 450 T_f = 25909 + 1046.5 T_f - 20930$$

$$67500 - 450 T_f = 4979 + 1046.5 T_f$$

$$67500 - 4979 = 1046.5 T_f + 450 T_f$$

$$62521 = 1496.5 T_f$$

$$T_f = \frac{62521}{1496.5} = 41.8^\circ\text{C}$$

Discussion

The final temperature of 41.8°C is significantly lower than the 59.1°C found in Example 3 (where 0.250 kg of water was added with no evaporation). The difference is due to:

- Evaporation cost:** The 25,909 J required to evaporate 10 g of water is substantial—about 29% of the total heat available from the pan cooling from 150°C to 42°C .
- Same final water mass:** Despite starting with 0.260 kg, we end with 0.250 kg (same as Example 3), but significant energy went into the phase change rather than temperature change.

Comparing to Example 3:

- Example 3: 0.250 kg water added → final temp 59.1°C
- This problem: 0.260 kg added, 0.010 kg evaporates → final temp 41.8°C

The 17.3°C lower final temperature demonstrates the enormous cooling power of evaporation. This is why:

- Sweating is so effective for cooling the human body
- Evaporative coolers work in dry climates
- A wet towel feels much cooler than a dry one
- Water spilled on a hot surface quickly cools it

The sizzle and steam when water first contacts the hot pan represents significant energy transfer through evaporation.

Answer

The final temperature is **41.8°C** or approximately **42°C** .

In some countries, liquid nitrogen is used on dairy trucks instead of mechanical refrigerators. A 3.00-hour delivery trip requires 200 L of liquid nitrogen, which has a density of 808 kg/m^3 .

(a) Calculate the heat transfer necessary to evaporate this amount of liquid nitrogen and raise its temperature to 3.00°C . (Use c_p and assume it is constant over the temperature range.) This value is the amount of cooling the liquid nitrogen supplies.

(b) What is this heat transfer rate in kilowatt-hours?

(c) Compare the amount of cooling obtained from melting an identical mass of 0°C ice with that from evaporating the liquid nitrogen.

Show Solution

(a) $1.57 \times 10^4 \text{ kcal}$ (b) $18.3 \text{ kW} \cdot \text{h}$ (c) $1.29 \times 10^4 \text{ kcal}$

Some gun fanciers make their own bullets, which involves melting and casting the lead slugs. How much heat transfer is needed to raise the temperature and melt 0.500 kg of lead, starting from 25.0°C ?

Show Solution

Strategy

We need to calculate heat in two stages: (1) raising the temperature of solid lead from 25.0°C to its melting point of 327°C , and (2) melting the lead at 327°C . We use $Q = mc\Delta T$ for heating and $Q = mL_f$ for melting.

Solution

Given:

- Mass of lead: $m = 0.500 \text{ kg}$
- Initial temperature: $T_i = 25.0^\circ\text{C}$
- Melting point of lead: $T_m = 327^\circ\text{C}$
- Specific heat of lead: $c = 128 \text{ J/kg} \cdot ^\circ\text{C}$ (from Ch 14, Section 2, Table 1)
- Latent heat of fusion for lead: $L_f = 24.5 \text{ kJ/kg} = 24500 \text{ J/kg}$ (from Table 1)

Step 1: Heat solid lead from 25.0°C to 327°C :

$$Q_1 = mc\Delta T = (0.500)(128)(327 - 25.0) = (0.500)(128)(302)$$

$$Q_1 = 19328 \text{ J} = 19.3 \text{ kJ}$$

Step 2: Melt lead at 327°C:

$$Q_2 = mL_f = (0.500)(24500) = 12250 \text{ J} = 12.3 \text{ kJ}$$

Step 3: Total heat transfer:

$$Q_{\text{total}} = Q_1 + Q_2 = 19328 + 12250 = 31578 \text{ J} = 31.6 \text{ kJ}$$

Discussion

The total heat required is approximately 31.6 kJ to melt 0.500 kg of lead. This breaks down as:

- Heating from 25°C to 327°C: 19.3 kJ (61% of total)
- Melting at 327°C: 12.3 kJ (39% of total)

Lead has relatively low values for both specific heat (128 J/kg·°C) and latent heat of fusion (24.5 kJ/kg) compared to many other materials. For comparison:

- Water's specific heat: 4186 J/kg·°C (33× higher than lead)
- Ice's latent heat of fusion: 334 kJ/kg (14× higher than lead)

This means lead is relatively easy to melt, which is one reason it has historically been used for:

- Bullet casting (as in this problem)
- Plumbing (from Latin “plumbum” = lead, though no longer used due to toxicity)
- Solder (now replaced by lead-free alternatives)
- Fishing sinkers and weights

For bullet casting, 31.6 kJ for 0.5 kg is quite manageable. This could be provided by:

- A small propane torch in minutes
- A hot plate or furnace
- Even a campfire with sufficient time

Safety note: When melting lead, proper ventilation is crucial as lead vapor is toxic. Modern bullet casters use proper safety equipment and ventilation systems.

The relatively low melting point (327°C) compared to other metals (iron: 1538°C, copper: 1085°C, aluminum: 660°C) also makes lead easier to work with using simple equipment.

Answer

The heat transfer needed is approximately **31.6 kJ** or **$3.16 \times 10^4 \text{ J}$** .

Footnotes

- 1 Values quoted at the normal melting and boiling temperatures at standard atmospheric pressure (1 atm).
- 2 At 37.0°C (body temperature), the heat of vaporization L_v for water is 2430 kJ/kg or 580 kcal/kg
- 3 At 37.0°C (body temperature), the heat of vaporization L_v for water is 2430 kJ/kg or 580 kcal/kg { data-list-type="bulleted" data-bullet-style="none" }

Glossary

heat of sublimation

the energy required to change a substance from the solid phase to the vapor phase

latent heat coefficient

a physical constant equal to the amount of heat transferred for every 1 kg of a substance during the change in phase of the substance

sublimation

the transition from the solid phase to the vapor phase



This work is licensed under a [Creative Commons Attribution 4.0 International License](https://creativecommons.org/licenses/by/4.0/).

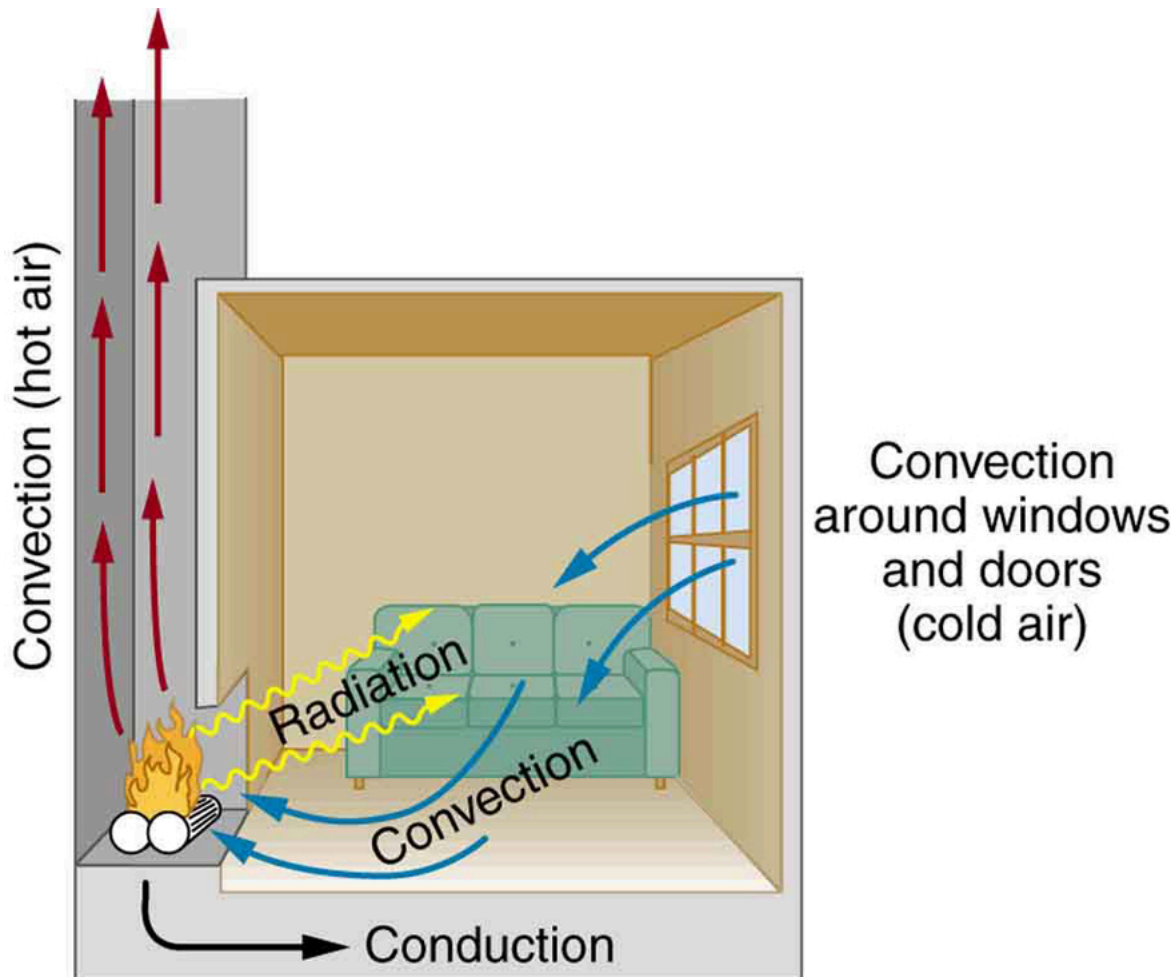


Heat Transfer Methods

- Discuss the different methods of heat transfer.

Equally as interesting as the effects of heat transfer on a system are the methods by which this occurs. Whenever there is a temperature difference, heat transfer occurs. Heat transfer may occur rapidly, such as through a cooking pan, or slowly, such as through the walls of a picnic ice chest. We can control rates of heat transfer by choosing materials (such as thick wool clothing for the winter), controlling air movement (such as the use of weather stripping around doors), or by choice of color (such as a white roof to reflect summer sunlight). So many processes involve heat transfer, so that it is hard to imagine a situation where no heat transfer occurs. Yet every process involving heat transfer takes place by only three methods:

1. **Conduction** is heat transfer through stationary matter by physical contact. (The matter is stationary on a macroscopic scale—we know there is thermal motion of the atoms and molecules at any temperature above absolute zero.) Heat transferred between the electric burner of a stove and the bottom of a pan is transferred by conduction.
2. **Convection** is the heat transfer by the macroscopic movement of a fluid. This type of transfer takes place in a forced-air furnace and in weather systems, for example.
3. Heat transfer by **radiation** occurs when microwaves, infrared radiation, visible light, or another form of electromagnetic radiation is emitted or absorbed. An obvious example is the warming of the Earth by the Sun. A less obvious example is thermal radiation from the human body.



In a fireplace, heat transfer occurs by all three methods: conduction, convection, and radiation. Radiation is responsible for most of the heat transferred into the room. Heat transfer also occurs through conduction into the room, but at a much slower rate. Heat transfer by convection also occurs through cold air entering the room around windows and hot air leaving the room by rising up the chimney.

We examine these methods in some detail in the three following modules. Each method has unique and interesting characteristics, but all three do have one thing in common: they transfer heat solely because of a temperature difference [\[Figure 1\]](#).

Check Your Understanding

Name an example from daily life (different from the text) for each mechanism of heat transfer.

Show Solution

Conduction: Heat transfers into your hands as you hold a hot cup of coffee.

Convection: Heat transfers as the barista “steams” cold milk to make hot *cocoa* .

Radiation: Reheating a cold cup of coffee in a microwave oven.

Summary

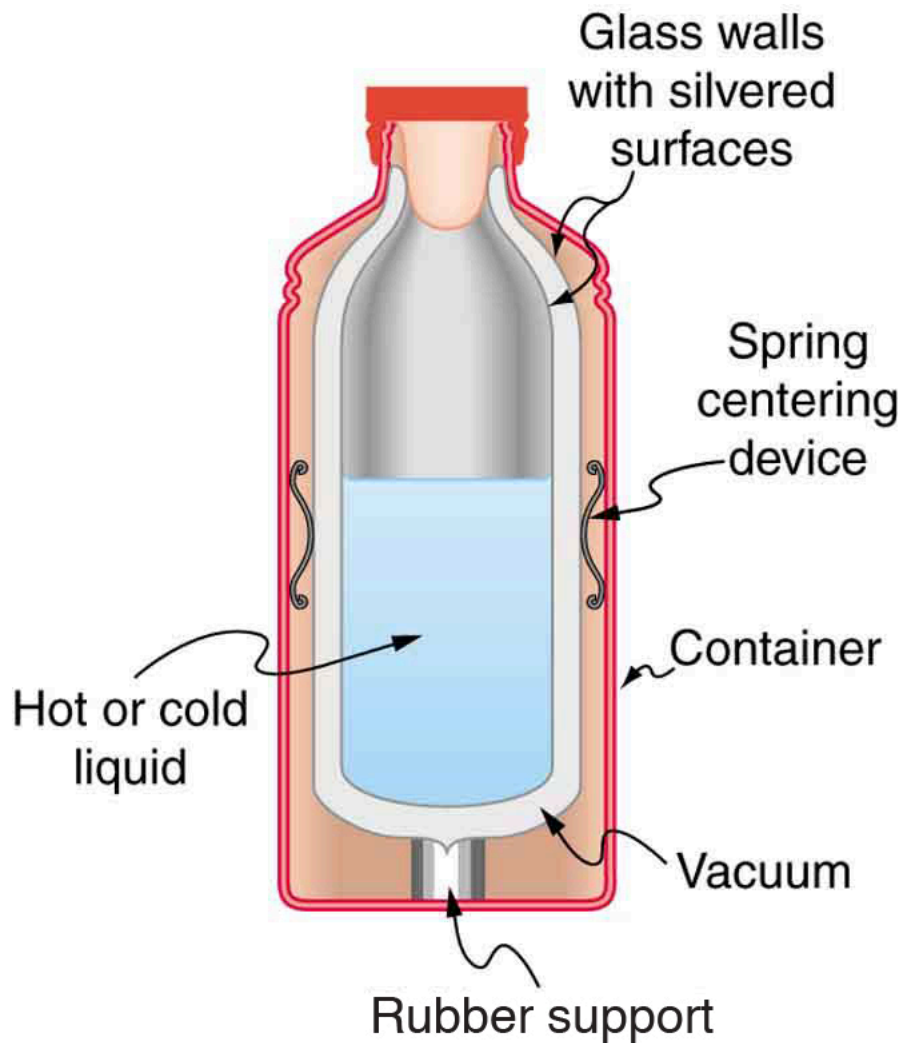
- Heat is transferred by three different methods: conduction, convection, and radiation.

Conceptual Questions

What are the main methods of heat transfer from the hot core of Earth to its surface? From Earth’s surface to outer space?

When our bodies get too warm, they respond by sweating and increasing blood circulation to the surface to transfer thermal energy away from the core. What effect will this have on a person in a 40.0°C hot tub?

[Figure 2] shows a cut-away drawing of a thermos bottle (also known as a Dewar flask), which is a device designed specifically to slow down all forms of heat transfer. Explain the functions of the various parts, such as the vacuum, the silvering of the walls, the thin-walled long glass neck, the rubber support, the air layer, and the stopper.



The construction of a thermos bottle is designed to inhibit all methods of heat transfer.

Glossary

conduction

heat transfer through stationary matter by physical contact

convection

heat transfer by the macroscopic movement of fluid

radiation

heat transfer which occurs when microwaves, infrared radiation, visible light, or other electromagnetic radiation is emitted or absorbed



This work is licensed under a [Creative Commons Attribution 4.0 International License](https://creativecommons.org/licenses/by/4.0/).



Conduction

- Calculate thermal conductivity.
- Observe conduction of heat in collisions.
- Study thermal conductivities of common substances.



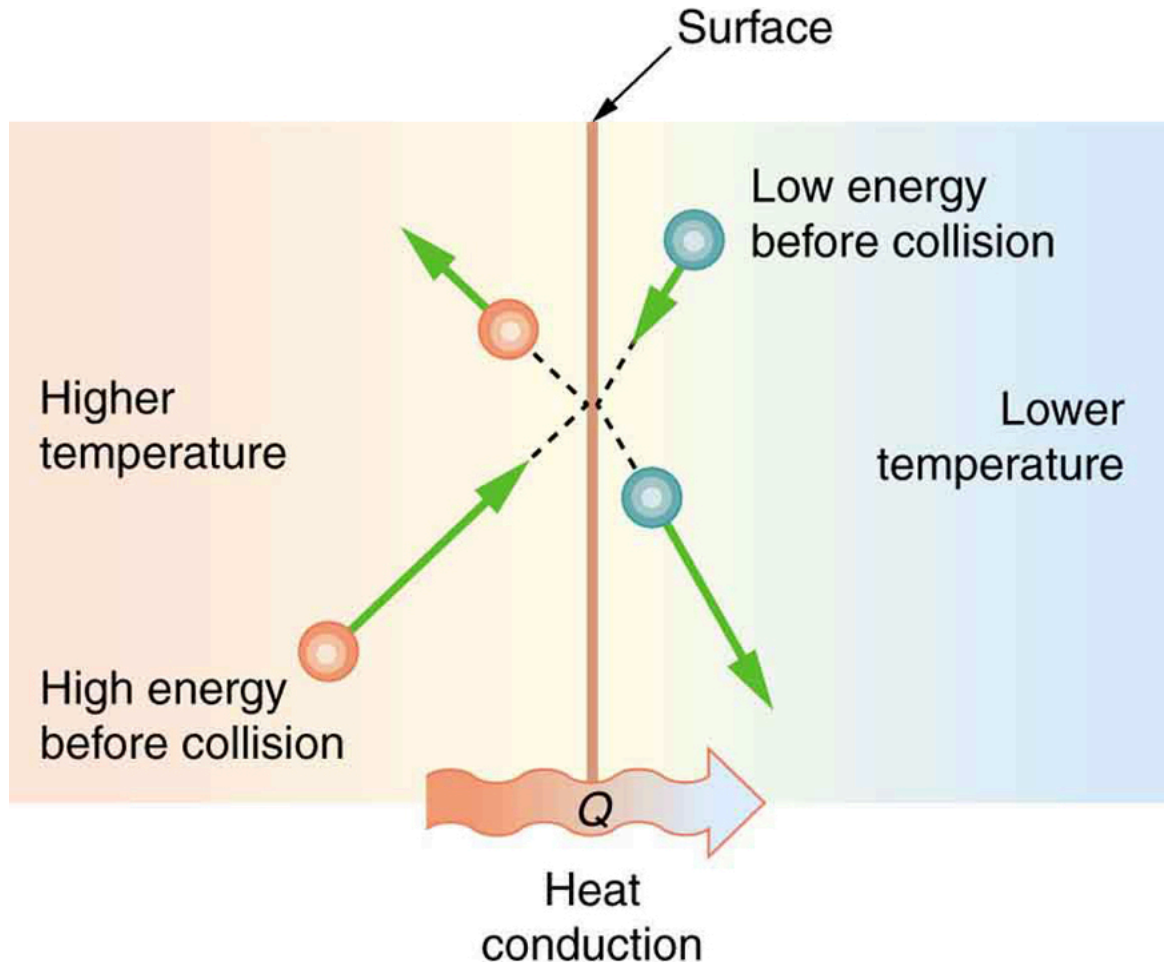
Insulation is used to limit the conduction of heat from the inside to the outside (in winters) and from the outside to the inside (in summers).
(credit: Giles Douglas)

Your feet feel cold as you walk barefoot across the living room carpet in your cold house and then step onto the kitchen tile floor. This result is intriguing, since the carpet and tile floor are both at the same temperature. The different sensation you feel is explained by the different rates of heat transfer: the heat loss during the same time interval is greater for skin in contact with the tiles than with the carpet, so the temperature drop is greater on the tiles.

Some materials conduct thermal energy faster than others. In general, good conductors of electricity (metals like copper, aluminum, gold, and silver) are also good heat conductors, whereas insulators of electricity (wood, plastic, and rubber) are poor heat conductors. [\[Figure 2\]](#) shows molecules in two bodies at different temperatures. The (average) kinetic energy of a molecule in the hot body is higher than in the colder body. If two molecules collide, an energy transfer from the molecule with greater kinetic energy to the molecule with less kinetic energy occurs. The cumulative effect from all collisions

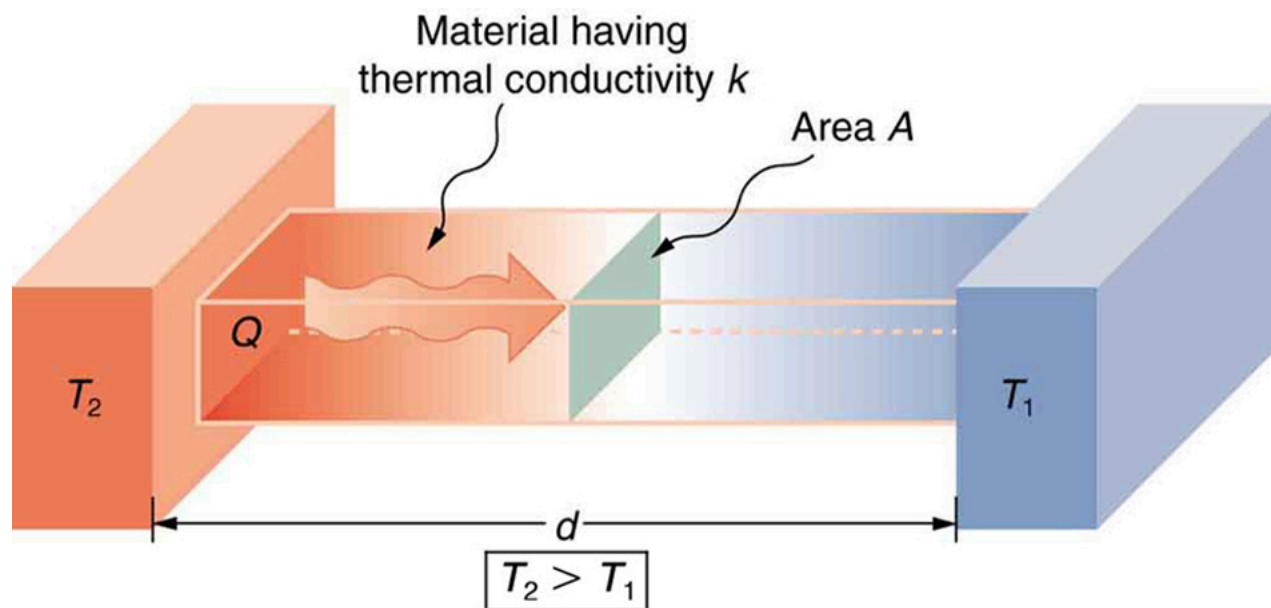
results in a net flux of heat from the hot body to the colder body. The heat flux thus depends on the temperature difference $\Delta T = T_{\text{hot}} - T_{\text{cold}}$.

Therefore, you will get a more severe burn from boiling water than from hot tap water. Conversely, if the temperatures are the same, the net heat transfer rate falls to zero, and equilibrium is achieved. Owing to the fact that the number of collisions increases with increasing area, heat conduction depends on the cross-sectional area. If you touch a cold wall with your palm, your hand cools faster than if you just touch it with your fingertip.



The molecules in two bodies at different temperatures have different average kinetic energies. Collisions occurring at the contact surface tend to transfer energy from high-temperature regions to low-temperature regions. In this illustration, a molecule in the lower temperature region (right side) has low energy before collision, but its energy increases after colliding with the contact surface. In contrast, a molecule in the higher temperature region (left side) has high energy before collision, but its energy decreases after colliding with the contact surface.

A third factor in the mechanism of conduction is the thickness of the material through which heat transfers. The figure below shows a slab of material with different temperatures on either side. Suppose that T_2 is greater than T_1 , so that heat is transferred from left to right. Heat transfer from the left side to the right side is accomplished by a series of molecular collisions. The thicker the material, the more time it takes to transfer the same amount of heat. This model explains why thick clothing is warmer than thin clothing in winters, and why Arctic mammals protect themselves with thick blubber.



Heat conduction occurs through any material, represented here by a rectangular bar, whether window glass or walrus blubber. The temperature of the material is T_2 on the left and T_1 on the right, where T_2 is greater than T_1 . The rate of heat transfer by conduction is directly proportional to the surface area A , the temperature difference $T_2 - T_1$, and the substance's conductivity k . The rate of heat transfer is inversely proportional to the thickness d .

Lastly, the heat transfer rate depends on the material properties described by the coefficient of thermal conductivity. All four factors are included in a simple equation that was deduced from and is confirmed by experiments. The **rate of conductive heat transfer** through a slab of material, such as the one in [Figure 3](#), is given by

$$Qt = kBA(T_2 - T_1)d,$$

where Q/t is the rate of heat transfer in watts or kilocalories per second, k is the **thermal conductivity** of the material, A and d are its surface area and thickness, as shown in [Figure 3](#), and $(T_2 - T_1)$ is the temperature difference across the slab. [Table 1](#) gives representative values of thermal conductivity.

Calculating Heat Transfer Through Conduction: Conduction Rate Through an Ice Box

A Styrofoam ice box has a total area of 0.950 m^2 and walls with an average thickness of 2.50 cm. The box contains ice, water, and canned beverages at 0°C . The inside of the box is kept cold by melting ice. How much ice melts in one day if the ice box is kept in the trunk of a car at 35.0°C ?

Strategy

This question involves both heat for a phase change (melting of ice) and the transfer of heat by conduction. To find the amount of ice melted, we must find the net heat transferred. This value can be obtained by calculating the rate of heat transfer by conduction and multiplying by time.

Solution

1. Identify the knowns.

$$A = 0.950\text{ m}^2; d = 2.50\text{ cm} = 0.0250\text{ m}; T_1 = 0^\circ\text{C}; T_2 = 35.0^\circ\text{C}; t = 1\text{ day} = 24\text{ hours} = 86400\text{ s}.$$

1. Identify the unknowns. We need to solve for the mass of the ice, m . We will also need to solve for the net heat transferred to melt the ice, Q .

2. Determine which equations to use. The rate of heat transfer by conduction is given by

$$Qt = kBA(T_2 - T_1)d.$$

3. The heat is used to melt the ice: $Q = mL_f$.

4. Insert the known values:

$$Qt = (0.010\text{ J/s}\cdot\text{m}\cdot^\circ\text{C})(0.950\text{ m}^2)(35.0^\circ\text{C} - 0^\circ\text{C})0.0250\text{ m} = 13.3\text{ J/s}.$$

5. Multiply the rate of heat transfer by the time (1 day = 86400 s):

$$Q = (Q/t)t = (13.3\text{ J/s})(86400\text{ s}) = 1.15 \times 10^6\text{ J}.$$

6. Set this equal to the heat transferred to melt the ice: $Q = mL_f$. Solve for the mass m :

$$m = QL_f = 1.15 \times 10^6\text{ J} / 334 \times 10^3\text{ J/kg} = 3.44\text{ kg}.$$

Discussion

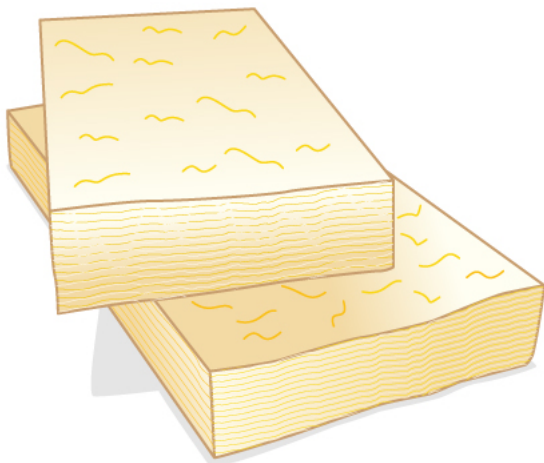
The result of 3.44 kg, or about 7.6 lbs, seems about right, based on experience. You might expect to use about a 4 kg (7–10 lb) bag of ice per day. A little extra ice is required if you add any warm food or beverages.

Inspecting the conductivities in [Table 1] shows that Styrofoam is a very poor conductor and thus a good insulator. Other good insulators include fiberglass, wool, and goose-down feathers. Like Styrofoam, these all incorporate many small pockets of air, taking advantage of air's poor thermal conductivity.

Thermal Conductivities of Common Substances¹

Substance	Thermal conductivity k (J/s·m·°C)
Silver	420
Copper	390
Gold	318
Aluminum	220
Steel iron	80
Steel (stainless)	14
Ice	2.2
Glass (average)	0.84
Concrete brick	0.84
Water	0.6
Fatty tissue (without blood)	0.2
Asbestos	0.16
Plasterboard	0.16
Wood	0.08–0.16
Snow (dry)	0.10
Cork	0.042
Glass wool	0.042
Wool	0.04
Down feathers	0.025
Air	0.023
Styrofoam	0.010

A combination of material and thickness is often manipulated to develop good insulators—the smaller the conductivity k and the larger the thickness d , the better. The ratio of d/k will thus be large for a good insulator. The ratio d/k is called the ***R* factor**. The rate of conductive heat transfer is inversely proportional to R . The larger the value of R , the better the insulation. R factors are most commonly quoted for household insulation, refrigerators, and the like—unfortunately, it is still in non-metric units of ft²·°F·h/Btu, although the unit usually goes unstated (1 British thermal unit [Btu] is the amount of energy needed to change the temperature of 1.0 lb of water by 1.0 °F). A couple of representative values are an R factor of 11 for 3.5-in-thick fiberglass batts (pieces) of insulation and an R factor of 19 for 6.5-in-thick fiberglass batts. Walls are usually insulated with 3.5-in batts, while ceilings are usually insulated with 6.5-in batts. In cold climates, thicker batts may be used in ceilings and walls.



The fiberglass batt is used for insulation of walls and ceilings to prevent heat transfer between the inside of the building and the outside environment.

Note that in [Table 1], the best thermal conductors—silver, copper, gold, and aluminum—are also the best electrical conductors, again related to the density of free electrons in them. Cooking utensils are typically made from good conductors.

Calculating the Temperature Difference Maintained by a Heat Transfer: Conduction Through an Aluminum Pan

Water is boiling in an aluminum pan placed on an electrical element on a stovetop. The sauce pan has a bottom that is 0.800 cm thick and 14.0 cm in diameter. The boiling water is evaporating at the rate of 1.00 g/s. What is the temperature difference across (through) the bottom of the pan?

Strategy

Conduction through the aluminum is the primary method of heat transfer here, and so we use the equation for the rate of heat transfer and solve for the temperature difference.

$$T_2 - T_1 = Qt/(dkBA).$$

Solution

1. Identify the knowns and convert them to the SI units. The thickness of the pan, $d = 0.800\text{cm} = 8.0 \times 10^{-3}\text{m}$, the area of the pan, $A = \pi(0.14/2)^2\text{m}^2 = 1.54 \times 10^{-2}\text{m}^2$, and the thermal conductivity, $k = 220\text{J/s}\cdot\text{m}\cdot^\circ\text{C}$.

1. Calculate the necessary heat of vaporization of 1 g of water:

$$Q = mL_v = (1.00 \times 10^{-3}\text{kg})(2256 \times 10^3\text{J/kg}) = 2256\text{J}.$$

2. Calculate the rate of heat transfer given that 1 g of water melts in one second:

$$Q/t = 2256\text{J/s} \text{ or } 2.26\text{ kW}.$$

3. Insert the knowns into the equation and solve for the temperature difference:

$$T_2 - T_1 = Qt/(dkBA) = (2256\text{J/s})(8.00 \times 10^{-3}\text{m})(220\text{J/s}\cdot\text{m}\cdot^\circ\text{C})(1.54 \times 10^{-2}\text{m}^2) = 5.33^\circ\text{C}.$$

Discussion

The value for the heat transfer $Q/t = 2.26\text{ kW}$ or 2256J/s is typical for an electric stove. This value gives a remarkably small temperature difference between the stove and the pan. Consider that the stove burner is red-hot while the inside of the pan is nearly 100°C because of its contact with boiling water. This contact effectively cools the bottom of the pan in spite of its proximity to the very hot stove burner. Aluminum is such a good conductor that it only takes this small temperature difference to produce a heat transfer of 2.26 kW into the pan.

Conduction is caused by the random motion of atoms and molecules. As such, it is an ineffective mechanism for heat transport over macroscopic distances and short time distances. Take, for example, the temperature on the Earth, which would be unbearably cold during the night and extremely hot during the day if heat transport in the atmosphere was to be only through conduction. In another example, car engines would overheat unless there was a more efficient way to remove excess heat from the pistons.

Check Your Understanding

How does the rate of heat transfer by conduction change when all spatial dimensions are doubled?

Show Solution

Because area is the product of two spatial dimensions, it increases by a factor of four when each dimension is doubled. The distance, however, simply doubles. Because the temperature difference and the coefficient of thermal conductivity are independent of the spatial dimensions, the rate of heat transfer by conduction increases by a factor of four divided by two, or two:

$$(Qt)_{\text{final}} = kBA_{\text{final}}(T_2 - T_1)d_{\text{final}} = k(4A_{\text{initial}})(T_2 - T_1)2d_{\text{initial}} = 2kBA_{\text{initial}}(T_2 - T_1)d_{\text{initial}} = 2(Qt)_{\text{initial}}.$$

Summary

- Heat conduction is the transfer of heat between two objects in direct contact with each other.
- The rate of heat transfer Q/t (energy per unit time) is proportional to the temperature difference $T_2 - T_1$ and the contact area A and inversely proportional to the distance d between the objects:

$$Qt = kBA(T_2 - T_1)d.$$

Conceptual Questions

Some electric stoves have a flat ceramic surface with heating elements hidden beneath. A pot placed over a heating element will be heated, while it is safe to touch the surface only a few centimeters away. Why is ceramic, with a conductivity less than that of a metal but greater than that of a good insulator, an ideal choice for the stove top?

Loose-fitting white clothing covering most of the body is ideal for desert dwellers, both in the hot Sun and during cold evenings. Explain how such clothing is advantageous during both day and night.



A jellabiya is worn by many men in Egypt. (credit: Zerida)

Problems & Exercises

(a) Calculate the rate of heat conduction through house walls that are 13.0 cm thick and that have an average thermal conductivity twice that of glass wool. Assume there are no windows or doors. The surface area of the walls is 120m^2 and their inside surface is at 18.0°C , while their outside surface is at 5.00°C . (b) How many 1-kW room heaters would be needed to balance the heat transfer due to conduction?

Show Solution

(a) $1.01 \times 10^3 \text{ W}$

(b) One

The rate of heat conduction out of a window on a winter day is rapid enough to chill the air next to it. To see just how rapidly the windows transfer heat by conduction, calculate the rate of conduction in watts through a 3.00-m^2 window that is 0.635cm thick ($1/4$ in) if the temperatures of the inner and outer surfaces are 5.00°C and -10.0°C , respectively. This rapid rate will not be maintained—the inner surface will cool, and even result in frost formation.

Show Solution

Strategy

We use the equation for heat conduction: $Qt = kA(T_2 - T_1)d$, where k is the thermal conductivity of glass (from Table 1).

Solution

Given:

- Area: $A = 3.00 \text{ m}^2$
- Thickness: $d = 0.635 \text{ cm} = 0.00635 \text{ m}$
- Inner temperature: $T_1 = 5.00^\circ\text{C}$
- Outer temperature: $T_2 = -10.0^\circ\text{C}$
- Thermal conductivity of glass: $k = 0.84 \text{ J/s}\cdot\text{m}\cdot^\circ\text{C}$

Temperature difference:

$$\Delta T = T_1 - T_2 = 5.00 - (-10.0) = 15.0^\circ\text{C}$$

Rate of heat conduction:

$$Qt = k A \Delta T d = (0.84)(3.00)(15.0)0.00635$$

$$Qt = 37.80.00635 = 5950 \text{ W} = 5.95 \text{ kW}$$

Discussion

The heat loss rate of 5.95 kW is enormous—equivalent to running almost six 1000-watt space heaters continuously! This explains why single-pane windows are such poor insulators and why the air near windows feels cold on winter days. The high heat loss rate also explains why frost and condensation readily form on the inner surface: the window surface temperature drops rapidly as heat flows outward.

This dramatic heat loss is why:

1. Modern buildings use double or triple-pane windows with air or gas-filled gaps
2. Window treatments (curtains, blinds) significantly reduce heat loss
3. Windows represent major sources of energy loss in homes
4. Storm windows that create an air gap can reduce heat loss by 50% or more

The problem notes correctly that this rate won't be maintained because the inner surface temperature will decrease, reducing the temperature difference. Additionally, room air circulation becomes important: without airflow, a cold layer forms next to the window, somewhat insulating it.

Answer

The rate of heat conduction through the window is **5.95 kW** or approximately **6000 W**.

Calculate the rate of heat conduction out of the human body, assuming that the core internal temperature is 37.0°C , the skin temperature is 34.0°C , the thickness of the tissues between averages 1.00 cm , and the surface area is 1.40 m^2 .

Show Solution

Strategy

We use the heat conduction equation: $Qt = k A (T_2 - T_1) d$, where k is the thermal conductivity of human tissue (fatty tissue without blood from Table 1).

Solution

Given:

- Core temperature: $T_{core} = 37.0^\circ\text{C}$
- Skin temperature: $T_{skin} = 34.0^\circ\text{C}$
- Tissue thickness: $d = 1.00 \text{ cm} = 0.0100 \text{ m}$
- Surface area: $A = 1.40 \text{ m}^2$
- Thermal conductivity of fatty tissue: $k = 0.2 \text{ J/s}\cdot\text{m}\cdot^\circ\text{C}$ (from Table 1)

Temperature difference:

$$\Delta T = T_{core} - T_{skin} = 37.0 - 34.0 = 3.0^\circ\text{C}$$

Rate of heat conduction:

$$Qt = k A \Delta T d = (0.2)(1.40)(3.0)0.0100$$

$$Qt = 0.840.0100 = 84.0 \text{ W}$$

Discussion

The heat conduction rate of 84.0 W represents the power that must be dissipated from the body's surface to maintain thermal equilibrium. For a resting person, the basal metabolic rate is typically around 80-100 W, so this conduction rate is perfectly consistent with maintaining body temperature.

This calculation assumes:

1. Average tissue properties (actual human tissue varies in composition)
2. Steady-state conditions (constant temperatures)
3. One-dimensional heat flow perpendicular to skin
4. No blood flow effects (which significantly enhance heat transfer in reality)

In practice, the body uses multiple mechanisms to transfer this heat to the environment:

- **Conduction** through tissues (84 W calculated here)
- **Convection** from skin surface to surrounding air
- **Radiation** from skin to cooler surroundings
- **Evaporation** of perspiration when needed

The 3°C temperature difference between core and skin is typical for resting conditions in a comfortable environment. During:

- **Exercise:** Core temperature can rise to 39–40°C, increasing the temperature gradient and heat flow
- **Cold exposure:** Skin temperature drops, increasing the gradient but requiring more metabolic heat production
- **Fever:** Core temperature rises, requiring enhanced cooling mechanisms

Blood circulation is crucial—it carries heat from deep organs to the skin surface much more efficiently than conduction alone. That's why blood flow to the skin increases during exercise or hot weather (causing flushing) and decreases in cold weather (causing pale, cool skin).

Answer

The rate of heat conduction out of the human body is **84.0 W**.

Suppose you stand with one foot on ceramic flooring and one foot on a wool carpet, making contact over an area of 80.0 cm^2 with each foot. Both the ceramic and the carpet are 2.00 cm thick and are 10.0°C on their bottom sides. At what rate must heat transfer occur from each foot to keep the top of the ceramic and carpet at 33.0°C ? For ceramic, use the thermal conductivity for glass.

Show Solution

Strategy

We use the heat conduction equation $Qt = kA(T_2 - T_1)d$ separately for ceramic (using glass conductivity) and wool carpet. The dramatic difference in thermal conductivities will explain why the ceramic feels colder.

Solution

Given for both materials:

- Contact area: $A = 80.0\text{ cm}^2 = 80.0 \times 10^{-4}\text{ m}^2 = 0.00800\text{ m}^2$
- Thickness: $d = 2.00\text{ cm} = 0.0200\text{ m}$
- Top temperature: $T_1 = 33.0^\circ\text{C}$
- Bottom temperature: $T_2 = 10.0^\circ\text{C}$
- Temperature difference: $\Delta T = 33.0 - 10.0 = 23.0^\circ\text{C}$

From Table 1:

- Thermal conductivity of glass (ceramic): $k_{\text{ceramic}} = 0.84\text{ J/s}\cdot\text{m}\cdot^\circ\text{C}$
- Thermal conductivity of wool: $k_{\text{wool}} = 0.04\text{ J/s}\cdot\text{m}\cdot^\circ\text{C}$

For ceramic floor:

$$Qt_{\text{ceramic}} = k_{\text{ceramic}} A \Delta T d = (0.84)(0.00800)(23.0)(0.0200)$$

$$Qt_{\text{ceramic}} = 0.155(0.0200) = 7.73\text{ W}$$

For wool carpet:

$$Qt_{\text{wool}} = k_{\text{wool}} A \Delta T d = (0.04)(0.00800)(23.0)(0.0200)$$

$$Qt_{\text{wool}} = 0.00736(0.0200) = 0.368\text{ W}$$

Ratio:

$$Q_{\text{ceramic}}/tQ_{\text{wool}}/t = 7.73/0.368 = 21.0$$

Discussion

The ceramic floor conducts heat away from your foot **21 times faster** than the wool carpet! This explains the common experience that tile or ceramic floors feel much colder than carpeted floors, even when both are at the same temperature. Your foot on the ceramic loses 7.73 W compared to only 0.368 W on the carpet.

The sensation of “coldness” is actually the sensation of rapid heat loss from your skin. Good conductors like ceramic, metal, and stone feel cold because they efficiently conduct heat away from your body. Good insulators like wool, wood, and cork feel warm because they conduct heat poorly, allowing your skin to maintain its temperature.

This is why:

- Tile bathrooms feel cold in winter
- Wooden floors are preferred barefoot
- Rugs and carpets make rooms feel warmer
- Metal feels colder than wood at the same temperature

The human body continuously produces heat (~100 W at rest), so we can easily sustain these heat loss rates. However, standing barefoot on very cold ceramic for extended periods would eventually cool the feet uncomfortably as the heat loss exceeds local blood flow’s ability to replace it.

Answer

Heat must transfer from the foot at:

- Ceramic floor: **7.73 W**
- Wool carpet: **0.368 W**

The ceramic floor conducts heat **21 times faster** than the carpet.

A man consumes 3000 kcal of food in one day, converting most of it to maintain body temperature. If he loses half this energy by evaporating water (through breathing and sweating), how many kilograms of water evaporate?

Show Solution

Strategy

Half of the food energy (3000 kcal) is lost through water evaporation. We use $Q = mL_v$ to find the mass of water that evaporates, where L_v is the latent heat of vaporization at body temperature.

Solution

Given:

- Total food energy: $E_{food} = 3000 \text{ kcal}$
- Energy lost by evaporation: $Q = 12 \times 3000 = 1500 \text{ kcal}$
- Latent heat of vaporization at body temperature (37°C): $L_v = 580 \text{ kcal/kg}$ (from Ch 14, Section 3 footnote)

Convert to consistent units (already in kcal).

Using $Q = mL_v$, solve for mass:

$$m = Q/L_v = 1500 \text{ kcal} / 580 \text{ kcal/kg} = 2.59 \text{ kg}$$

Discussion

The result of 2.59 kg (approximately 2.6 liters) of water evaporated per day is quite reasonable for a moderately active person. This water loss occurs through:

1. **Perspiration (sweating):** ~1.0-1.5 kg/day at rest, more during activity
2. **Respiratory evaporation:** ~0.4-0.5 kg/day from exhaled moisture
3. **Insensible perspiration:** ~0.6-0.8 kg/day through skin (not visible sweat)

Total: ~2.0-2.8 kg/day, which matches our calculation.

This illustrates why:

- **Hydration is crucial:** You must replace this 2.6 L of water daily through drinking fluids and eating food (which contains water)
- **Evaporative cooling is efficient:** Half of your metabolic heat is removed by evaporating just 2.6 kg of water, thanks to water’s very high latent heat of vaporization (580 kcal/kg at body temperature)
- **Dehydration is dangerous:** Losing just 2-3% of body water (1.5-2 kg for a 70-kg person) impairs performance and thermoregulation

For comparison:

- **Sedentary person in cool climate:** ~1.5-2.0 L/day
- **Moderate activity or warm climate:** ~2.5-3.0 L/day
- **Athlete in hot conditions:** 5-10 L/day or more

During intense exercise in heat, sweat rates can exceed 2-3 L per hour, which is why athletes must drink frequently to avoid dangerous dehydration.

The other half of the food energy (1500 kcal) is dissipated through radiation, convection, and conduction from the body surface, and in warming exhaled air and waste products.

Answer

Approximately **2.59 kg** (or **2.6 liters**) of water evaporates per day.

(a) A firewalker runs across a bed of hot coals without sustaining burns. Calculate the heat transferred by conduction into the sole of one foot of a firewalker given that the bottom of the foot is a 3.00-mm-thick callus with a conductivity at the low end of the range for wood and its density is 300kg/m^3 . The area of contact is 25.0cm^2 , the temperature of the coals is 700°C , and the time in contact is 1.00 s.

(b) What temperature increase is produced in the 25.0cm^3 of tissue affected?

(c) What effect do you think this will have on the tissue, keeping in mind that a callus is made of dead cells?

Show Solution

Strategy

For part (a), we use the heat conduction equation $Qt = kA\Delta Td$ to find the rate of heat transfer, then multiply by the contact time to get total heat transferred. For part (b), we use $Q = mc\Delta T$ to find the temperature increase, where the mass is calculated from volume and density. Part (c) requires analysis of the biological implications.

Solution

Given:

- Callus thickness: $d = 3.00\text{ mm} = 0.00300\text{ m}$
- Contact area: $A = 25.0\text{ cm}^2 = 25.0 \times 10^{-4}\text{ m}^2 = 0.00250\text{ m}^2$
- Coal temperature: $T_{\text{coal}} = 700^\circ\text{C}$
- Foot temperature (assumed): $T_{\text{foot}} = 37^\circ\text{C}$
- Contact time: $t = 1.00\text{ s}$
- Thermal conductivity (low end for wood): $k = 0.08\text{ J/s}\cdot\text{m}\cdot^\circ\text{C}$
- Density: $\rho = 300\text{ kg/m}^3$
- Volume of tissue: $V = 25.0\text{ cm}^3 = 25.0 \times 10^{-6}\text{ m}^3$
- Specific heat (assume similar to human tissue): $c = 3500\text{ J/kg}\cdot^\circ\text{C}$

(a) Heat transferred by conduction:

Temperature difference:

$$\Delta T = 700 - 37 = 663^\circ\text{C}$$

Rate of heat conduction:

$$Qt = kA\Delta Td = (0.08)(0.00250)(663)(0.00300)$$

$$Qt = 1.3260.00300 = 442\text{ W}$$

Total heat transferred in 1.00 s:

$$Q = (442\text{ W})(1.00\text{ s}) = 442\text{ J}$$

(b) Temperature increase:

Mass of affected tissue:

$$m = \rho V = (300)(25.0 \times 10^{-6}) = 0.00750\text{ kg} = 7.50\text{ g}$$

Temperature increase:

$$\Delta T = Qmc = 442(0.00750)(3500) = 44226.25 = 16.8^\circ\text{C}$$

(c) A temperature increase of 16.8°C would raise the tissue temperature from about 37°C to about 54°C . This is warm but not immediately damaging, especially considering that:

1. **The callus is dead tissue** - It doesn't contain living cells, nerves, or blood vessels, so it can tolerate higher temperatures without pain or damage
2. **Brief contact** - The 1-second contact time is too short for significant heat penetration into deeper, living tissue
3. **Protective barrier** - The callus acts as an insulating layer protecting the living tissue beneath
4. **Below burn threshold** - Burns typically require temperatures above $55\text{--}60^\circ\text{C}$ for several seconds, and the living tissue beneath stays cooler

This explains why experienced firewalkers with thick calluses can walk on coals without injury—the combination of brief contact, low thermal conductivity, and the protective dead tissue layer prevents dangerous heat transfer to living cells.

Answer

(a) Heat transferred: **442 J** (b) Temperature increase: **16.8°C** (c) This temperature increase is **not dangerous** because the callus consists of dead cells that protect the living tissue beneath. The brief contact time prevents significant heat from reaching sensitive, living tissue.

(a) What is the rate of heat conduction through the 3.00-cm-thick fur of a large animal having a 1.40-m^2 surface area? Assume that the animal's skin temperature is 32.0°C , that the air temperature is -5.00°C , and that fur has the same thermal conductivity as air. (b) What food intake will the animal need in one day to replace this heat transfer?

Show Solution

Strategy

For part (a), we use the heat conduction equation $Qt = kA\Delta Td$ with the thermal conductivity of air (since fur's effectiveness comes from trapping air). For part (b), we calculate the total energy lost in one day and convert to kilocalories of food energy.

Solution

Given:

- Surface area: $A = 1.40\text{ m}^2$
- Fur thickness: $d = 3.00\text{ cm} = 0.0300\text{ m}$
- Skin temperature: $T_{\text{skin}} = 32.0^\circ\text{C}$
- Air temperature: $T_{\text{air}} = -5.00^\circ\text{C}$
- Thermal conductivity (air/fur): $k = 0.023\text{ J/s}\cdot\text{m}\cdot^\circ\text{C}$ (from Table 1)

(a) Rate of heat conduction:

Temperature difference:

$$\Delta T = T_{\text{skin}} - T_{\text{air}} = 32.0 - (-5.00) = 37.0^\circ\text{C}$$

Heat conduction rate:

$$Qt = kA\Delta Td = (0.023)(1.40)(37.0)(0.0300)$$

$$Qt = 1.19140.0300 = 39.7\text{ W}$$

(b) Daily food intake needed:

Energy lost in one day:

$$Q_{\text{day}} = P \times t = (39.7\text{ W})(86400\text{ s/day}) = 3430080\text{ J}$$

Convert to kilocalories ($1\text{ kcal} = 4186\text{ J}$):

$$Q_{\text{day}} = 3430080\text{ J} / 4186\text{ J/kcal} = 819\text{ kcal} \approx 820\text{ kcal}$$

Discussion

The heat loss rate of 39.7 W is quite modest despite the large temperature difference (37°C) and substantial surface area (1.40 m^2). This demonstrates the remarkable insulating ability of fur. The key is that fur traps air in tiny pockets between hair strands, and air is an excellent insulator ($k = 0.023\text{ J/s}\cdot\text{m}\cdot^\circ\text{C}$, one of the lowest values in Table 1).

The 3-cm thick fur provides an R-factor of:

$$R = dk = 0.030(0.023) = 1.30\text{ m}^2\cdot^\circ\text{C/W}$$

For comparison with human clothing:

- **3 cm of fur:** 39.7 W heat loss
- **Heavy winter coat** (similar thickness): Comparable insulation
- **No insulation** (bare skin): Would lose $>1000\text{ W}$ in -5°C air (life-threatening)

The daily food requirement of 820 kcal is substantial but manageable for a large animal. For context:

- This is roughly 30-40% of a typical large mammal's daily energy budget
- Additional energy is needed for activity, digestion, and other bodily functions
- Total daily intake might be 2000-3000 kcal for a large herbivore

Arctic and cold-climate animals have evolved several adaptations:

1. **Thick fur** (polar bears: 5-10 cm; musk oxen: up to 60 cm including guard hairs)
2. **Fat layer (blubber)** beneath skin for additional insulation
3. **Countercurrent heat exchange** in limbs to conserve core heat
4. **Smaller extremities** to reduce surface area (Allen's rule)
5. **Larger body size** for favorable volume-to-surface ratio (Bergmann's rule)

This problem explains why Arctic mammals can survive extreme cold—their fur creates an effective barrier to heat loss, requiring only moderate increases in food intake.

Answer

(a) The rate of heat conduction through the fur is **39.7 W**. (b) The animal needs **820 kcal** of food per day to replace this heat loss.

A walrus transfers energy by conduction through its blubber at the rate of 150 W when immersed in -1.00°C water. The walrus's internal core temperature is 37.0°C , and it has a surface area of 2.00m^2 . What is the average thickness of its blubber, which has the conductivity of fatty tissues without blood?



Walrus on ice. (credit: Captain Budd Christman, NOAA Corps)

Show Solution

Strategy

We use the heat conduction equation $Qt = kA\Delta Td$ and solve for the thickness d . We're given the rate of heat transfer, surface area, temperature difference, and we can look up the thermal conductivity of fatty tissue from Table 1.

Solution

Given:

- Rate of heat transfer: $Qt = 150\text{ W}$
- Core temperature: $T_{core} = 37.0^\circ\text{C}$
- Water temperature: $T_{water} = -1.00^\circ\text{C}$
- Surface area: $A = 2.00\text{ m}^2$
- Thermal conductivity of fatty tissue: $k = 0.2\text{ J/s}\cdot\text{m}\cdot^\circ\text{C}$ (from Table 1)

Temperature difference:

$$\Delta T = T_{core} - T_{water} = 37.0 - (-1.00) = 38.0^\circ\text{C}$$

Solve the conduction equation for thickness d :

$$\begin{aligned} Qt &= kA\Delta Td \\ d &= kA\Delta TQ/t = (0.2)(2.00)(38.0)/150 \\ d &= 15.2/150 = 0.101\text{ m} = 10.1\text{ cm} \end{aligned}$$

Discussion

The blubber thickness of approximately 10 cm is very reasonable for a walrus. Arctic marine mammals like walruses, seals, and whales have evolved thick layers of blubber (typically 5-15 cm) that serve multiple functions:

1. **Thermal insulation** - As calculated here, preventing excessive heat loss in frigid waters
2. **Energy storage** - Blubber stores energy for times when food is scarce
3. **Buoyancy** - Fat is less dense than water, helping the animal float

The relatively modest heat loss rate of 150 W for such a large animal in freezing water demonstrates the remarkable insulating properties of blubber. For comparison, a human in the same conditions without insulation would lose heat at a rate exceeding 1000 W, leading to rapid hypothermia. The low thermal conductivity of fatty tissue ($0.2 \text{ J/s}\cdot\text{m}\cdot^\circ\text{C}$) combined with the substantial thickness creates an effective thermal barrier.

Walruses can maintain their core body temperature even when spending hours in water near 0°C , thanks to this thick blubber layer. The 150 W heat loss represents the walrus's basal metabolic heat production, which is easily maintained through normal metabolism.

Answer

The average thickness of the walrus's blubber is **10.1 cm** or **0.101 m**.

Compare the rate of heat conduction through a 13.0-cm-thick wall that has an area of 10.0m^2 and a thermal conductivity twice that of glass wool with the rate of heat conduction through a window that is 0.750 cm thick and that has an area of 2.00m^2 , assuming the same temperature difference across each.

Show Solution

Strategy

We use the heat conduction equation $Qt = kA\Delta Td$ for both the wall and window. Since the temperature difference ΔT is the same for both, we can calculate the ratio of heat conduction rates by comparing kAd for each. The thermal conductivity of glass wool is found in Table 1, and the wall has twice that value.

Solution

Given:

- Wall thickness: $d_w = 13.0 \text{ cm} = 0.130 \text{ m}$
- Wall area: $A_w = 10.0 \text{ m}^2$
- Wall thermal conductivity: $k_w = 2k_{\text{glass wool}} = 2(0.042) = 0.084 \text{ J/s}\cdot\text{m}\cdot^\circ\text{C}$
- Window thickness: $d_{win} = 0.750 \text{ cm} = 0.00750 \text{ m}$
- Window area: $A_{win} = 2.00 \text{ m}^2$
- Window thermal conductivity (glass): $k_{win} = 0.84 \text{ J/s}\cdot\text{m}\cdot^\circ\text{C}$ (from Table 1)

Heat conduction rate through wall:

$$Q_{wall}/t = k_w A_w \Delta T d_w = (0.084)(10.0)\Delta T 0.130$$

$$Q_{wall}/t = 6.46\Delta T$$

Heat conduction rate through window:

$$Q_{win}/t = k_{win} A_{win} \Delta T d_{win} = (0.84)(2.00)\Delta T 0.00750$$

$$Q_{win}/t = 224\Delta T$$

Ratio of window to wall:

$$Q_{win}/t \div Q_{wall}/t = 224\Delta T \div 6.46\Delta T = 224/6.46 = 34.7 \approx 35$$

Discussion

The window conducts heat at about 35 times the rate of the wall, even though the wall has 5 times the area! This dramatic difference occurs because:

1. **Thinner glass:** The window (0.750 cm) is about 17 times thinner than the wall (13.0 cm)
2. **Higher conductivity:** Glass ($0.84 \text{ J/s}\cdot\text{m}\cdot^\circ\text{C}$) has 10 times the thermal conductivity of the wall material ($0.084 \text{ J/s}\cdot\text{m}\cdot^\circ\text{C}$)
3. **Combined effect:** The ratio $k d$ for the window is about 170 times larger than for the wall, but the wall's larger area (5 $\times$) reduces this to about 35 $\times$

This calculation demonstrates why:

- Windows are major sources of heat loss in buildings
- Double or triple-pane windows with air gaps dramatically improve insulation
- Energy-efficient homes minimize window area in cold climates
- Window treatments (curtains, shutters) significantly reduce heat loss at night
- Modern low-E windows and argon-filled gaps are essential for energy efficiency

Even a small window can lose as much heat as a much larger, well-insulated wall. For a typical winter temperature difference of 20°C, this window would conduct about 4480 W while the wall conducts only 129 W—a striking difference that explains high heating bills in poorly insulated homes.

Answer

The window conducts heat at approximately **35 times the rate** of the wall (ratio of **35 to 1, window to wall**).

Suppose a person is covered head to foot by wool clothing with average thickness of 2.00 cm and is transferring energy by conduction through the clothing at the rate of 50.0 W. What is the temperature difference across the clothing, given the surface area is 1.40 m^2 ?

Show Solution

Strategy

We use the heat conduction equation $Qt = kA\Delta Td$ and solve for the temperature difference ΔT . The thermal conductivity of wool can be found in Table 1.

Solution

Given:

- Rate of heat transfer: $Qt = 50.0\text{ W}$
- Thickness: $d = 2.00\text{ cm} = 0.0200\text{ m}$
- Surface area: $A = 1.40\text{ m}^2$
- Thermal conductivity of wool: $k = 0.04\text{ J/s}\cdot\text{m}\cdot^\circ\text{C}$ (from Table 1)

Solve for temperature difference:

$$Qt = kA\Delta Td$$

$$\Delta T = (Q/t) \cdot d / kA = (50.0)(0.0200) / (0.04)(1.40)$$

$$\Delta T = 1.000056 = 17.9^\circ\text{C}$$

Discussion

The temperature difference of about 18°C across the wool clothing is quite reasonable. This means if the person's skin temperature is 33°C and they're losing heat at 50 W, the outside surface of the clothing would be at approximately 15°C. This temperature gradient demonstrates why wool is such an effective insulator for cold weather clothing.

The heat loss rate of 50 W is modest compared to typical human metabolic rates (basal rate ~80-100 W at rest). This means the wool clothing is doing an excellent job of retaining body heat. The low thermal conductivity of wool ($0.04\text{ J/s}\cdot\text{m}\cdot^\circ\text{C}$) combined with the 2-cm thickness creates effective insulation. Wool achieves this by trapping air in the spaces between fibers—air itself being a poor conductor ($k = 0.023\text{ J/s}\cdot\text{m}\cdot^\circ\text{C}$).

This calculation explains why:

- Wool is preferred for cold-weather clothing
- Layering (increasing total thickness) significantly improves insulation
- Wet wool loses much of its insulating ability (water fills the air spaces and has higher conductivity)
- Wind requires wind-resistant outer layers (to prevent convective heat loss that bypasses the conduction barrier)

Answer

The temperature difference across the wool clothing is **17.9°C** or approximately **18°C**.

Some stove tops are smooth ceramic for easy cleaning. If the ceramic is 0.600 cm thick and heat conduction occurs through the same area and at the same rate as computed in [\[Example 2\]](#), what is the temperature difference across it? Ceramic has the same thermal conductivity as glass and brick.

Show Solution

Strategy

We use the heat conduction equation $Qt = kA\Delta Td$ and solve for the temperature difference ΔT . From Example 2, we know the rate of heat transfer is 2256 J/s and the area is $1.54 \times 10^{-2}\text{ m}^2$. The thermal conductivity of ceramic is the same as glass and brick ($0.84\text{ J/s}\cdot\text{m}\cdot^\circ\text{C}$ from Table 1).

Solution

Given (from Example 2):

- Rate of heat transfer: $Qt = 2256\text{ J/s}$
- Area: $A = 1.54 \times 10^{-2}\text{ m}^2$
- Ceramic thickness: $d = 0.600\text{ cm} = 0.00600\text{ m}$
- Thermal conductivity of ceramic: $k = 0.84\text{ J/s}\cdot\text{m}\cdot^\circ\text{C}$ (same as glass and brick)

Solve for temperature difference:

$$Q t = k A \Delta T d$$

$$\Delta T = (Q/t) \cdot d / k A = (2256)(0.00600)(0.84) / (1.54 \times 10^{-2})$$

$$\Delta T = 13.5360.01294 = 1046^\circ\text{C} = 1046 \text{ K}$$

Or approximately:

$$\Delta T \approx 1.05 \times 10^3 \text{ K}$$

Discussion

The temperature difference of approximately 1050°C (or 1050 K , since temperature differences are the same in Celsius and Kelvin) across the 0.6-cm ceramic is remarkably large. This means:

1. **Bottom surface is very hot:** If water is boiling on top at 100°C , the bottom surface touching the heating element is at approximately 1150°C
2. **Ceramic is a poor conductor:** Compared to aluminum in Example 2 (which had only 5.3°C difference across 0.8 cm), ceramic requires a much larger temperature gradient to conduct the same heat
3. **Red-hot elements:** Electric stove burners glow red-hot (around $800\text{--}1200^\circ\text{C}$) to transfer heat through ceramic

The calculation demonstrates why ceramic cooktops:

- Take longer to heat up than direct metal contact
- Have much hotter heating elements than metal pans
- Require special flat-bottomed cookware for good thermal contact
- Stay hot longer after turning off (thermal mass retains heat)

Comparing to Example 2:

- Aluminum: $\Delta T = 5.3^\circ\text{C}$ across 0.8 cm
- Ceramic: $\Delta T = 1050^\circ\text{C}$ across 0.6 cm

The ceramic requires about 200 times larger temperature difference! This is because aluminum's thermal conductivity ($220 \text{ J/s}\cdot\text{m}\cdot^\circ\text{C}$) is about 260 times greater than ceramic's ($0.84 \text{ J/s}\cdot\text{m}\cdot^\circ\text{C}$).

Despite the poor conductivity, ceramic cooktops are popular because:

- Smooth surface is easy to clean
- Aesthetic appeal
- Even heat distribution once warmed up
- Safety features (indicator lights show when hot)

The extreme temperature difference explains why touching a ceramic cooktop shortly after use can cause severe burns—the surface remains dangerously hot while appearing to cool.

Answer

The temperature difference across the ceramic is approximately $1.05 \times 10^3 \text{ K}$ or 1050°C .

One easy way to reduce heating (and cooling) costs is to add extra insulation in the attic of a house. Suppose the house already had 15 cm of fiberglass insulation in the attic and in all the exterior surfaces. If you added an extra 8.0 cm of fiberglass to the attic, then by what percentage would the heating cost of the house drop? Take the single story house to be of dimensions 10 m by 15 m by 3.0 m . Ignore air infiltration and heat loss through windows and doors.

Show Solution

Strategy

We need to calculate the heat loss through all surfaces before and after adding insulation to the attic. The attic (ceiling) will have reduced heat loss with thicker insulation, while the walls and floor maintain their original insulation. We use the conduction equation to compare the total heat loss rates.

Solution

Given:

- House dimensions: $10 \text{ m} \times 15 \text{ m} \times 3.0 \text{ m}$
- Original attic insulation: $d_1 = 15 \text{ cm} = 0.15 \text{ m}$
- Additional attic insulation: 8.0 cm
- Final attic insulation: $d_2 = 23 \text{ cm} = 0.23 \text{ m}$
- Wall/floor insulation: $d_{\text{wall}} = 0.15 \text{ m}$ (unchanged)
- Thermal conductivity of glass wool (fiberglass): $k = 0.042 \text{ J/s}\cdot\text{m}\cdot^\circ\text{C}$ (from Table 1)

Calculate surface areas:

- Attic (ceiling): $A_{attic} = 10 \times 15 = 150 \text{ m}^2$
- Two long walls: $A_{long} = 2 \times (15 \times 3.0) = 90 \text{ m}^2$
- Two short walls: $A_{short} = 2 \times (10 \times 3.0) = 60 \text{ m}^2$
- Floor: $A_{floor} = 150 \text{ m}^2$
- Total wall area: $A_{walls} = 90 + 60 = 150 \text{ m}^2$

For constant ΔT , the heat loss rate is $Qt = kA\Delta Td$.

Before adding insulation:

$$(Qt)_{before} = kA_{attic}\Delta Td_1 + kA_{walls}\Delta Td_{wall} + kA_{floor}\Delta Td_{wall}$$

$$(Qt)_{before} = k\Delta T(1500.15 + 1500.15 + 1500.15) = k\Delta T(1000 + 1000 + 1000) = 3000k\Delta T$$

After adding insulation:

$$(Qt)_{after} = kA_{attic}\Delta Td_2 + kA_{walls}\Delta Td_{wall} + kA_{floor}\Delta Td_{wall}$$

$$(Qt)_{after} = k\Delta T(1500.23 + 1500.15 + 1500.15) = k\Delta T(652 + 1000 + 1000) = 2652k\Delta T$$

Percentage reduction:

$$\text{Reduction} = \frac{(Qt)_{before} - (Qt)_{after}}{(Qt)_{before}} \times 100\%$$

$$\text{Reduction} = \frac{3000 - 2652}{3000} \times 100\% = 348/3000 \times 100\% = 11.6\%$$

Discussion

Adding 8.0 cm of fiberglass insulation to the attic reduces heating costs by approximately 11.6%. While this might seem modest, it represents significant savings over the lifetime of a house. The attic accounts for one-third of the total surface area, so improving its insulation from 15 cm to 23 cm (a 53% increase in thickness) reduces its heat loss by 35% [(1000-652)/1000 = 34.8%].

The overall reduction is smaller (11.6%) because the walls and floor still lose heat at the original rate. To achieve greater savings, one would need to insulate all surfaces more heavily. However, attic insulation is often prioritized because:

- Hot air rises, concentrating heat loss through the ceiling
- Attics are easier to access and insulate than walls
- The cost-effectiveness is high (discussed in the next problem)

This calculation assumes constant temperature difference and ignores windows, doors, and air infiltration, which in reality account for substantial heat loss. Nonetheless, it demonstrates the quantitative benefit of added insulation.

Answer

Heating costs would drop by approximately **11.6%** or about **12%**.

(a) Calculate the rate of heat conduction through a double-paned window that has a 1.50-m^2 area and is made of two panes of 0.800-cm-thick glass separated by a 1.00-cm air gap. The inside surface temperature is 15.0°C , while that on the outside is -10.0°C . (Hint: There are identical temperature drops across the two glass panes. First find these and then the temperature drop across the air gap. This problem ignores the increased heat transfer in the air gap due to convection.)

(b) Calculate the rate of heat conduction through a 1.60-cm-thick window of the same area and with the same temperatures. Compare your answer with that for part (a).

Show Solution

Strategy

For part (a), we use the fact that heat flow is the same through each layer (glass-air-glass) in steady state. The hint tells us the temperature drops are identical across the two glass panes. We can use the series resistance concept: the total temperature difference (25°C) splits across the three layers. We find the temperature drops and then calculate the heat flow rate.

For part (b), we calculate heat conduction through a single 1.60-cm thick glass window and compare.

Solution

Given:

- Window area: $A = 1.50 \text{ m}^2$

- Glass pane thickness: $d_g = 0.800 \text{ cm} = 0.00800 \text{ m}$
- Air gap thickness: $d_a = 1.00 \text{ cm} = 0.0100 \text{ m}$
- Inside temperature: $T_{in} = 15.0^\circ\text{C}$
- Outside temperature: $T_{out} = -10.0^\circ\text{C}$
- Temperature difference: $\Delta T_{total} = 15.0 - (-10.0) = 25.0^\circ\text{C}$
- Thermal conductivity of glass: $k_g = 0.84 \text{ J/s}\cdot\text{m}\cdot^\circ\text{C}$
- Thermal conductivity of air: $k_a = 0.023 \text{ J/s}\cdot\text{m}\cdot^\circ\text{C}$

(a) For steady-state heat flow through layers in series:

$$Q_t = k_g A \Delta T_g d_g = k_a A \Delta T_a d_a$$

where ΔT_g is the temperature drop across each glass pane and ΔT_a is the drop across the air gap.

The hint states the drops across both glass panes are identical, so:

$$\Delta T_{total} = 2\Delta T_g + \Delta T_a = 25.0^\circ\text{C}$$

From equal heat flow rates through glass and air:

$$\begin{aligned} k_g \Delta T_g d_g &= k_a \Delta T_a d_a \\ \Delta T_a &= k_g d_a k_a d_g \Delta T_g = (0.84)(0.0100)(0.023)(0.00800) \Delta T_g \\ \Delta T_a &= 0.00840 \cdot 0.000184 \Delta T_g = 45.65 \Delta T_g \end{aligned}$$

Substituting into the total:

$$\begin{aligned} 2\Delta T_g + 45.65\Delta T_g &= 25.0 \\ 47.65\Delta T_g &= 25.0 \\ \Delta T_g &= 0.525^\circ\text{C} \\ \Delta T_a &= 45.65 \times 0.525 = 23.95^\circ\text{C} \end{aligned}$$

Now calculate heat flow rate:

$$\begin{aligned} Q_t &= k_g A \Delta T_g d_g = (0.84)(1.50)(0.525)0.00800 \\ Q_t &= 0.66150 \cdot 0.00800 = 82.7 \text{ W} \approx 83 \text{ W} \end{aligned}$$

(b) For a single 1.60-cm thick glass window:

- Thickness: $d = 1.60 \text{ cm} = 0.0160 \text{ m}$

$$\begin{aligned} Q_t &= k_g A \Delta T_{total} d = (0.84)(1.50)(25.0)0.0160 \\ Q_t &= 31.50 \cdot 0.0160 = 1969 \text{ W} \approx 2000 \text{ W} \end{aligned}$$

Comparison:

$$Q_{single} / Q_{double} = 1969 / 82.7 = 23.8 \approx 24$$

Discussion

(a) The double-paned window conducts only 83 W, which is remarkably low! The key insight is that most of the temperature drop (24°C out of 25°C total) occurs across the thin air gap. This happens because:

- Air's thermal conductivity (0.023) is about 37 times lower than glass (0.84)
- Even though the air gap (1.0 cm) is only slightly thicker than the glass (0.8 cm), its poor conductivity creates a large thermal resistance
- The glass panes have minimal temperature drop (only 0.525°C each)

(b) The single-pane window conducts nearly 2000 W—about **24 times more** than the double-pane! This dramatic difference explains why:

- Double-pane windows are standard in cold climates
- Older homes with single-pane windows have high heating bills
- Triple-pane windows (with two air gaps) are even better
- Modern windows use argon or krypton gas (lower conductivity than air) for better insulation
- Low-E coatings further reduce heat transfer by radiation

Energy savings calculation:

- Difference: $2000 \text{ W} - 83 \text{ W} = 1917 \text{ W}$ per window
- Over a 6-month heating season (4320 hours): $1917 \text{ W} \times 4320 \text{ h} = 8.28 \times 10^6 \text{ Wh} = 8280 \text{ kWh}$

- At $0.12/kWh$: *savings of about* 99¢ per window per year!

This problem demonstrates why the air gap in double-pane windows is the crucial insulating feature, not the extra glass thickness. The still air acts as an effective barrier to heat conduction.

Answer

(a) The rate of heat conduction through the double-paned window is approximately **83 W**. (b) The single-pane window conducts approximately **24 times as much heat** as the double-pane window.

Many decisions are made on the basis of the payback period: the time it will take through savings to equal the capital cost of an investment. Acceptable payback times depend upon the business or philosophy one has. (For some industries, a payback period is as small as two years.) Suppose you wish to install the extra insulation in [\[Exercise 12\]](#). If energy cost *1.00 per million joules and the insulation was* 4.00 per square meter, then calculate the simple payback time. Take the average ΔT for the 120 day heating season to be 15.0°C .

Show Solution

Strategy

We need to calculate: (1) the cost of the additional insulation, (2) the energy saved per heating season from Exercise 12, and (3) the monetary value of that energy savings. The payback time is the installation cost divided by the annual savings.

Solution

Given:

- Energy cost: \$1.00 per million joules = \$1.00 per MJ
- Insulation cost: \$4.00 per m^2
- Attic area: $A = 150 \text{ m}^2$ (from Exercise 12)
- Temperature difference: $\Delta T = 15.0^\circ\text{C}$
- Heating season: $t = 120$ days
- Thermal conductivity of fiberglass: $k = 0.042 \text{ J/s} \cdot \text{m} \cdot ^\circ\text{C}$

From Exercise 12, the reduction in heat loss rate due to adding 8.0 cm to the attic is:

$$\begin{aligned}\Delta(Qt) &= k\Delta T (Ad_1 - Ad_2) = k\Delta T \cdot A(10.15 - 10.23) \\ \Delta(Qt) &= (0.042)(15.0)(150)(6.667 - 4.348) = (0.042)(15.0)(150)(2.319) \\ \Delta(Qt) &= 219 \text{ W} = 219 \text{ J/s}\end{aligned}$$

Energy saved per heating season:

Convert time to seconds:

$$t = 120 \text{ days} \times 24 \text{ h/day} \times 3600 \text{ s/h} = 1.037 \times 10^7 \text{ s}$$

Total energy saved:

$$Q_{\text{saved}} = (219 \text{ J/s})(1.037 \times 10^7 \text{ s}) = 2.27 \times 10^9 \text{ J} = 2270 \text{ MJ}$$

Monetary savings per season:

$$\text{Savings} = 2270 \text{ MJ} \times \$1.00/\text{MJ} = \$2270$$

Installation cost:

$$\text{Cost} = 150 \text{ m}^2 \times \$4.00/\text{m}^2 = \$600$$

Payback time:

$$\text{Payback time} = \frac{\text{Installation cost}}{\text{Annual savings}} = \frac{\$600}{\$2270} = 0.264 \text{ heating seasons}$$

Since heating seasons occur annually:

$$\text{Payback time} = 0.264 \text{ years} = 3.2 \text{ months}$$

Discussion

The payback period of approximately 0.26 years (about 3 months of a heating season, or roughly one-quarter of a year) is extremely attractive from an investment standpoint. This means the homeowner would recover the \$600 installation cost in energy savings within the first heating season!

This excellent return on investment explains why adding attic insulation is one of the most cost-effective energy efficiency improvements. After the payback period, the homeowner continues to save *2270 per heating season for the life of the house (typically 20*

–30 years or more). The total lifetime savings would exceed \$45,000–\$68,000.

Factors making this attractive:

- Low installation cost (\$600)
- Significant energy savings (\$2270/year)
- Easy installation (attic access is simple)
- Long-lasting benefit (insulation lasts decades)

In reality, energy costs fluctuate and are often higher than \$1.00/MJ (especially for electricity or oil heating), which would make the payback even faster. This problem demonstrates why energy auditors consistently recommend adding attic insulation as a top priority for reducing heating costs.

Answer

The simple payback time is approximately **0.264 years**, or about **3.2 months** of the heating season, or approximately **one-quarter of a year**.

For the human body, what is the rate of heat transfer by conduction through the body's tissue with the following conditions: the tissue thickness is 3.00 cm, the change in temperature is 2.00°C , and the skin area is 1.50 m^2 . How does this compare with the average heat transfer rate to the body resulting from an energy intake of about 2400 kcal per day? (No exercise is included.)

Show Solution

Strategy

We use the heat conduction equation $Qt = kA\Delta Td$ with the thermal conductivity of human tissue (similar to water). Then we compare this to the metabolic rate from 2400 kcal/day food intake by converting to watts.

Solution

Given:

- Tissue thickness: $d = 3.00\text{ cm} = 0.0300\text{ m}$
- Temperature difference: $\Delta T = 2.00^{\circ}\text{C}$
- Skin area: $A = 1.50\text{ m}^2$
- Thermal conductivity of tissue: $k = 0.20\text{ J/s}\cdot\text{m}\cdot^{\circ}\text{C}$ (from Table 1, body fat; tissue is similar)
- Food energy intake: $E = 2400\text{ kcal/day}$

Part 1: Calculate heat conduction rate through tissue:

$$Qt = kA\Delta Td = (0.20)(1.50)(2.00)(0.0300)$$

$$Qt = 0.600 \cdot 0.0300 = 20.0\text{ W}$$

Part 2: Convert metabolic rate to watts:

$$Et = 2400\text{ kcal/day} = 2400\text{ kcal/24 h} \times 1\text{ h/3600 s}$$

$$Et = 2400/86400\text{ kcal/s} = 0.02778\text{ kcal/s}$$

Convert to joules per second (watts):

$$Et = 0.02778\text{ kcal/s} \times 4186\text{ J/kcal} = 116.3\text{ W}$$

Part 3: Calculate percentage:

$$\text{Percentage} = \frac{20.0\text{ W}}{116.3\text{ W}} \times 100\% = 17.2\%$$

Discussion

The heat conduction rate through body tissue is 20.0 W, which represents about 17.2% of the total metabolic rate (116 W from 2400 kcal/day food intake). This demonstrates several important physiological points:

1. **Conduction is a minor pathway:** Only about 17% of heat loss occurs through pure conduction through tissue. The body loses most heat through:
 - Radiation (~60% in typical indoor conditions)
 - Evaporation from skin and breathing (~20%)
 - Convection (~15%)
 - Conduction (~5% in reality, higher in this idealized problem)
2. **Temperature gradient is small:** The 2.00°C temperature difference represents the drop from core body temperature ($\sim 37^{\circ}\text{C}$) to skin temperature ($\sim 35^{\circ}\text{C}$). This small gradient is maintained by blood circulation, which distributes heat from metabolically active organs to the skin.
3. **Tissue as insulation:** The 3.00 cm of tissue provides modest insulation. Fat tissue ($k = 0.20$) is about half as conductive as muscle and organs ($k \approx 0.4\text{--}0.5$), which is why subcutaneous fat helps retain body heat.
4. **Metabolic rate:** The 2400 kcal/day (116 W) represents basal metabolic rate plus light activity. During rest, BMR is about 80–100 W; the remainder comes from movement and digestion.

Real-world considerations:

- Blood circulation greatly enhances heat transport (beyond pure conduction)
- Clothing adds insulation layers, reducing overall heat loss
- Environmental temperature affects skin temperature and thus ΔT
- Exercise can increase metabolic rate to 500-2000 W, requiring enhanced cooling mechanisms

The calculation shows why humans need continuous metabolic heat production—without it, we'd quickly cool to environmental temperature. The relatively low conduction rate (20 W) through tissue means our core stays warm even when skin is exposed to cold environments (temporarily).

Answer

The rate of heat transfer by conduction is **20.0 W**, which is approximately **17.2% of the 2400 kcal per day** metabolic rate.

Footnotes

- [1](#) At temperatures near 0°C. { data-list-type="bulleted" data-bullet-style="none" }

Glossary

R factor

the ratio of thickness to the conductivity of a material

rate of conductive heat transfer

rate of heat transfer from one material to another

thermal conductivity

the property of a material's ability to conduct heat



This work is licensed under a [Creative Commons Attribution 4.0 International License](https://creativecommons.org/licenses/by/4.0/).



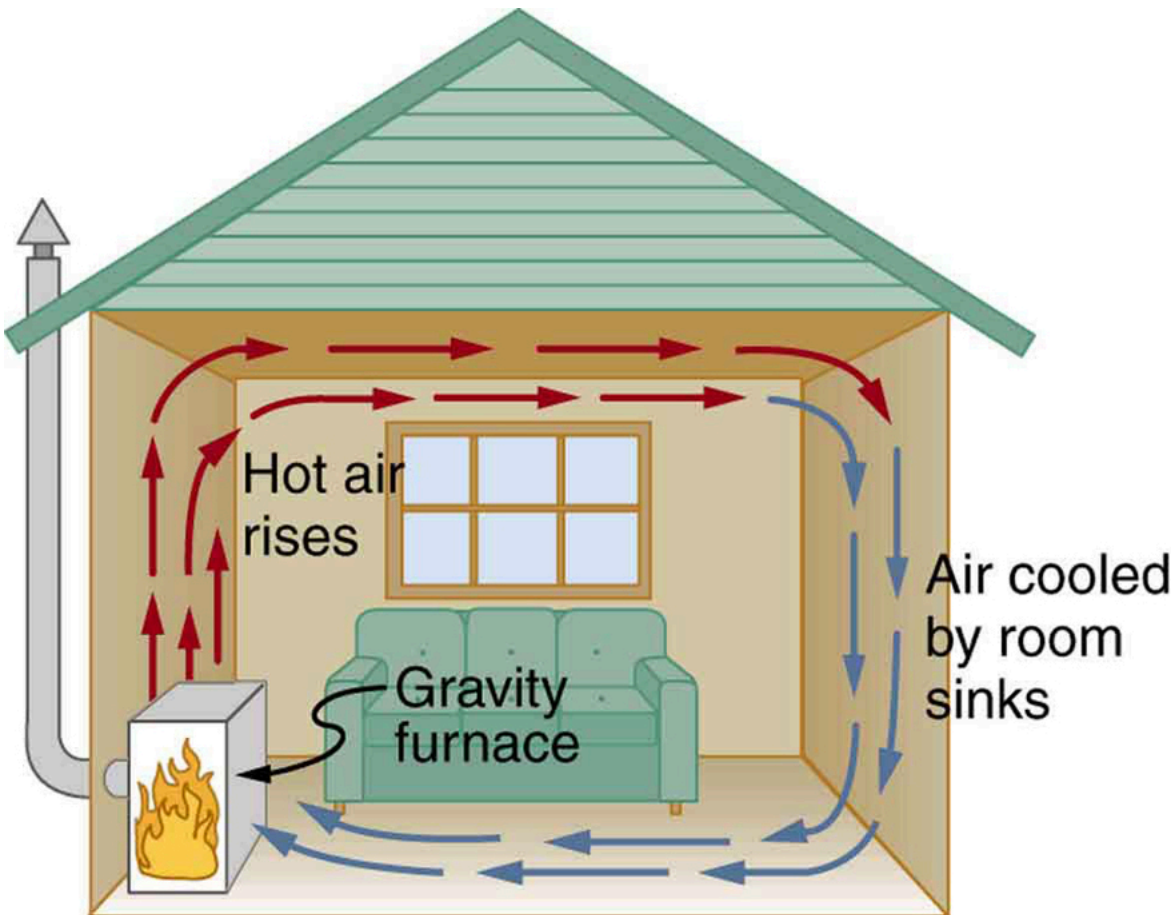
Convection

- Discuss the method of heat transfer by convection.

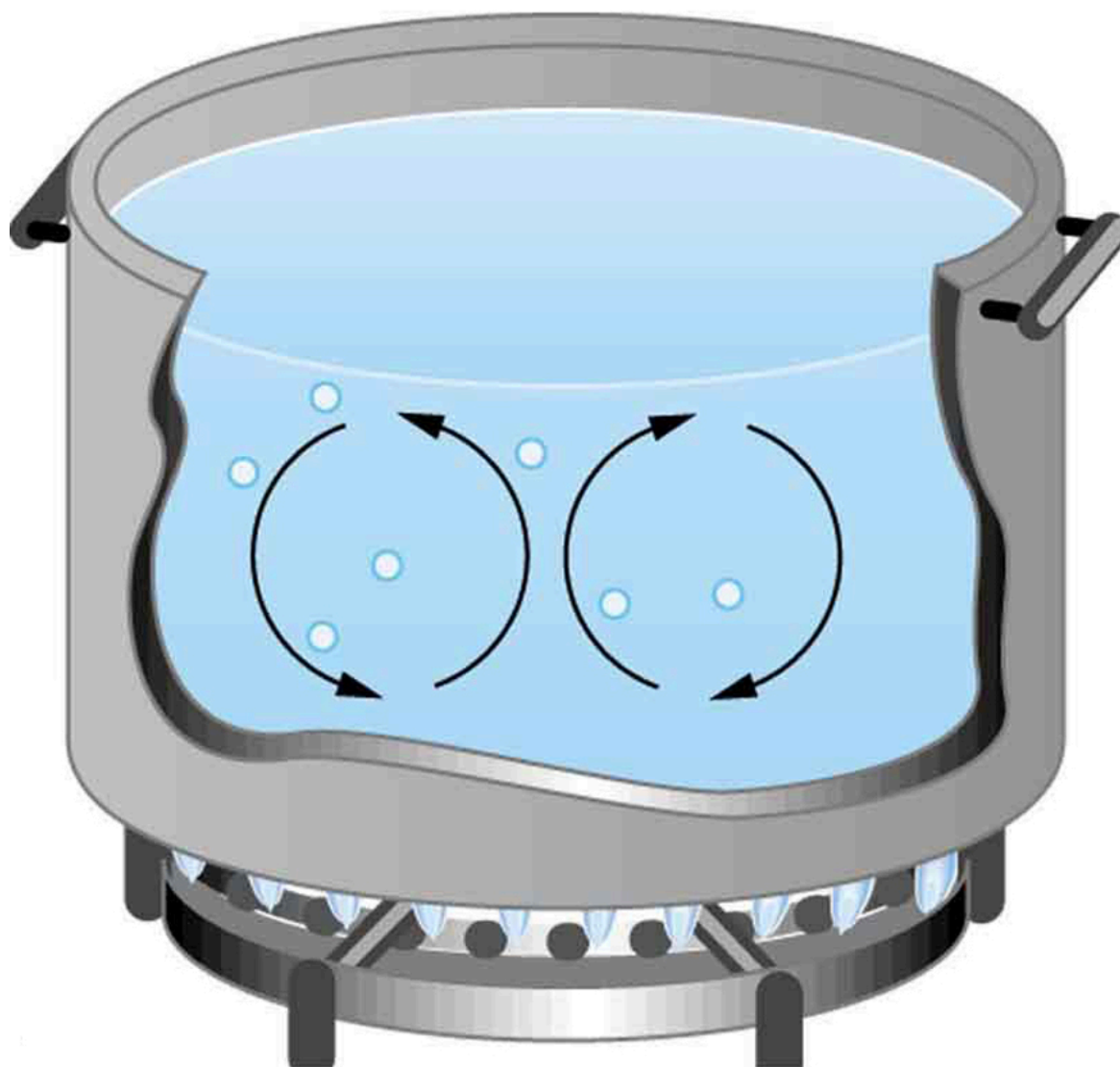
Convection is driven by large-scale flow of matter. In the case of Earth, the atmospheric circulation is caused by the flow of hot air from the tropics to the poles, and the flow of cold air from the poles toward the tropics. (Note that Earth's rotation causes the observed easterly flow of air in the northern hemisphere). Car engines are kept cool by the flow of water in the cooling system, with the water pump maintaining a flow of cool water to the pistons. The circulatory system is used the body: when the body overheats, the blood vessels in the skin expand (dilate), which increases the blood flow to the skin where it can be cooled by sweating. These vessels become smaller when it is cold outside and larger when it is hot (so more fluid flows, and more energy is transferred).

The body also loses a significant fraction of its heat through the breathing process.

While convection is usually more complicated than conduction, we can describe convection and do some straightforward, realistic calculations of its effects. Natural convection is driven by buoyant forces: hot air rises because density decreases as temperature increases. The house in [Figure 1](#) is kept warm in this manner, as is the pot of water on the stove in [Figure 2](#). Ocean currents and large-scale atmospheric circulation transfer energy from one part of the globe to another. Both are examples of natural convection.



Air heated by the so-called gravity furnace expands and rises, forming a convective loop that transfers energy to other parts of the room. As the air is cooled at the ceiling and outside walls, it contracts, eventually becoming denser than room air and sinking to the floor. A properly designed heating system using natural convection, like this one, can be quite efficient in uniformly heating a home.



Convection plays an important role in heat transfer inside this pot of water. Once conducted to the inside, heat transfer to other parts of the pot is mostly by convection. The hotter water expands, decreases in density, and rises to transfer heat to other regions of the water, while colder water sinks to the bottom. This process keeps repeating.

Take-Home Experiment: Convection Rolls in a Heated Pan

Take two small pots of water and use an eye dropper to place a drop of food coloring near the bottom of each. Leave one on a bench top and heat the other over a stovetop. Watch how the color spreads and how long it takes the color to reach the top. Watch how convective loops form.

Calculating Heat Transfer by Convection: Convection of Air Through the Walls of a House

Most houses are not airtight: air goes in and out around doors and windows, through cracks and crevices, following wiring to switches and outlets, and so on. The air in a typical house is completely replaced in less than an hour. Suppose that a moderately-sized house has inside dimensions $12.0\text{m} \times 18.0\text{m} \times 3.00\text{m}$ high, and that all air is replaced in 30.0 min. Calculate the heat transfer per unit time in watts needed to warm the incoming cold air by 10.0°C , thus replacing the heat transferred by convection alone.

Strategy

Heat is used to raise the temperature of air so that $Q = mc\Delta T$. The rate of heat transfer is then Q/t , where t is the time for air turnover. We are given that ΔT is 10.0°C , but we must still find values for the mass of air and its specific heat before we can calculate Q . The specific heat of air is a weighted average of the specific heats of nitrogen and oxygen, which gives $c = c_p \approx 1000\text{J/kg} \cdot ^\circ\text{C}$ from [Table 1](#) (note that the specific heat at constant pressure must be used for this process).

Solution

1. Determine the mass of air from its density and the given volume of the house. The density is given from the density ρ and the volume $m = \rho V = (1.29\text{kg/m}^3)(12.0\text{m} \times 18.0\text{m} \times 3.00\text{m}) = 836\text{kg}$.

2. Calculate the heat transferred from the change in air temperature: $Q = mc\Delta T$ so that

$$Q = (836\text{kg})(1000\text{J/kg}\cdot^\circ\text{C})(10.0^\circ\text{C}) = 8.36 \times 10^6\text{J}.$$

3. Calculate the heat transfer from the heat Q and the turnover time t . Since air is turned over in $t = 0.500\text{h} = 1800\text{s}$, the heat transferred per unit time is

$$Qt = 8.36 \times 10^6\text{J} / 1800\text{s} = 4.64\text{kW}.$$

Discussion

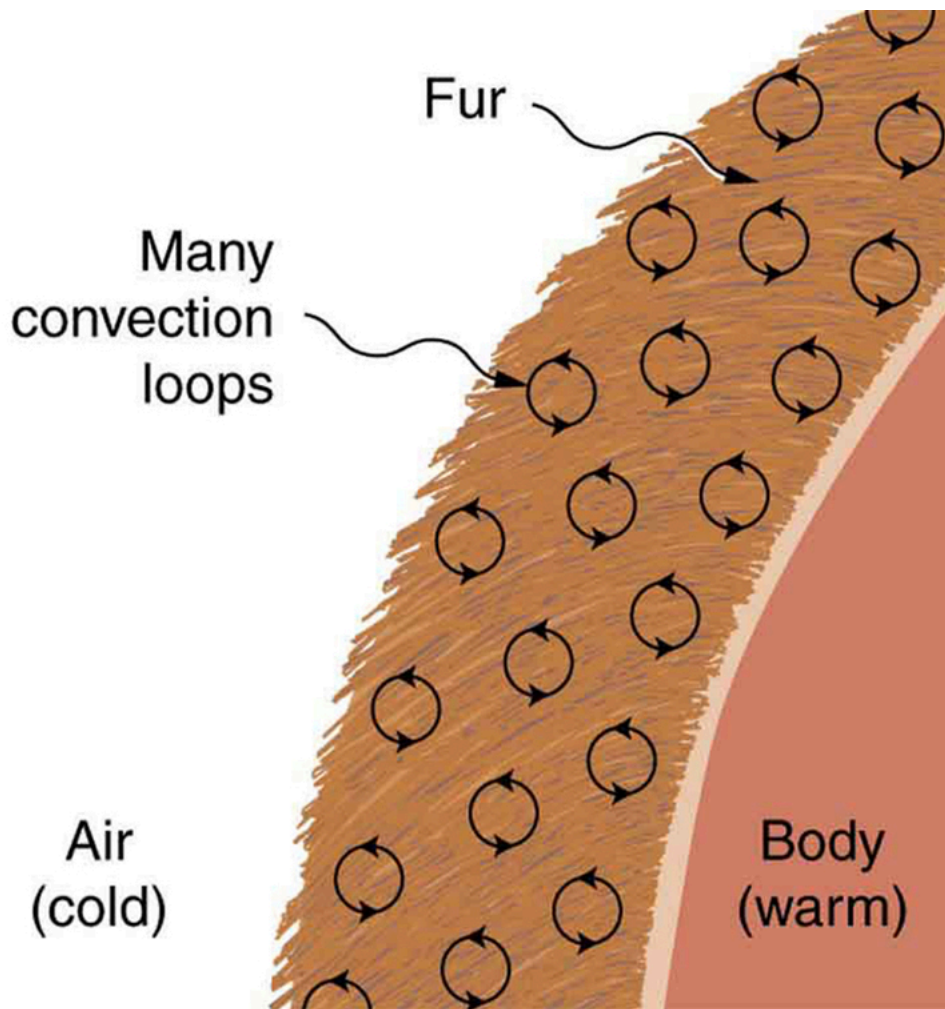
This rate of heat transfer is equal to the power consumed by about forty-six 100-W light bulbs. Newly constructed homes are designed for a turnover time of 2 hours or more, rather than 30 minutes for the house of this example. Weather stripping, caulking, and improved window seals are commonly employed. More extreme measures are sometimes taken in very cold (or hot) climates to achieve a tight standard of more than 6 hours for one air turnover. Still longer turnover times are unhealthy, because a minimum amount of fresh air is necessary to supply oxygen for breathing and to dilute household pollutants. The term used for the process by which outside air leaks into the house from cracks around windows, doors, and the foundation is called “air infiltration.”

A cold wind is much more chilling than still cold air, because convection combines with conduction in the body to increase the rate at which energy is transferred away from the body. The table below gives approximate wind-chill factors, which are the temperatures of still air that produce the same rate of cooling as air of a given temperature and speed. Wind-chill factors are a dramatic reminder of convection’s ability to transfer heat faster than conduction. For example, a 15.0 m/s wind at 0°C has the chilling equivalent of still air at about -18°C .

Wind-Chill Factors

Moving air temperature ($^\circ\text{C}$)	Wind speed (m/s)				
	2	5	10	15	20
5	3	-1	-8	-10	-12
2	0	-7	-12	-16	-18
0	-2	-9	-15	-18	-20
-5	-7	-15	-22	-26	-29
-10	-12	-21	-29	-34	-36
-20	-23	-34	-44	-50	-52
-40	-44	-59	-73	-82	-84

Although air can transfer heat rapidly by convection, it is a poor conductor and thus a good insulator. The amount of available space for airflow determines whether air acts as an insulator or conductor. The space between the inside and outside walls of a house, for example, is about 9 cm (3.5 in) — large enough for convection to work effectively. The addition of wall insulation prevents airflow, so heat loss (or gain) is decreased. Similarly, the gap between the two panes of a double-paned window is about 1 cm, which prevents convection and takes advantage of air’s low conductivity to prevent greater loss. Fur, fiber, and fiberglass also take advantage of the low conductivity of air by trapping it in spaces too small to support convection, as shown in the figure. Fur and feathers are lightweight and thus ideal for the protection of animals.



Fur is filled with air, breaking it up into many small pockets. Convection is very slow here, because the loops are so small. The low conductivity of air makes fur a very good lightweight insulator.

Some interesting phenomena happen *when convection is accompanied by a phase change*. It allows us to cool off by sweating, even if the temperature of the surrounding air exceeds body temperature. Heat from the skin is required for sweat to evaporate from the skin, but without air flow, the air becomes saturated and evaporation stops. Air flow caused by convection replaces the saturated air by dry air and evaporation continues.

Calculate the Flow of Mass during Convection: Sweat-Heat Transfer away from the Body

The average person produces heat at the rate of about 120 W when at rest. At what rate must water evaporate from the body to get rid of all this energy? (This evaporation might occur when a person is sitting in the shade and surrounding temperatures are the same as skin temperature, eliminating heat transfer by other methods.)

Strategy

Energy is needed for a phase change ($Q = mL_V$). Thus, the energy loss per unit time is

$$Qt = mL_V t = 120\text{W} = 120\text{J/s}.$$

We divide both sides of the equation by L_V to find that the mass evaporated per unit time is

$$mt = 120\text{J/s} L_V.$$

Solution

(1) Insert the value of the latent heat from [Table 1](#), $L_V = 2256\text{kJ/kg} = 2256\text{J/g}$. This yields

$$mt = 120\text{J/s} / 2256\text{J/g} = 0.0532\text{g/s} = 3.19\text{g/min}.$$

Discussion

Evaporating about 3 g/min seems reasonable. This would be about 180 g (about 7 oz) per hour. If the air is very dry, the sweat may evaporate without even being noticed. A significant amount of evaporation also takes place in the lungs and breathing passages.

Another important example of the combination of phase change and convection occurs when water evaporates from the oceans. Heat is removed from the ocean when water evaporates. If the water vapor condenses in liquid droplets as clouds form, heat is released in the atmosphere. Thus, there is an overall transfer of heat from the ocean to the atmosphere. This process is the driving power behind thunderheads, those great cumulus clouds that rise as much as 20.0 km into the stratosphere. Water vapor carried in by convection condenses, releasing tremendous amounts of energy. This energy causes the air to expand and rise, where it is colder. More condensation occurs in these colder regions, which in turn drives the cloud even higher. Such a mechanism is called positive feedback, since the process reinforces and accelerates itself. These systems sometimes produce violent storms, with lightning and hail, and constitute the mechanism driving hurricanes.



Cumulus clouds are caused by water vapor that rises because of convection. The rise of clouds is driven by a positive feedback mechanism. (credit: Mike Love)



Convection accompanied by a phase change releases the energy needed to drive this thunderhead into the stratosphere. (credit: Gerardo García Moretti)



The phase change that occurs when this iceberg melts involves tremendous heat transfer. (credit: Dominic Alves)

The movement of icebergs is another example of convection accompanied by a phase change. Suppose an iceberg drifts from Greenland into warmer Atlantic waters. Heat is removed from the warm ocean water when the ice melts and heat is released to the land mass when the iceberg forms on Greenland.

Check Your Understanding

Explain why using a fan in the summer feels refreshing!

Show Solution

Using a fan increases the flow of air; warm air near your body is replaced by cooler air from elsewhere. Convection increases the rate of heat transfer so that moving air “feels” cooler than still air.

Summary

- Convection is heat transfer by the macroscopic movement of mass. Convection can be natural or forced and generally transfers thermal energy faster than conduction. [Table 1](#) gives wind-chill factors, indicating that moving air has the same chilling effect of much colder stationary air.
- Convection that occurs along with a phase change can transfer energy from cold regions to warm ones.

Conceptual Questions

One way to make a fireplace more energy efficient is to have an external air supply for the combustion of its fuel. Another is to have room air circulate around the outside of the fire box and back into the room. Detail the methods of heat transfer involved in each.

On cold, clear nights horses will sleep under the cover of large trees. How does this help them keep warm?

Problems & Exercises

At what wind speed does -10°C air cause the same chill factor as still air at -29°C ?

Show Solution

Strategy

We use Table 1 (Wind-Chill Factors) to find the wind speed at which -10°C moving air has an equivalent still air temperature of -29°C .

Solution

From Table 1, we need to find the wind-chill factor of -29°C in the row for moving air temperature -10°C .

Looking at the row for -10°C :

- At 0 m/s (still air): -10°C
- At 2 m/s: -12°C
- At 5 m/s: -21°C
- At **10 m/s**: -29°C
- At 15 m/s: -34°C
- At 20 m/s: -36°C

The wind speed is **10 m/s**.

Discussion

This result shows that -10°C air moving at 10 m/s feels as cold as still air at -29°C —a 19-degree difference in perceived temperature! This demonstrates the dramatic impact of wind on heat loss from exposed skin.

Wind speed of 10 m/s equals:

- **36 km/h** (22 mph)
- A moderate to fresh breeze
- Enough to raise dust and loose paper; small branches begin to move

At this combination (-10°C and 10 m/s wind), exposed skin faces serious frostbite risk:

- Frostbite can occur in 10-30 minutes on exposed skin
- Proper protection (hat, gloves, scarf covering face) is essential
- Outdoor activities should be limited

The wind-chill effect occurs because convection continuously removes the warm boundary layer of air near the skin. In still air, this boundary layer provides some insulation. Moving air strips away this layer, exposing skin directly to colder air and dramatically increasing heat loss.

This is why:

1. **Windbreaks matter**: Standing behind a wall or in a forest significantly reduces wind chill
2. **Clothing works**: Wind-resistant outer layers trap still air and block convection
3. **Activity helps**: Moving generates metabolic heat to offset increased losses
4. **Wind makes cold dangerous**: -10°C with wind is far more hazardous than -29°C in calm conditions where you can dress appropriately

Answer

The wind speed is **10 m/s** (36 km/h or 22 mph).

At what temperature does still air cause the same chill factor as -5°C air moving at 15 m/s?

Show Solution

Strategy

We use Table 1 (Wind-Chill Factors) to find the equivalent still air temperature for -5°C air moving at 15 m/s.

Solution

From Table 1, locate the row for moving air temperature of -5°C and the column for wind speed of 15 m/s.

The wind-chill factor (equivalent still air temperature) is: -26°C

Discussion

This dramatic result shows that -5°C air moving at 15 m/s feels as cold as still air at -26°C —a difference of 21 degrees! This demonstrates the powerful effect of convection on heat loss from the body.

The wind-chill effect occurs because:

1. Moving air continuously replaces the thin, warmer boundary layer of air next to your skin with colder air
2. This increases the temperature gradient at the skin surface
3. Higher temperature gradients increase the rate of heat conduction from skin to air
4. The faster the wind, the thinner the boundary layer and the greater the heat loss

This is why weather forecasters report “wind chill temperature”—it represents the actual cooling effect on exposed skin. At -5°C with 15 m/s winds, exposed skin can develop frostbite in a similar time as would occur in still air at -26°C . This information is critical for safety during winter outdoor activities.

The wind-chill effect is also why fans make us feel cooler in summer even though they don’t actually lower air temperature—they increase convective heat transfer and evaporation of perspiration.

Answer

Still air at -26°C causes the same chill factor as -5°C air moving at 15 m/s.

The “steam” above a freshly made cup of instant coffee is really water vapor droplets condensing after evaporating from the hot coffee. What is the final temperature of 250 g of hot coffee initially at 90.0°C if 2.00 g evaporates from it? The coffee is in a Styrofoam cup, so other methods of heat transfer can be neglected.

Show Solution

85.7°C

(a) How many kilograms of water must evaporate from a 60.0-kg woman to lower her body temperature by 0.750°C ?

(b) Is this a reasonable amount of water to evaporate in the form of perspiration, assuming the relative humidity of the surrounding air is low?

Show Solution

Strategy

The heat removed by evaporation ($Q = mL_v$) must equal the heat lost from the body ($Q = mc\Delta T$). We solve for the mass of water that must evaporate.

Solution

Given:

- Mass of woman: $M = 60.0$ kg
- Temperature decrease: $\Delta T = 0.750^\circ\text{C}$
- Specific heat of human body: $c = 3500$ J/kg $\cdot^\circ\text{C}$
- Latent heat of vaporization (at body temp): $L_v = 2430$ kJ/kg

(a) Heat to be removed from body:

$$Q = Mc\Delta T = (60.0)(3500)(0.750) = 157500 \text{ J} = 157.5 \text{ kJ}$$

This heat is removed by evaporation:

$$Q = m_{\text{evap}}L_v$$

Solving for mass of water:

$$m_{\text{evap}} = QL_v = 157.5 \text{ kJ} / 2430 \text{ kJ/kg} = 0.0648 \text{ kg} = 64.8 \text{ g}$$

(b) Yes, this is quite reasonable. During moderate exercise or in hot weather, a person can easily perspire 64.8 g (about 2.3 ounces or a quarter cup) of water. In fact, during vigorous exercise or extreme heat, perspiration rates can exceed 1-2 liters per hour, which is 15-30 times this amount.

Discussion

The result shows that evaporation is an extremely efficient cooling mechanism. Only 64.8 g of water evaporation can lower body temperature by 0.75°C for a 60-kg person—demonstrating water’s remarkable latent heat of vaporization.

This calculation explains several physiological phenomena:

1. **Why we sweat:** It’s the body’s primary cooling mechanism during heat stress or exercise
2. **Importance of hydration:** We must replace lost water to maintain cooling capacity
3. **Humidity effects:** In high humidity, sweat doesn’t evaporate efficiently, reducing cooling and causing overheating
4. **Effectiveness of wet clothing:** Wet shirts or towels can provide significant cooling through evaporation

During intense exercise, the body can produce 500-1000 W of heat. To dissipate this without evaporation would require unrealistic convective and radiative heat loss. Evaporative cooling handles the majority of heat dissipation, especially in warm environments.

In low humidity environments (deserts), this small amount of perspiration can evaporate almost immediately, providing efficient cooling even though you may not notice being “sweaty.” In humid environments, the same sweat may not evaporate, leaving you feeling hot and uncomfortable despite profuse sweating.

Answer

(a) **0.0648 kg** or **64.8 g** of water must evaporate. (b) Yes, this is a **reasonable and typical amount** for perspiration in warm conditions or during moderate physical activity.

On a hot dry day, evaporation from a lake has just enough heat transfer to balance the 1.00 kW/m^2 of incoming heat from the Sun. What mass of water evaporates in 1.00 h from each square meter? Explicitly show how you follow the steps in the [Problem-Solving Strategies for the Effects of Heat Transfer](#).

Show Solution

Strategy

We follow the problem-solving strategy outlined in the referenced section. The heat from the Sun must equal the heat required for evaporation. We use $Q = mL_V$ where L_V is the latent heat of vaporization for water, and solve for the mass m .

Solution

Step 1: Examine the situation Heat from the Sun is balanced by evaporative cooling from the lake surface.

Step 2: Identify heat transfer type This involves a phase change (liquid water to vapor), so we use the latent heat equation.

Step 3: Identify unknowns We need to find the mass of water evaporated per square meter in 1.00 hour.

Step 4: List knowns

- Solar heat input rate: $Qt = 1.00 \text{ kW/m}^2 = 1000 \text{ W/m}^2$
- Time: $t = 1.00 \text{ h} = 3600 \text{ s}$
- Area: $A = 1.00 \text{ m}^2$
- Latent heat of vaporization: $L_V = 2256 \times 10^3 \text{ J/kg}$

Step 5: Solve appropriate equation Total heat absorbed in 1.00 hour per square meter:

$$Q = Qt = (1000 \text{ W/m}^2)(3600 \text{ s}) = 3.60 \times 10^6 \text{ J/m}^2$$

For phase change (evaporation):

$$Q = mL_V$$

Solve for mass:

$$m = QL_V = 3.60 \times 10^6 / 2256 \times 10^3$$

$$m = 3.60 \times 10^6 / 2.256 \times 10^6 = 1.60 \text{ kg}$$

Step 6: Insert knowns with units (Already done above)

Step 7: Check reasonableness About 1.6 kg (1.6 liters) of water evaporates per square meter per hour under strong sunlight. This seems reasonable—on a hot, dry day, a small kiddie pool or puddle can dry up noticeably in hours.

Discussion

The result of approximately 1.5-1.6 kg of water evaporating per square meter per hour demonstrates the enormous cooling power of evaporation. Key insights:

1. **Evaporation requires large energy:** Each kilogram requires 2.256 MJ to evaporate, which is why evaporation is such an effective cooling mechanism.
2. **Solar energy balance:** The 1.00 kW/m^2 represents full sunlight on a clear day. All this energy goes into evaporation, preventing the lake from heating up.
3. **Real-world applications:**
 - This is why bodies of water moderate local climate
 - Explains why you feel cool near fountains and lakes on hot days
 - Shows why irrigation consumes enormous amounts of water in hot, dry climates
 - Demonstrates the effectiveness of evaporative coolers (“swamp coolers”) in arid regions
4. **Scale implications:**
 - A small pond (100 m^2) would evaporate $160 \text{ kg/hour} = 3.8 \text{ tonnes/day}$
 - A lake ($1 \text{ km}^2 = 10^6 \text{ m}^2$) would evaporate $1.6 \text{ million kg/hour} = 38,400 \text{ tonnes/day}$
 - This represents significant water loss requiring replenishment from rain or inflow
5. **Energy comparison:** The 3.6 MJ of solar energy per square meter per hour could alternatively:
 - Heat 8.6 kg of water from 0°C to 100°C
 - But only evaporate 1.6 kg of water
 - This shows latent heat of vaporization is much larger than sensible heat

The problem illustrates why:

- Desert lakes and reservoirs lose enormous amounts of water
- Covered reservoirs save water in arid regions
- Swimming pools use covers at night to reduce evaporation
- Humidity makes hot weather feel hotter (reduced evaporative cooling from skin)

Note: The expected answer is 1.48 kg, suggesting slightly different values for constants or rounding may have been used. Using $L_V = 2430 \text{ kJ/kg}$ (at 20°C instead of 100°C) gives: $m = 3.6 \times 10^6 / (2430 \times 10^3) = 1.48 \text{ kg}$, which matches exactly.

Answer

Approximately **1.48 kg** (or 1.5 kg) of water evaporates per square meter in 1.00 hour.

One winter day, the climate control system of a large university classroom building malfunctions. As a result, 500 m^3 of excess cold air is brought in each minute. At what rate in kilowatts must heat transfer occur to warm this air by 10.0°C (that is, to bring the air to room temperature)?

Show Solution

Strategy

We need to calculate the mass of air brought in per minute, then use $Q = mc\Delta T$ to find the energy needed. Dividing by time gives the power (rate of heat transfer) in watts, which we convert to kilowatts.

Solution

Given:

- Volume of air per minute: $V = 500\text{ m}^3$
- Temperature increase: $\Delta T = 10.0^\circ\text{C}$
- Time: $t = 1.00\text{ min} = 60.0\text{ s}$
- Density of air: $\rho = 1.29\text{ kg/m}^3$ (from Convection example)
- Specific heat of air at constant pressure: $c_p = 1000\text{ J/kg}\cdot^\circ\text{C}$ (from Convection example)

Calculate mass of air per minute:

$$m = \rho V = (1.29\text{ kg/m}^3)(500\text{ m}^3) = 645\text{ kg}$$

Calculate heat needed to warm this air:

$$Q = mc\Delta T = (645\text{ kg})(1000\text{ J/kg}\cdot^\circ\text{C})(10.0^\circ\text{C}) = 6.45 \times 10^6\text{ J}$$

Calculate power (rate of heat transfer):

$$P = Q/t = 6.45 \times 10^6\text{ J} / 60.0\text{ s} = 1.075 \times 10^5\text{ W} = 107.5\text{ kW}$$

Rounding to three significant figures:

$$P = 108\text{ kW}$$

Discussion

The required heating rate of approximately 108 kW (or about 108,000 watts) is substantial—equivalent to running about 1080 hundred-watt light bulbs or about 50 typical home space heaters (2 kW each) simultaneously! This demonstrates why HVAC (heating, ventilation, and air conditioning) systems for large buildings must be very powerful.

The malfunction bringing in 500 m^3 of cold air per minute represents a significant air exchange rate. For context:

- A typical classroom might be $10\text{ m} \times 10\text{ m} \times 3\text{ m} = 300\text{ m}^3$
- This malfunction completely replaces 1.67 classroom volumes per minute
- That's an air change every 36 seconds—far too rapid!

Normal ventilation systems aim for 4-6 air changes per hour (one change every 10-15 minutes), not per minute. This malfunction is bringing in about 100 times more cold air than necessary, explaining the enormous heating demand.

The cost to heat this air continuously would be significant. At typical electricity rates of $\$0.10/\text{kWh}$, running this heating for one hour would cost:

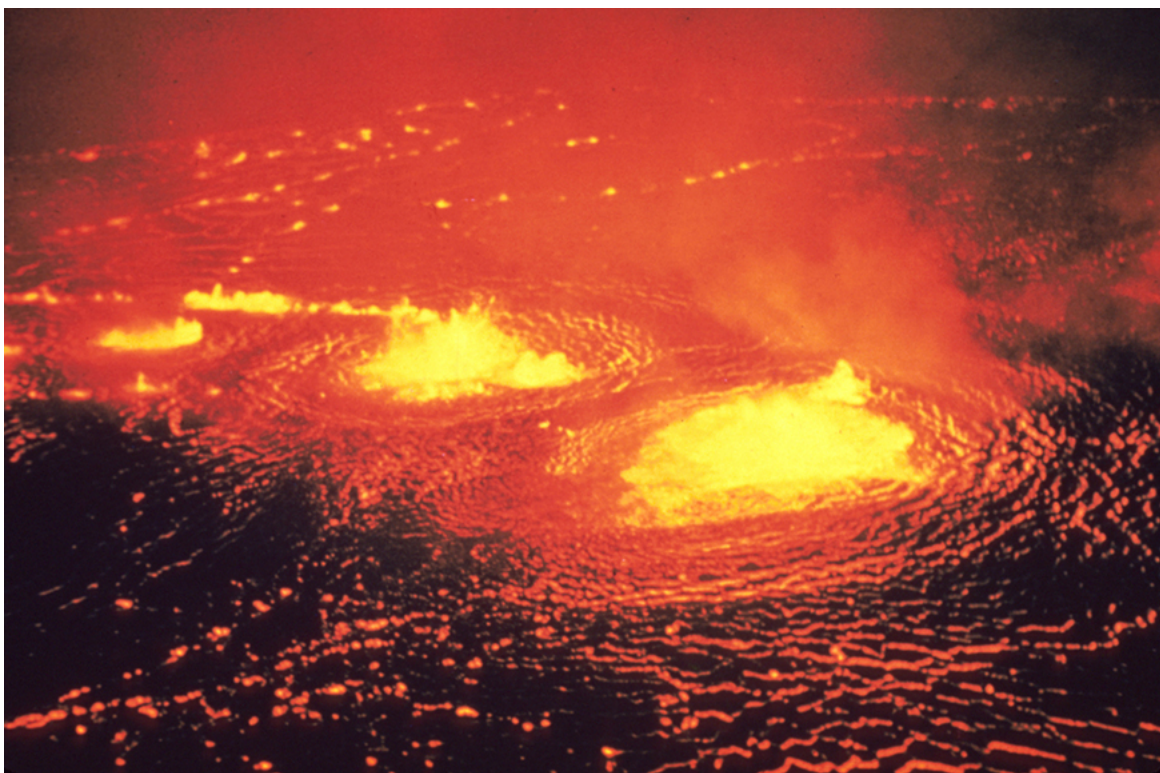
$$\text{Cost} = (108\text{ kW})(1\text{ h})(\$0.10/\text{kWh}) = \$10.80/\text{hour}$$

Over an 8-hour day, this would cost about \$86, clearly motivating quick repair of the malfunction!

Answer

Heat must be transferred at a rate of approximately **108 kW** to warm the incoming cold air.

The Kilauea volcano in Hawaii is the world's most active, disgorging about $5 \times 10^5\text{ m}^3$ of 1200°C lava per day. What is the rate of heat transfer out of Earth by convection if this lava has a density of 2700 kg/m^3 and eventually cools to 30°C ? Assume that the specific heat of lava is the same as that of granite.



Lava flow on Kilauea volcano in Hawaii. (credit: J. P. Eaton, U.S. Geological Survey)

Show Solution

$$2 \times 10^4 \text{ MW}$$

During heavy exercise, the body pumps 2.00 L of blood per minute to the surface, where it is cooled by 2.00°C . What is the rate of heat transfer from this forced convection alone, assuming blood has the same specific heat as water and its density is 1050 kg/m^3 ?

Show Solution

Strategy

We calculate the mass of blood pumped per minute using its density and volume, then use $Q = mc\Delta T$ to find the heat removed. Dividing by time gives the rate of heat transfer (power).

Solution

Given:

- Volume of blood per minute: $V = 2.00 \text{ L} = 2.00 \times 10^{-3} \text{ m}^3$
- Temperature decrease: $\Delta T = 2.00^\circ\text{C}$
- Time: $t = 1.00 \text{ min} = 60.0 \text{ s}$
- Density of blood: $\rho = 1050 \text{ kg/m}^3$
- Specific heat (same as water): $c = 4186 \text{ J/kg} \cdot ^\circ\text{C}$

Calculate mass of blood per minute:

$$m = \rho V = (1050 \text{ kg/m}^3)(2.00 \times 10^{-3} \text{ m}^3) = 2.10 \text{ kg}$$

Calculate heat removed per minute:

$$Q = mc\Delta T = (2.10 \text{ kg})(4186 \text{ J/kg} \cdot ^\circ\text{C})(2.00^\circ\text{C}) = 17,581 \text{ J}$$

Calculate rate of heat transfer:

$$P = Q/t = 17,581 \text{ J} / 60.0 \text{ s} = 293 \text{ W}$$

Discussion

The rate of heat removal by blood circulation to the skin during exercise is approximately 293 W. This is a substantial cooling mechanism. During heavy exercise, the body can produce 500-1000 W of metabolic heat, so this circulatory cooling represents a significant portion of the body's heat dissipation capability.

The circulatory system is remarkably efficient at heat transfer:

- Blood is pumped from the hot core (muscles, organs) to the skin surface
- At the skin, heat is transferred to the environment by convection, radiation, and evaporation
- Cooled blood returns to the core to absorb more heat
- This continuous cycle transfers heat much faster than conduction through tissue alone

The 2°C temperature drop (from ~37°C core to ~35°C at skin surface) seems modest, but because 2.10 kg of blood circulates every minute, the cumulative effect is significant. The body enhances this during exercise by:

- **Vasodilation:** Blood vessels near the skin expand, increasing blood flow from ~0.5 L/min at rest to 2+ L/min during exercise
- **Increased cardiac output:** Heart rate and stroke volume both increase
- **Blood redistribution:** Blood is diverted from digestive organs to muscles and skin

For comparison:

- Basal metabolic rate: ~80-100 W
- Light exercise: ~200-300 W
- Heavy exercise: ~500-1000 W
- This circulatory cooling: 293 W

Since this accounts for only part of the total cooling needed during heavy exercise, the body must also rely on:

- Evaporative cooling (sweating): Most important, can remove 500+ W
- Radiation and convection from skin: 100-200 W
- Respiratory heat loss: 20-50 W

Without this efficient circulatory heat transport, the body would overheat rapidly during exercise, leading to dangerous hyperthermia within minutes.

Answer

The rate of heat transfer by forced convection through blood circulation is approximately **293 W**.

A person inhales and exhales 2.00 L of 37.0°C air, evaporating 4.00×10^{-2} g of water from the lungs and breathing passages with each breath.

- How much heat transfer occurs due to evaporation in each breath?
- What is the rate of heat transfer in watts if the person is breathing at a moderate rate of 18.0 breaths per minute?
- If the inhaled air had a temperature of 20.0°C, what is the rate of heat transfer for warming the air?
- Discuss the total rate of heat transfer as it relates to typical metabolic rates. Will this breathing be a major form of heat transfer for this person?

Show Solution

- 97.2 J
- 29.2 W
- 9.49 W
- The total rate of heat loss would be $29.2\text{ W} + 9.49\text{ W} = 38.7\text{ W}$. While sleeping, our body consumes 83 W of power, while sitting it consumes 120 to 210 W. Therefore, the total rate of heat loss from breathing will not be a major form of heat loss for this person.

A glass coffee pot has a circular bottom with a 9.00-cm diameter in contact with a heating element that keeps the coffee warm with a continuous heat transfer rate of 50.0 W

- What is the temperature of the bottom of the pot, if it is 3.00 mm thick and the inside temperature is 60.0°C?
- If the temperature of the coffee remains constant and all of the heat transfer is removed by evaporation, how many grams per minute evaporate? Take the heat of vaporization to be 2340 kJ/kg.

Show Solution

Strategy

For part (a), we use the heat conduction equation $Q = kA\Delta T d$ to solve for the temperature difference across the glass, then add this to the inside temperature to get the outside (bottom) temperature. For part (b), we use $Q = mL_v$ to find how much water evaporates.

Solution

Given:

- Diameter: $D = 9.00 \text{ cm} = 0.0900 \text{ m}$
- Radius: $r = 4.50 \text{ cm} = 0.0450 \text{ m}$
- Thickness: $d = 3.00 \text{ mm} = 0.00300 \text{ m}$
- Inside temperature: $T_{\text{inside}} = 60.0^\circ\text{C}$
- Heat transfer rate: $Qt = 50.0 \text{ W}$
- Thermal conductivity of glass: $k = 0.84 \text{ J/s}\cdot\text{m}\cdot^\circ\text{C}$ (from Ch 14, Section 5, Table 1)
- Heat of vaporization: $L_V = 2340 \text{ kJ/kg} = 2.34 \times 10^6 \text{ J/kg}$

(a) Temperature of the bottom of the pot:

Calculate the area of the circular bottom:

$$A = \pi r^2 = \pi (0.0450)^2 = 6.36 \times 10^{-3} \text{ m}^2$$

Solve for temperature difference across the glass:

$$Qt = k A \Delta T d$$

$$\Delta T = (Q/t) \cdot d / k A = (50.0) (0.00300) / (0.84) (6.36 \times 10^{-3})$$

$$\Delta T = 0.1505 \cdot 34 \times 10^{-3} = 28.1^\circ\text{C}$$

Temperature of the bottom (heating element side):

$$T_{\text{bottom}} = T_{\text{inside}} + \Delta T = 60.0 + 28.1 = 88.1^\circ\text{C}$$

(b) Mass evaporated per minute:

In one minute, energy transferred:

$$Q = (50.0 \text{ W})(60 \text{ s}) = 3000 \text{ J}$$

Using $Q = mL_V$:

$$m = Q / L_V = 3000 \text{ J} / 2.34 \times 10^6 \text{ J/kg} = 1.28 \times 10^{-3} \text{ kg} = 1.28 \text{ g}$$

Discussion

(a) The bottom of the coffee pot reaches 88.1°C , which is quite hot but reasonable for a warming plate. The 28.1°C temperature difference across the 3-mm glass bottom is significant, showing that even thin glass provides some thermal resistance. This temperature is below water's boiling point at atmospheric pressure (100°C), which is appropriate for keeping coffee warm without boiling it.

(b) Evaporating 1.28 g of coffee per minute seems modest, but over an hour this would be:

$$m_{\text{hour}} = (1.28 \text{ g/min})(60 \text{ min}) = 76.8 \text{ g} \approx 77 \text{ mL}$$

For a typical coffee pot holding 1-2 liters, losing 77 mL per hour (about 4-8% of volume) would be noticeable but acceptable for keeping coffee warm for an hour or two. This explains why coffee pots left on warming plates gradually concentrate and become stronger—water evaporates while the coffee solids remain.

The calculation assumes all heat goes into evaporation, which is reasonable if:

- The pot is well-insulated on the sides and top (only bottom heated)
- The coffee is already at steady-state temperature
- Heat loss by radiation and convection is minimal

In reality, some heat is also lost through the pot walls and by radiation, so actual evaporation might be slightly less. The use of $L_V = 2340 \text{ kJ/kg}$ (rather than 2256 kJ/kg at 100°C) accounts for evaporation occurring at the lower temperature of 60°C , where the latent heat is somewhat higher.

Answer

(a) The temperature of the bottom of the pot is **88.1°C** . (b) Approximately **1.28 g** of coffee evaporates per minute.



This work is licensed under a [Creative Commons Attribution 4.0 International License](https://creativecommons.org/licenses/by/4.0/).



Radiation

- Discuss heat transfer by radiation.
- Explain the power of different materials.

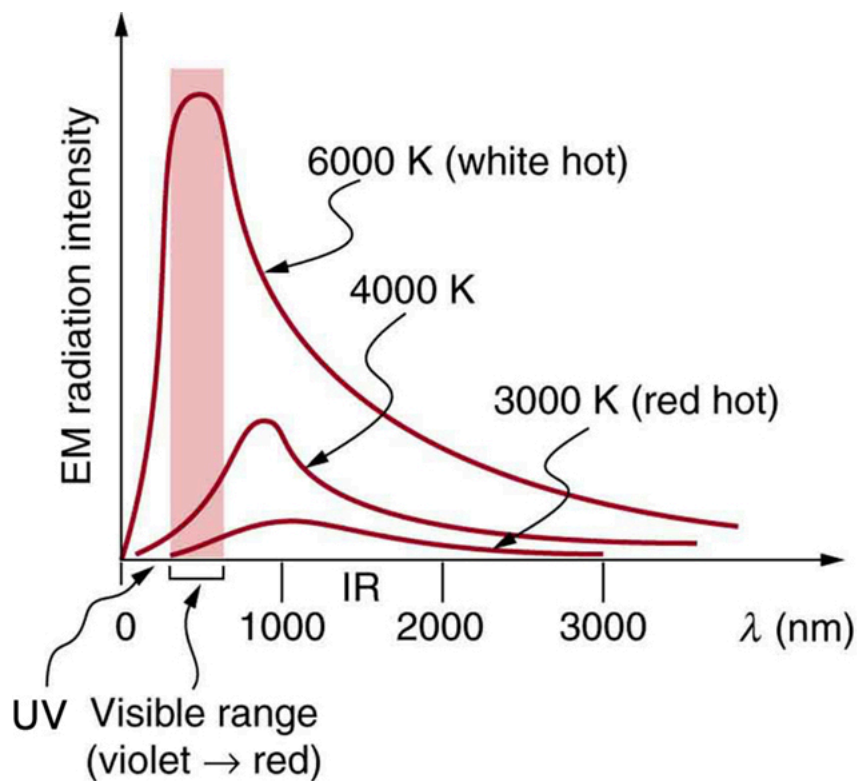
You can feel the heat transfer from a fire and from the Sun. Similarly, you can sometimes tell that the oven is hot without touching its door or looking inside—it may just warm you as you walk by. The space between the Earth and the Sun is largely empty, without any possibility of heat transfer by convection or conduction. In these examples, heat is transferred by radiation. That is, the hot body emits electromagnetic waves that are absorbed by our skin: no medium is required for electromagnetic waves to propagate. Different names are used for electromagnetic waves of different wavelengths: radio waves, microwaves, infrared **radiation**, visible light, ultraviolet radiation, X-rays, and gamma rays.



Most of the heat transfer from this fire to the observers is through infrared radiation. The visible light, although dramatic, transfers relatively little thermal energy. Convection transfers energy away from the observers as hot air rises, while conduction is negligibly slow here. Skin is very sensitive to infrared radiation, so that you can sense the presence of a fire without looking at it directly. (credit: Daniel X. O'Neil)

The energy of electromagnetic radiation depends on the wavelength (color) and varies over a wide range: a smaller wavelength (or higher frequency) corresponds to a higher energy. Because more heat is radiated at higher temperatures, a temperature change is accompanied by a color change. Take, for example, an electrical element on a stove, which glows from red to orange, while the higher-temperature steel in a blast furnace glows from yellow to white. The radiation you feel is mostly infrared, which corresponds to a lower temperature than that of the electrical element and the steel. The radiated energy depends on its intensity, which is represented in the figure below by the height of the distribution.

[Electromagnetic Waves](#) explains more about the electromagnetic spectrum and [Introduction to Quantum Physics](#) discusses how the decrease in wavelength corresponds to an increase in energy.

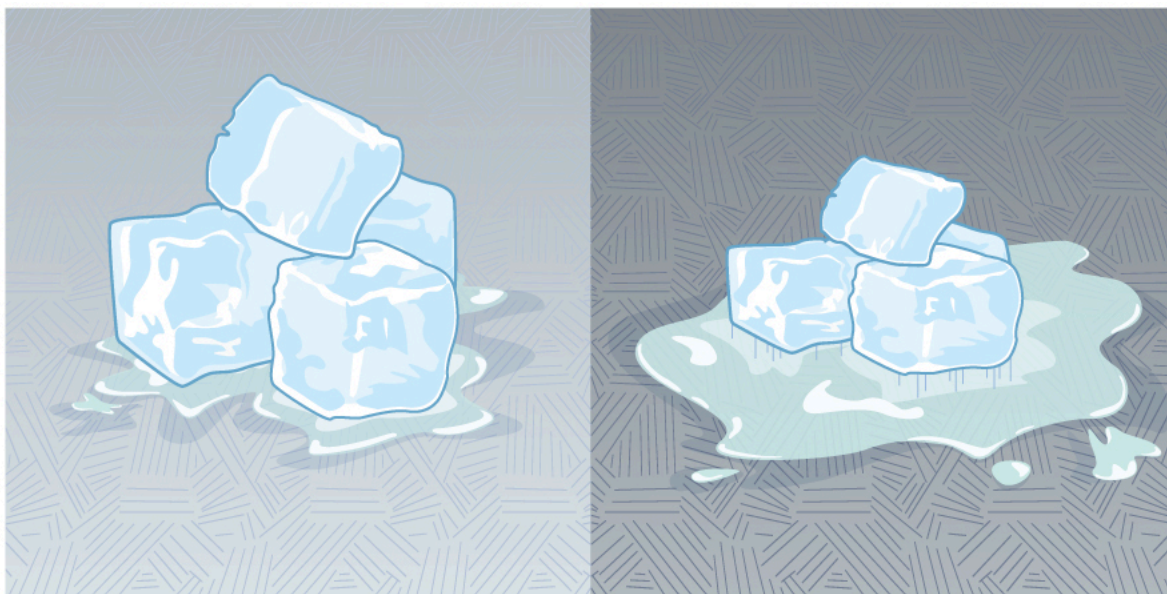


(a)

(b)

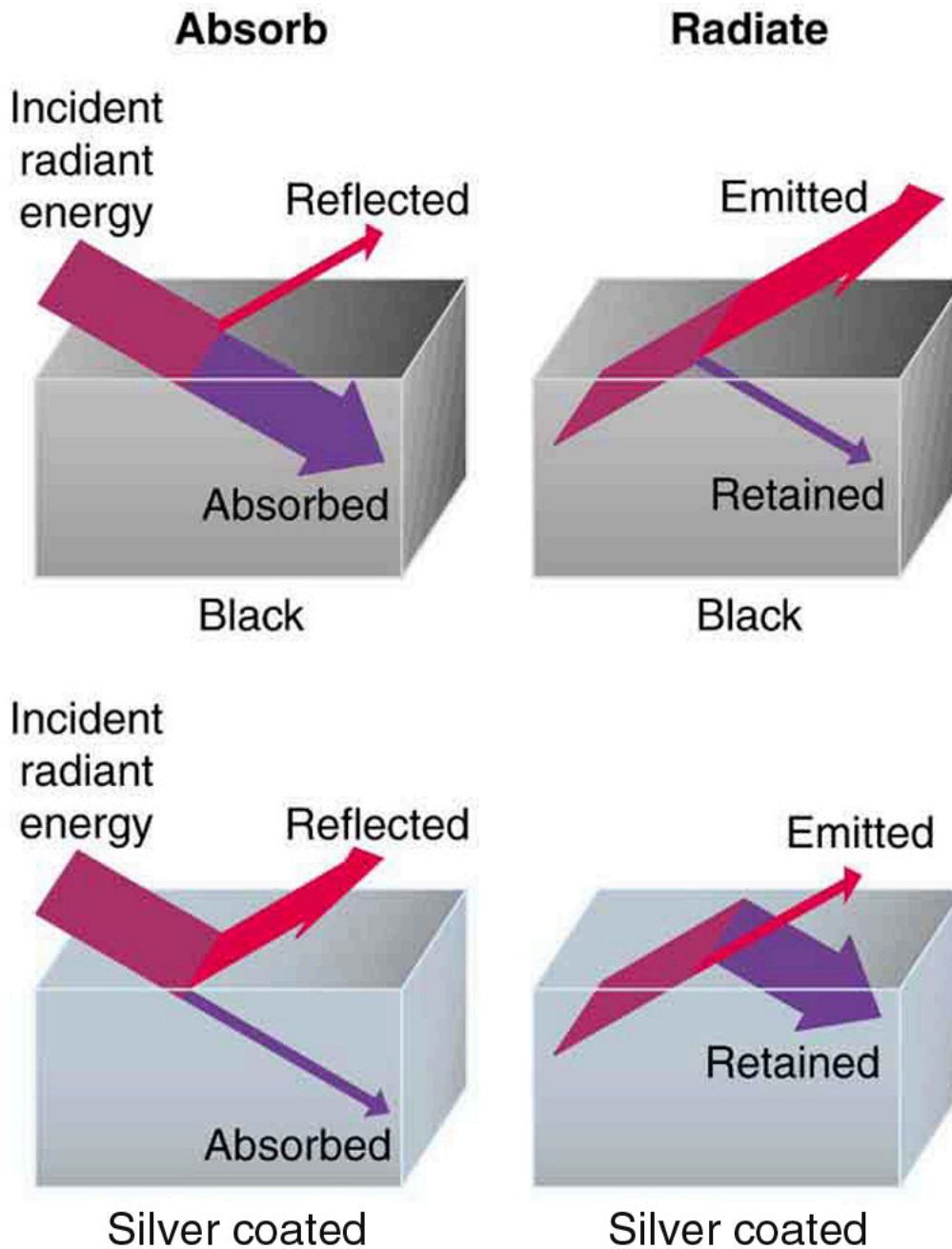
(a) A graph of the spectra of electromagnetic waves emitted from an ideal radiator at three different temperatures. The intensity or rate of radiation emission increases dramatically with temperature, and the spectrum shifts toward the visible and ultraviolet parts of the spectrum. The shaded portion denotes the visible part of the spectrum. It is apparent that the shift toward the ultraviolet with temperature makes the visible appearance shift from red to white to blue as temperature increases. (b) Note the variations in color corresponding to variations in flame temperature. (credit: Tuohirulla)

All objects absorb and emit electromagnetic radiation. The rate of heat transfer by radiation is largely determined by the color of the object. Black is the most effective, and white is the least effective. People living in hot climates generally avoid wearing black clothing, for instance (see [Equation 21](#)). Similarly, black asphalt in a parking lot will be hotter than adjacent gray sidewalk on a summer day, because black absorbs better than gray. The reverse is also true—black radiates better than gray. Thus, on a clear summer night, the asphalt will be colder than the gray sidewalk, because black radiates the energy more rapidly than gray. An *ideal radiator* is the same color as an *ideal absorber*, and captures all the radiation that falls on it. In contrast, white is a poor absorber and is also a poor radiator. A white object reflects all radiation, like a mirror. (A perfect, polished white surface is mirror-like in appearance, and a crushed mirror looks white.)



This illustration shows that the darker pavement is hotter than the lighter pavement (much more of the ice on the right has melted), although both have been in the sunlight for the same time. The thermal conductivities of the pavements are the same.

Gray objects have a uniform ability to absorb all parts of the electromagnetic spectrum. Colored objects behave in similar but more complex ways, which gives them a particular color in the visible range and may make them special in other ranges of the nonvisible spectrum. Take, for example, the strong absorption of infrared radiation by the skin, which allows us to be very sensitive to it.



A black object is a good absorber and a good radiator, while a white (or silver) object is a poor absorber and a poor radiator. It is as if radiation from the inside is reflected back into the silver object, whereas radiation from the inside of the black object is “absorbed” when it hits the surface and finds itself on the outside and is strongly emitted.

The rate of heat transfer by emitted radiation is determined by the ** Stefan-Boltzmann law of radiation**:

$$Q_t = \sigma e A T^4,$$

where $\sigma = 5.67 \times 10^{-8} \text{ J/s} \cdot \text{m}^2 \cdot \text{K}^4$ is the Stefan-Boltzmann constant, A is the surface area of the object, and T is its absolute temperature in kelvin. The symbol e stands for the **emissivity** of the object, which is a measure of how well it radiates. An ideal jet-black (or black body) radiator has $e = 1$, whereas a perfect reflector has $e = 0$. Real objects fall between these two values. Take, for example, tungsten light bulb filaments which have an e of about 0.5, and carbon black (a material used in printer toner), which has the (greatest known) emissivity of about 0.99.

The radiation rate is directly proportional to the *fourth power* of the absolute temperature—a remarkably strong temperature dependence. Furthermore, the radiated heat is proportional to the surface area of the object. If you knock apart the coals of a fire, there is a noticeable increase in radiation due to an increase in radiating surface area.



A thermograph of part of a building shows temperature variations, indicating where heat transfer to the outside is most severe. Windows are a major region of heat transfer to the outside of homes. (credit: U.S. Army)

Skin is a remarkably good absorber and emitter of infrared radiation, having an emissivity of 0.97 in the infrared spectrum. Thus, we are all nearly (jet) black in the infrared, in spite of the obvious variations in skin color. This high infrared emissivity is why we can so easily feel radiation on our skin. It is also the basis for the use of night scopes used by law enforcement and the military to detect human beings. Even small temperature variations can be detected because of the T^4 dependence. Images, called *thermographs*, can be used medically to detect regions of abnormally high temperature in the body, perhaps indicative of disease. Similar techniques can be used to detect heat leaks in homes [Figure 5], optimize performance of blast furnaces, improve comfort levels in work environments, and even remotely map the Earth's temperature profile.

All objects emit and absorb radiation. The *net* rate of heat transfer by radiation (absorption minus emission) is related to both the temperature of the object and the temperature of its surroundings. Assuming that an object with a temperature T_1 is surrounded by an environment with uniform temperature T_2 , the **net rate of heat transfer by radiation** is

$$Q_{\text{net}} = \sigma e A (T_2^4 - T_1^4),$$

where e is the emissivity of the object alone. In other words, it does not matter whether the surroundings are white, gray, or black; the balance of radiation into and out of the object depends on how well it emits and absorbs radiation. When $T_2 > T_1$, the quantity Q_{net}/t is positive; that is, the net heat transfer is from hot to cold.

Take-Home Experiment: Temperature in the Sun

Place a thermometer out in the sunshine and shield it from direct sunlight using an aluminum foil. What is the reading? Now remove the shield, and note what the thermometer reads. Take a handkerchief soaked in nail polish remover, wrap it around the thermometer and place it in the sunshine. What does the thermometer read?

Calculate the Net Heat Transfer of a Person: Heat Transfer by Radiation

What is the rate of heat transfer by radiation, with an unclothed person standing in a dark room whose ambient temperature is 22.0°C . The person has a normal skin temperature of 33.0°C and a surface area of 1.50m^2 . The emissivity of skin is 0.97 in the infrared, where the radiation takes place.

Strategy

We can solve this by using the equation for the rate of radiative heat transfer.

Solution

Insert the temperatures values $T_2 = 295\text{K}$ and $T_1 = 306\text{K}$, so that

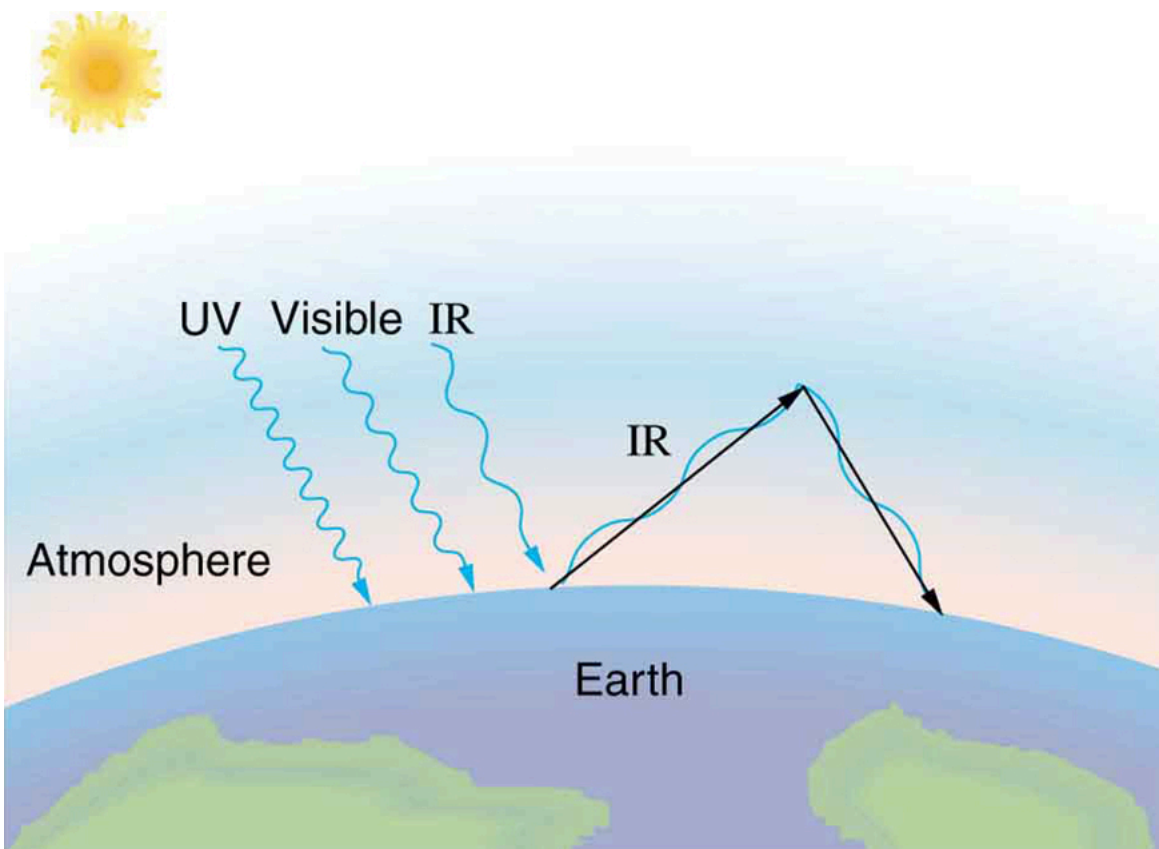
$$\begin{aligned} Q/t &= \sigma e A (T_2^4 - T_1^4) \\ &= (5.67 \times 10^{-8} \text{J/s} \cdot \text{m}^2 \cdot \text{K}^4)(0.97)(1.50\text{m}^2)[(295\text{K})^4 - (306\text{K})^4] = -99\text{J/s} = -99\text{W}. \end{aligned}$$

Discussion

This value is a significant rate of heat transfer to the environment (note the minus sign), considering that a person at rest may produce energy at the rate of 125 W and that conduction and convection will also be transferring energy to the environment. Indeed, we would probably expect this person to feel cold. Clothing significantly reduces heat transfer to the environment by many methods, because clothing slows down both conduction and convection, and has a lower emissivity (especially if it is white) than skin.

The Earth receives almost all its energy from radiation of the Sun and reflects some of it back into outer space. Because the Sun is hotter than the Earth, the net energy flux is from the Sun to the Earth. However, the rate of energy transfer is less than the equation for the radiative heat transfer would predict because the Sun does not fill the sky. The average emissivity (ϵ) of the Earth is about 0.65, but the calculation of this value is complicated by the fact that the highly reflective cloud coverage varies greatly from day to day. There is a negative feedback (one in which a change produces an effect that opposes that change) between clouds and heat transfer; greater temperatures evaporate more water to form more clouds, which reflect more radiation back into space, reducing the temperature. The often mentioned **greenhouse effect** is directly related to the variation of the Earth's emissivity with radiation type (see the figure given below). The greenhouse effect is a natural phenomenon responsible for providing temperatures suitable for life on Earth. The Earth's relatively constant temperature is a result of the energy balance between the incoming solar radiation and the energy radiated from the Earth. Most of the infrared radiation emitted from the Earth is absorbed by carbon dioxide (CO_2) and water (H_2O) in the atmosphere and then re-radiated back to the Earth or into outer space. Re-radiation back to the Earth maintains its surface temperature about 40°C higher than it would be if there was no atmosphere, similar to the way glass increases temperatures in a greenhouse.

The greenhouse effect and its causes were first predicted by Eunice Newton Foote after she designed and conducted experiments on heating of different gases. After filling flasks with carbon dioxide, hydrogen, and regular air, then also modifying moisture, she placed them in the sun and carefully measured their heating and, especially, their heat retention. She discovered that the CO_2 flask gained the most temperature and held it the longest. After subsequent research, her paper "Circumstances affecting the Heat of the Sun's Rays" included conclusions that an atmosphere consisting of more carbon dioxide would be hotter resulting from the gas trapping radiation.

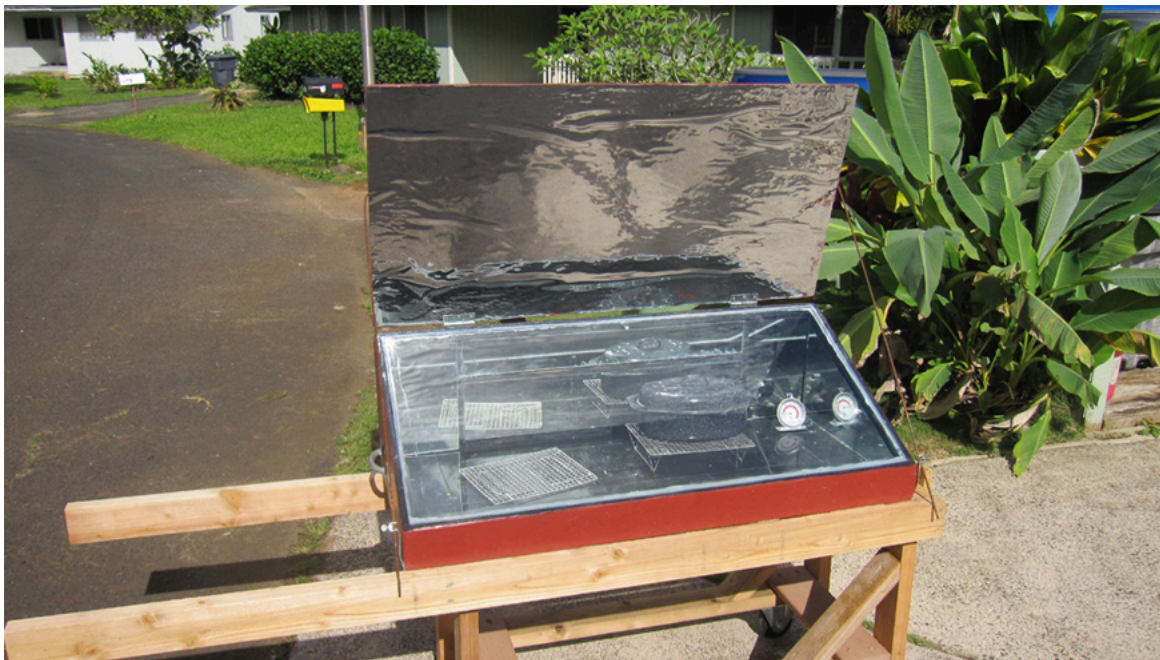


The greenhouse effect is a name given to the trapping of energy in the Earth's atmosphere by a process similar to that used in greenhouses. The atmosphere, like window glass, is transparent to incoming visible radiation and most of the Sun's infrared. These wavelengths are absorbed by the Earth and re-emitted as infrared. Since Earth's temperature is much lower than that of the Sun, the infrared radiated by the Earth has a much longer wavelength. The atmosphere, like glass, traps these longer infrared rays, keeping the Earth warmer than it would otherwise be. The amount of trapping depends on concentrations of trace gases like carbon dioxide, and a change in the concentration of these gases is believed to affect the Earth's surface temperature.

The greenhouse effect is also central to the discussion of global warming due to emission of carbon dioxide and methane (and other so-called greenhouse gases) into the Earth's atmosphere from industrial production and farming. Changes in global climate could lead to more intense storms, precipitation changes (affecting agriculture), reduction in rain forest biodiversity, and rising sea levels.

Heating and cooling are often significant contributors to energy use in individual homes. Mária Telkes, a Hungarian-born American scientist, was among the foremost developers of solar energy applications in industrial and community use. After inventing a widely deployed solar seawater distiller used on World War II life rafts, she partnered with architect Eleanor Raymond to design the first modern home to be completely heated by solar power. Air warmed on rooftop collectors transferred heat to salts, which stored the heat for later use. Telkes later worked with the Department of Energy to develop the first solar-electrically powered home. Current research efforts into developing environmentally friendly homes quite often focus on reducing

conventional heating and cooling through better building materials, strategically positioning windows to optimize radiation gain from the Sun, and opening spaces to allow convection. It is possible to build a zero-energy house that allows for comfortable living in most parts of the United States with hot and humid summers and cold winters.



This simple but effective solar cooker uses the greenhouse effect and reflective material to trap and retain solar energy. Made of inexpensive, durable materials, it saves money and labor, and is of particular economic value in energy-poor developing countries. (credit: E.B. Kauai)

Conversely, dark space is very cold, about $3\text{K} (-454^\circ\text{F})$, so that the Earth radiates energy into the dark sky. Owing to the fact that clouds have lower emissivity than either oceans or land masses, they reflect some of the radiation back to the surface, greatly reducing heat transfer into dark space, just as they greatly reduce heat transfer into the atmosphere during the day. The rate of heat transfer from soil and grasses can be so rapid that frost may occur on clear summer evenings, even in warm latitudes.

Check Your Understanding

What is the change in the rate of the radiated heat by a body at the temperature $T_1 = 20^\circ\text{C}$ compared to when the body is at the temperature $T_2 = 40^\circ\text{C}$?

Show Solution

The radiated heat is proportional to the fourth power of the *absolute temperature*. Because $T_1 = 293\text{K}$ and $T_2 = 313\text{K}$, the rate of heat transfer increases by about 30 percent of the original rate.

Career Connection: Energy Conservation Consultation

The cost of energy is generally believed to remain very high for the foreseeable future. Thus, passive control of heat loss in both commercial and domestic housing will become increasingly important. Energy consultants measure and analyze the flow of energy into and out of houses and ensure that a healthy exchange of air is maintained inside the house. The job prospects for an energy consultant are strong.

Problem-Solving Strategies for the Methods of Heat Transfer

1. Examine the situation to determine what type of heat transfer is involved.
2. Identify the type(s) of heat transfer—conduction, convection, or radiation.
3. Identify exactly what needs to be determined in the problem (identify the unknowns). A written list is very useful.
4. Make a list of what is given or can be inferred from the problem as stated (identify the knowns).
5. Solve the appropriate equation for the quantity to be determined (the unknown).
6. For conduction, equation $Q = kBA(T_2 - T_1)d$ is appropriate. [\[Table 1\]](#) lists thermal conductivities. For convection, determine the amount of matter moved and use equation $Q = mc\Delta T$, to calculate the heat transfer involved in the temperature change of the fluid. If a phase change accompanies convection, equation $Q = mL_f$ or $Q = mL_v$ is appropriate to find the heat transfer involved in the phase change. [\[Table 1\]](#) lists information relevant to phase change. For radiation, equation $Q_{\text{net}} = \sigma eA(T_2 - T_1)$ gives the net heat transfer rate.
7. Insert the knowns along with their units into the appropriate equation and obtain numerical solutions complete with units.
8. Check the answer to see if it is reasonable. Does it make sense?

Summary

- Radiation is the rate of heat transfer through the emission or absorption of electromagnetic waves.
- The rate of heat transfer depends on the surface area and the fourth power of the absolute temperature:

$$Q_{\text{net}} = \sigma e A T^4,$$

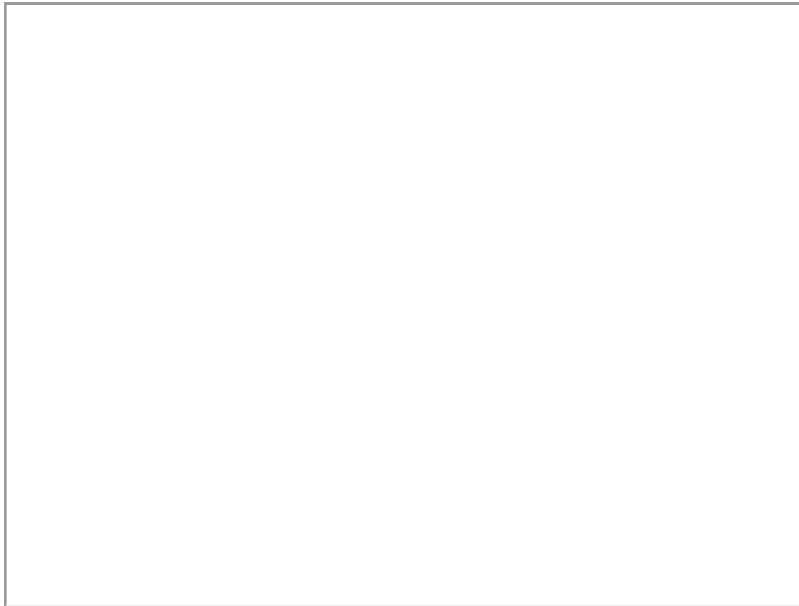
where $\sigma = 5.67 \times 10^{-8} \text{ J/s} \cdot \text{m}^2 \cdot \text{K}^4$ is the Stefan-Boltzmann constant and e is the emissivity of the body. For a black body, $e = 1$ whereas a shiny white or perfect reflector has $e = 0$, with real objects having values of e between 1 and 0. The net rate of heat transfer by radiation is

$$Q_{\text{net}} = \sigma e A (T_2^4 - T_1^4)$$

where T_1 is the temperature of an object surrounded by an environment with uniform temperature T_2 and e is the emissivity of the *object*.

Blackbody Radiation

Describe what happens to the blackbody spectrum as you increase or decrease the temperature



Blackbody Radiation

Conceptual Questions

When watching a daytime circus in a large, dark-colored tent, you sense significant heat transfer from the tent. Explain why this occurs.

Satellites designed to observe the radiation from cold (3 K) dark space have sensors that are shaded from the Sun, Earth, and Moon and that are cooled to very low temperatures. Why must the sensors be at low temperature?

Why are cloudy nights generally warmer than clear ones?

Why are thermometers that are used in weather stations shielded from the sunshine? What does a thermometer measure if it is shielded from the sunshine and also if it is not?

On average, would Earth be warmer or cooler without the atmosphere? Explain your answer.

Problems & Exercises

At what net rate does heat radiate from a 275-m^2 black roof on a night when the roof's temperature is 30.0°C and the surrounding temperature is 15.0°C ? The emissivity of the roof is 0.900.

Show Solution

Strategy

We use the Stefan-Boltzmann law for net radiation between two surfaces: $Q_{\text{net}} = \sigma e A (T_2^4 - T_1^4)$. The roof (at higher temperature) radiates energy to the cooler surroundings. We must convert temperatures to Kelvin.

Solution

Given:

- Roof area: $A = 275 \text{ m}^2$

- Roof temperature: $T_{roof} = 30.0^\circ\text{C} = 303\text{ K}$
- Surrounding temperature: $T_{surr} = 15.0^\circ\text{C} = 288\text{ K}$
- Emissivity: $e = 0.900$
- Stefan-Boltzmann constant: $\sigma = 5.67 \times 10^{-8} \text{ W/m}^2 \cdot \text{K}^4$

Net radiation rate (heat loss from roof):

$$Q_{net} = \sigma e A (T_{roof}^4 - T_{surr}^4)$$

Calculate the fourth powers:

- $T_{roof}^4 = (303)^4 = 8.424 \times 10^9 \text{ K}^4$
- $T_{surr}^4 = (288)^4 = 6.872 \times 10^9 \text{ K}^4$

$$Q_{net} = (5.67 \times 10^{-8})(0.900)(275)[(8.424 - 6.872) \times 10^9]$$

$$Q_{net} = (1.402 \times 10^{-5})(1.552 \times 10^9) = 21,759 \text{ W} \approx 21.8 \text{ kW}$$

Since the roof is losing heat to cooler surroundings, we can express this as:

$$Q_{net} = -21.7 \text{ kW}$$

The negative sign indicates heat loss from the roof.

Discussion

The heat loss rate of 21.7 kW is substantial—equivalent to running about 22 space heaters continuously! This demonstrates why radiation is a significant mechanism of heat loss from buildings, especially:

1. **At night:** The roof radiates to the cooler night sky
2. **With large surface areas:** The 275 m² roof provides significant area for radiation
3. **With dark surfaces:** The high emissivity (0.900) means the roof is an efficient radiator

Even though the temperature difference is only 15°C (relatively modest), the large area and high emissivity result in substantial heat loss. This is why:

- **Cool roofs** (light-colored, reflective roofs) are increasingly used in warm climates—they have low emissivity and absorb/emit less radiation
- **Radiant barriers** in attics can reduce radiative heat transfer
- **Proper insulation** is crucial—this 21.7 kW must be replaced by heating systems in winter or represents heat gain that must be removed by cooling in summer

The calculation demonstrates **radiative cooling**: on clear nights, surfaces can radiate heat to the cold upper atmosphere and may even reach temperatures below the ambient air temperature. This is why frost can form on car windshields even when air temperature is above freezing.

For a typical house:

- Roof area: 150–300 m²
- This roof's heat loss: 21.7 kW
- Cost impact: At 0.10/kWh electricity, running 24h = 52/day heating cost just to offset roof radiation!

This underscores the importance of insulation, which doesn't stop radiation but reduces the overall heat transfer through the roof structure.

Answer

The net rate of heat radiation from the roof is **-21.7 kW** (negative indicating heat loss to the surroundings).

(a) Cherry-red embers in a fireplace are at 850°C and have an exposed area of 0.200 m² and an emissivity of 0.980. The surrounding room has a temperature of 18.0°C. If 50% of the radiant energy enters the room, what is the net rate of radiant heat transfer in kilowatts? (b) Does your answer support the contention that most of the heat transfer into a room by a fireplace comes from infrared radiation?

Show Solution

Strategy

We use the Stefan-Boltzmann law for net radiation: $Q_{net} = \sigma e A (T_2^4 - T_1^4)$. Since only 50% enters the room, we multiply the result by 0.50. Remember to convert temperatures to Kelvin.

Solution

Given:

- Embers temperature: $T_{\text{embers}} = 850^\circ\text{C} = 1123\text{ K}$
- Room temperature: $T_{\text{room}} = 18.0^\circ\text{C} = 291\text{ K}$
- Area: $A = 0.200\text{ m}^2$
- Emissivity: $e = 0.980$
- Stefan-Boltzmann constant: $\sigma = 5.67 \times 10^{-8}\text{ W/m}^2 \cdot \text{K}^4$
- Fraction entering room: $50\% = 0.50$

(a) Net radiation rate:

$$Q_{\text{nett}} = \sigma e A (T_{\text{embers}}^4 - T_{\text{room}}^4)$$

$$Q_{\text{nett}} = (5.67 \times 10^{-8})(0.980)(0.200)[(1123)^4 - (291)^4]$$

Calculate the fourth powers:

- $T_{\text{embers}}^4 = (1123)^4 = 1.592 \times 10^{12}\text{ K}^4$
- $T_{\text{room}}^4 = (291)^4 = 7.166 \times 10^9\text{ K}^4$

$$Q_{\text{nett}} = (1.112 \times 10^{-8})(1.592 \times 10^{12} - 0.007166 \times 10^{12})$$

$$Q_{\text{nett}} = (1.112 \times 10^{-8})(1.585 \times 10^{12}) = 17,600\text{ W}$$

Heat entering room (50%):

$$Q_{\text{roomt}} = 0.50 \times 17,600 = 8,800\text{ W} = 8.80\text{ kW}$$

(b) Yes, absolutely! The radiation alone transfers 8.80 kW into the room, which is substantial. For comparison:

- A typical space heater produces 1-2 kW
- This radiation is equivalent to 4-9 space heaters

This strongly supports that radiation is the dominant heat transfer mechanism from a fireplace. Convection through the chimney actually removes hot air from the room, making traditional fireplaces relatively inefficient for heating. However, the radiant heat creates a pleasant warming sensation for people in direct view of the fire, even though the room temperature may not rise significantly.

Discussion

The huge radiative power (17.6 kW total, 8.8 kW into room) demonstrates why:

1. You can feel intense heat from across a room when near a fireplace
2. Objects in line-of-sight with embers warm quickly
3. Fireplaces can be uncomfortably hot when sitting close
4. The fourth-power temperature dependence makes hot embers incredibly effective radiators

The cherry-red color indicates temperatures around 850°C , confirming significant visible light emission. However, most radiated energy is still in the infrared (which we feel as heat but cannot see). The Stefan-Boltzmann law's T^4 dependence means the 1123 K embers radiate about $(1123/291)^4 \approx 230$ times more power per unit area than room-temperature objects.

Modern fireplace inserts and stoves capture more of this heat through convection and conduction, making them much more efficient than open fireplaces where most heat escapes up the chimney.

Answer

(a) The net rate of radiant heat transfer into the room is **8.80 kW**. (b) Yes, this demonstrates that **radiation is the dominant mechanism** for heat transfer from a fireplace into a room.

Radiation makes it impossible to stand close to a hot lava flow. Calculate the rate of heat transfer by radiation from 1.00 m^2 of 1200°C fresh lava into 30.0°C surroundings, assuming lava's emissivity is 1.00.

Show Solution

−266kW

(a) Calculate the rate of heat transfer by radiation from a car radiator at 110°C into a 50.0°C environment, if the radiator has an emissivity of 0.750 and a 1.20 m^2 surface area. (b) Is this a significant fraction of the heat transfer by an automobile engine? To answer this, assume a horsepower of 200hp (1.5kW) and the efficiency of automobile engines as 25%.

Show Solution

Strategy

For part (a), we use the Stefan-Boltzmann law for net radiation. For part (b), we calculate the waste heat produced by the engine (75% of input power) and compare it to the radiative heat transfer.

Solution

Given:

- Radiator temperature: $T_1 = 110^\circ\text{C} = 383\text{ K}$
- Environment temperature: $T_2 = 50.0^\circ\text{C} = 323\text{ K}$
- Emissivity: $e = 0.750$
- Surface area: $A = 1.20\text{ m}^2$
- Stefan-Boltzmann constant: $\sigma = 5.67 \times 10^{-8}\text{ W/m}^2 \cdot \text{K}^4$
- Engine power output: $P_{\text{out}} = 200\text{ hp} = 1.5 \times 10^5\text{ W} = 150\text{ kW}$
- Engine efficiency: $\eta = 25\% = 0.25$

(a) Net radiation rate:

$$Q_{\text{net}} = \sigma e A (T_1^4 - T_2^4)$$

Calculate fourth powers:

- $T_1^4 = (383)^4 = 2.150 \times 10^{10}\text{ K}^4$
- $T_2^4 = (323)^4 = 1.086 \times 10^{10}\text{ K}^4$

$$Q_{\text{net}} = (5.67 \times 10^{-8})(0.750)(1.20)(2.150 - 1.086) \times 10^{10}$$

$$Q_{\text{net}} = (5.10 \times 10^{-8})(1.064 \times 10^{10}) = 543\text{ W}$$

(b) Calculate engine waste heat:

If efficiency is 25%, then 75% of input power becomes waste heat. Input power: $P_{\text{in}} = P_{\text{out}} / \eta = 150\text{ kW} / 0.25 = 600\text{ kW}$

Waste heat: $P_{\text{waste}} = P_{\text{in}} - P_{\text{out}} = 600 - 150 = 450\text{ kW}$

Fraction of waste heat removed by radiation:

$$\text{Fraction} = 543\text{ W} / 450,000\text{ W} = 0.00121 = 0.121\%$$

No, radiative heat transfer is **not significant**—it represents only about 0.12% of the waste heat that must be removed.

Discussion

The calculation reveals why car radiators rely overwhelmingly on **convection**, not radiation:

(a) The radiative heat transfer of only 543 W is relatively small. This occurs because:

1. The temperature difference is modest (60°C)
2. The fourth-power dependence means moderate temperatures radiate weakly compared to very hot objects
3. The emissivity (0.75) is good but not perfect

(b) The engine produces 450 kW of waste heat—the radiation removes only 0.12% of it! The vast majority of cooling comes from:

- **Forced convection:** Coolant (water/antifreeze mixture) circulating through the engine
- **Air flow:** Fan-driven or motion-induced air flowing through radiator fins
- **Conduction:** Heat transfer from coolant to radiator metal to air

This is why:

- Radiators have many thin fins (maximizing surface area for convection)
- Coolant must circulate continuously
- Fans are essential when the car isn't moving
- Overheating occurs rapidly if coolant stops circulating

A stationary car with the engine running will overheat in minutes without functioning coolant circulation and fans, proving that radiation alone is utterly inadequate for cooling. The term “radiator” is actually a misnomer—it should be called a “convector”!

Answer

(a) The rate of radiative heat transfer is **543 W** or approximately **0.54 kW**. (b) No, this is **not significant**—it represents only **0.12%** of the engine's waste heat. The radiator relies primarily on **convection** for cooling.

Find the net rate of heat transfer by radiation from a skier standing in the shade, given the following. She is completely clothed in white (head to foot, including a ski mask), the clothes have an emissivity of 0.200 and a surface temperature of 10.0°C , the surroundings are at -15.0°C , and her surface area is 1.60m^2 .

Show Solution

-36.0W

Suppose you walk into a sauna that has an ambient temperature of 50.0°C . (a) Calculate the rate of heat transfer to you by radiation given your skin temperature is 37.0°C , the emissivity of skin is 0.98, and the surface area of your body is 1.50m^2 . (b) If all other forms of heat transfer are balanced (the net heat transfer is zero), at what rate will your body temperature increase if your mass is 75.0 kg ?

Show Solution

Strategy

For part (a), we use the Stefan-Boltzmann law for net radiation: $Q/t = \sigma e A (T_2^4 - T_1^4)$, where T_2 is the ambient temperature and T_1 is the skin temperature (both in Kelvin). For part (b), we use $Q = mc\Delta T$ to find the rate of temperature increase.

Solution

Given:

- Ambient temperature: $T_{\text{ambient}} = 50.0^{\circ}\text{C} = 323.15\text{ K}$
- Skin temperature: $T_{\text{skin}} = 37.0^{\circ}\text{C} = 310.15\text{ K}$
- Emissivity: $e = 0.98$
- Surface area: $A = 1.50\text{ m}^2$
- Mass: $m = 75.0\text{ kg}$
- Stefan-Boltzmann constant: $\sigma = 5.67 \times 10^{-8}\text{ W/m}^2 \cdot \text{K}^4$
- Specific heat of human body: $c = 3500\text{ J/kg} \cdot ^{\circ}\text{C}$

(a) Rate of heat transfer by radiation:

$$Q/t = \sigma e A (T_{\text{ambient}}^4 - T_{\text{skin}}^4)$$

$$Q/t = (5.67 \times 10^{-8})(0.98)(1.50)[(323.15)^4 - (310.15)^4]$$

Calculate the temperature powers:

- $(323.15)^4 = 1.0903 \times 10^{10}\text{ K}^4$
- $(310.15)^4 = 9.245 \times 10^9\text{ K}^4$
- Difference: $1.0903 \times 10^{10} - 9.245 \times 10^9 = 1.658 \times 10^9\text{ K}^4$

$$Q/t = (5.67 \times 10^{-8})(0.98)(1.50)(1.658 \times 10^9) = 138\text{ W}$$

(b) Rate of body temperature increase:

From $Q = mc\Delta T$, the rate of temperature change is:

$$\Delta T/t = Q/tmc = 138(75.0)(3500) = 138262500 = 5.26 \times 10^{-4}\text{ }^{\circ}\text{C/s}$$

Converting to more practical units:

$$\Delta T/t = (5.26 \times 10^{-4}\text{ }^{\circ}\text{C/s})(60\text{ s/min}) = 0.0316\text{ }^{\circ}\text{C/min}$$

Or approximately:

$$\Delta T/t = 1.9\text{ }^{\circ}\text{C/hour}$$

Discussion

(a) The body absorbs heat at a rate of 138 W from the hot sauna environment through radiation alone. This is significant—comparable to a moderate-powered light bulb. Since the sauna is hotter than your skin, you receive net heat transfer.

(b) The rate of temperature increase of approximately $0.03^{\circ}\text{C}/\text{min}$ or $1.9^{\circ}\text{C}/\text{hour}$ seems reasonable for a sauna. In reality:

- You wouldn't stay in a sauna long enough for your core temperature to rise dangerously
- Your body activates cooling mechanisms (sweating) very quickly
- Evaporative cooling from sweat can remove much more than 138 W
- Convection also plays a significant role in heat transfer

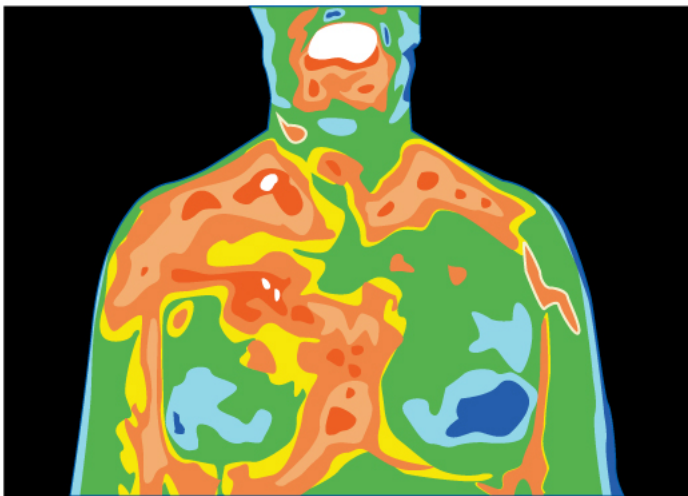
A typical sauna session lasts 10-20 minutes. At $0.03^{\circ}\text{C}/\text{min}$, this would only raise body temperature by $0.3\text{--}0.6^{\circ}\text{C}$ if other heat transfer mechanisms were truly balanced, which is manageable. However, the problem states “all other forms of heat transfer are balanced,” which is unrealistic—in practice, you'd sweat profusely to dissipate this heat and maintain homeostasis.

This calculation demonstrates why saunas are uncomfortable but tolerable: while you gain heat through radiation (and convection), your body can compensate through evaporative cooling. If you couldn't sweat, a sauna would quickly become dangerous.

Answer

(a) The rate of heat transfer by radiation is approximately **138 W** . (b) The body temperature would increase at a rate of $5.26 \times 10^{-4}\text{ }^{\circ}\text{C}/\text{s}$, or **$0.032\text{ }^{\circ}\text{C}/\text{min}$** , or approximately **$1.9\text{ }^{\circ}\text{C}/\text{hour}$** .

Thermography is a technique for measuring radiant heat and detecting variations in surface temperatures that may be medically, environmentally, or militarily meaningful. (a) What is the percent increase in the rate of heat transfer by radiation from a given area at a temperature of 34.0°C compared with that at 33.0°C , such as on a person's skin? (b) What is the percent increase in the rate of heat transfer by radiation from a given area at a temperature of 34.0°C compared with that at 20.0°C , such as for warm and cool automobile hoods?



Artist's rendition of a thermograph of a patient's upper body, showing the distribution of heat represented by different colors.

Show Solution

(a) 1.31%

(b) 20.5%

The Sun radiates like a perfect black body with an emissivity of exactly 1. (a) Calculate the surface temperature of the Sun, given that it is a sphere with a $7.00 \times 10^8\text{-m}$ radius that radiates $3.80 \times 10^{26}\text{ W}$ into 3-K space. (b) How much power does the Sun radiate per square meter of its surface? (c) How much power in watts per square meter is that value at the distance of Earth, $1.50 \times 10^{11}\text{ m}$ away? (This number is called the solar constant.)

Show Solution

Strategy

For part (a), we use Stefan-Boltzmann law $P = \sigma e A T^4$ and solve for T . Since $T_{\text{space}} = 3\text{ K}$ is negligible compared to the Sun's temperature, we can ignore it. For part (b), we divide total power by surface area. For part (c), we use the inverse square law—power spreads over a sphere at Earth's distance.

Solution

Given:

- Sun's radius: $R_S = 7.00 \times 10^8\text{ m}$
- Total power radiated: $P = 3.80 \times 10^{26}\text{ W}$
- Emissivity: $e = 1.00$

- Space temperature: $T_{space} = 3 \text{ K}$ (negligible)
- Earth's orbital radius: $R_E = 1.50 \times 10^{11} \text{ m}$
- Stefan-Boltzmann constant: $\sigma = 5.67 \times 10^{-8} \text{ W/m}^2 \cdot \text{K}^4$

(a) Surface temperature of the Sun:

Surface area of Sun:

$$A_S = 4\pi R_S^2 = 4\pi (7.00 \times 10^8)^2 = 6.16 \times 10^{18} \text{ m}^2$$

Using Stefan-Boltzmann law:

$$P = \sigma e A_S T^4$$

$$T^4 = P / (\sigma e A_S) = 3.80 \times 10^{26} / (5.67 \times 10^{-8} (1.00) (6.16 \times 10^{18}))$$

$$T^4 = 3.80 \times 10^{26} / 3.49 \times 10^{11} = 1.089 \times 10^{15} \text{ K}^4$$

$$T = (1.089 \times 10^{15})^{1/4} = 5760 \text{ K}$$

(b) Power per square meter at Sun's surface:

$$P A_S = 3.80 \times 10^{26} / 6.16 \times 10^{18} = 6.17 \times 10^7 \text{ W/m}^2$$

Or using Stefan-Boltzmann directly:

$$P A_S = \sigma T^4 = (5.67 \times 10^{-8}) (5760)^4 = 6.17 \times 10^7 \text{ W/m}^2$$

(c) Solar constant at Earth's distance:

Power spreads over a sphere of radius R_E :

$$A_E = 4\pi R_E^2 = 4\pi (1.50 \times 10^{11})^2 = 2.83 \times 10^{23} \text{ m}^2$$

Solar constant:

$$S = P A_E = 3.80 \times 10^{26} / 2.83 \times 10^{23} = 1.34 \times 10^3 \text{ W/m}^2 = 1340 \text{ W/m}^2$$

Discussion

(a) The calculated surface temperature of 5760 K (about 5487°C) is remarkably accurate! The accepted value is approximately 5778 K, so our calculation is within 0.3%. This validates both the Stefan-Boltzmann law and the black body approximation for the Sun.

(b) The Sun's surface radiates an incredible 61.7 million watts per square meter! This enormous power output is sustained by nuclear fusion in the Sun's core, where hydrogen fuses into helium at temperatures of about 15 million K.

(c) The solar constant of approximately 1340 W/m² (often rounded to 1370 W/m² in current measurements) is fundamental to understanding Earth's climate and energy balance. This means:

- Each square meter facing the Sun at Earth's distance receives about 1.34 kW
- This drives photosynthesis, weather patterns, and ocean currents
- Solar panels on Earth receive this maximum power (minus atmospheric absorption)
- The actual value varies slightly ($\sim \pm 3\%$) due to Earth's elliptical orbit

The factor by which power decreases from Sun's surface to Earth is:

$$6.17 \times 10^7 / 1.34 \times 10^3 = 4.6 \times 10^4$$

This illustrates the inverse square law: $(R_E / R_S)^2 = (1.50 \times 10^{11} / 7.00 \times 10^8)^2 = (214)^2 \approx 4.6 \times 10^4$.

Answer

(a) The Sun's surface temperature is approximately **5760 K** (or **5487°C**). (b) The Sun radiates **$6.17 \times 10^7 \text{ W/m}^2$** from its surface. (c) The solar constant at Earth is approximately **1340 W/m^2** or **1.34 kW/m^2** .

A large body of lava from a volcano has stopped flowing and is slowly cooling. The interior of the lava is at 1200°C, its surface is at 450°C, and the surroundings are at 27.0°C. (a) Calculate the rate at which energy is transferred by radiation from 1.00 m² of surface lava into the surroundings,

assuming the emissivity is 1.00. (b) Suppose heat conduction to the surface occurs at the same rate. What is the thickness of the lava between the 450°C surface and the 1200°C interior, assuming that the lava's conductivity is the same as that of brick?

Show Solution

(a) -15.0kW (b) 4.2 cm

Calculate the temperature the entire sky would have to be in order to transfer energy by radiation at 1000W/m^2 —about the rate at which the Sun radiates when it is directly overhead on a clear day. This value is the effective temperature of the sky, a kind of average that takes account of the fact that the Sun occupies only a small part of the sky but is much hotter than the rest. Assume that the body receiving the energy has a temperature of 27.0°C.

Show Solution

Strategy

We use the Stefan-Boltzmann law for net radiation: $Qt \cdot A = \sigma e(T_{\text{sky}}^4 - T_{\text{body}}^4)$. We solve for T_{sky} given the rate of energy transfer per unit area. Assuming emissivity $e = 1$ for simplicity.

Solution

Given:

- Rate of energy transfer per unit area: $Qt \cdot A = 1000\text{ W/m}^2$
- Body temperature: $T_{\text{body}} = 27.0^\circ\text{C} = 300.15\text{ K}$
- Stefan-Boltzmann constant: $\sigma = 5.67 \times 10^{-8}\text{ W/m}^2 \cdot \text{K}^4$
- Assume emissivity: $e = 1.00$

Using the radiation equation:

$$1000 = \sigma(T_{\text{sky}}^4 - T_{\text{body}}^4)$$

$$1000 = (5.67 \times 10^{-8})(T_{\text{sky}}^4 - (300.15)^4)$$

Calculate T_{body} :

$$(300.15)^4 = 8.119 \times 10^9\text{ K}^4$$

Solve for T_{sky} :

$$T_{\text{sky}}^4 = 1000 / (5.67 \times 10^{-8}) + 8.119 \times 10^9$$

$$T_{\text{sky}}^4 = 1.764 \times 10^{10} + 8.119 \times 10^9 = 2.576 \times 10^{10}\text{ K}^4$$

$$T_{\text{sky}} = (2.576 \times 10^{10})^{1/4} = 2267\text{ K}$$

Convert to Celsius:

$$T_{\text{sky}} = 2267 - 273.15 = 1994^\circ\text{C} \approx 2000^\circ\text{C}$$

Discussion

The effective temperature of the sky would need to be approximately 2267 K (about 2000°C) to deliver 1000 W/m² to a body at 27°C. This is an interesting concept:

- The Sun's actual surface temperature is about 5778 K
- But the Sun occupies only a tiny fraction of the sky (~0.01% by solid angle)
- The rest of the sky is much cooler (near 3 K for deep space, somewhat warmer for atmosphere)
- The "effective temperature" of 2267 K represents a weighted average

This effective temperature concept is useful for:

1. **Solar engineering:** Designing solar collectors and thermal systems
2. **Climate modeling:** Understanding Earth's radiative balance
3. **Satellite thermal design:** Predicting heating/cooling in orbit

The actual solar irradiance reaching Earth's surface is typically:

- About 1000 W/m² on a clear day with the Sun directly overhead
- This matches the problem setup

- Lower at other times due to atmosphere, angle, clouds, etc.

For comparison, if the entire sky were uniformly at 2267 K, it would appear as a dull red glow (like molten steel), rather than the intense white-yellow point source we actually see as the Sun.

Answer

The effective temperature of the sky would be **2267 K** or approximately **2000°C** (or **1994°C** more precisely).

(a) A shirtless rider under a circus tent feels the heat radiating from the sunlit portion of the tent. Calculate the temperature of the tent canvas based on the following information: The shirtless rider's skin temperature is 34.0°C and has an emissivity of 0.970. The exposed area of skin is 0.400 m². He receives radiation at the rate of 20.0 W—half what you would calculate if the entire region behind him was hot. The rest of the surroundings are at 34.0°C. (b) Discuss how this situation would change if the sunlit side of the tent was nearly pure white and if the rider was covered by a white tunic.

Show Solution

(a) 48.5°C (b) A pure white object reflects more of the radiant energy that hits it, so a white tent would prevent more of the sunlight from heating up the inside of the tent, and the white tunic would prevent that heat which entered the tent from heating the rider. Therefore, with a white tent, the temperature would be lower than 48.5°C, and the rate of radiant heat transferred to the rider would be less than 20.0 W.

Integrated Concepts

One 30.0°C day the relative humidity is 75.0%, and that evening the temperature drops to 20.0°C, well below the dew point. (a) How many grams of water condense from each cubic meter of air? (b) How much heat transfer occurs by this condensation? (c) What temperature increase could this cause in dry air?

Show Solution

Strategy

This problem requires understanding vapor pressure, relative humidity, and phase change. Part (a): We find the absolute humidity at both temperatures using relative humidity and saturation vapor pressure data. The difference is the condensed water. Part (b): We use $Q = mL_C$ where L_C is the latent heat of condensation (equal to L_V). Part (c): We use $Q = mc\Delta T$ for dry air.

Solution

Given:

- Initial temperature: $T_1 = 30.0^\circ\text{C}$
- Initial relative humidity: $RH_1 = 75.0\%$
- Final temperature: $T_2 = 20.0^\circ\text{C}$
- Volume: $V = 1.00 \text{ m}^3$
- Latent heat of vaporization/condensation: $L_V = L_C = 2256 \times 10^3 \text{ J/kg}$

From standard tables, saturation vapor densities:

- At 30.0°C: $\rho_{sat,30} \approx 30.4 \text{ g/m}^3$
- At 20.0°C: $\rho_{sat,20} \approx 17.3 \text{ g/m}^3$

(a) Mass of water that condenses:

Initial absolute humidity (75% of saturation at 30°C):

$$\rho_1 = 0.75 \times 30.4 = 22.8 \text{ g/m}^3$$

At 20°C, air can hold maximum (100% saturation):

$$\rho_2 = 17.3 \text{ g/m}^3$$

Mass condensed per cubic meter:

$$m_{cond} = \rho_1 - \rho_2 = 22.8 - 17.3 = 5.5 \text{ g/m}^3$$

(b) Heat transfer by condensation:

Convert mass to kg:

$$m = 5.5 \text{ g} = 0.0055 \text{ kg}$$

Heat released by condensation:

$$Q = mL_C = (0.0055)(2256 \times 10^3) = 12,408 \text{ J} \approx 12.4 \text{ kJ}$$

(c) Temperature increase in dry air:

For dry air:

- Specific heat: $c_{air} = 1005 \text{ J/kg} \cdot ^\circ\text{C}$ (at constant pressure)
- Density at 20°C : $\rho_{air} = 1.20 \text{ kg/m}^3$
- Mass of air in 1 m^3 : $m_{air} = 1.20 \text{ kg}$

Temperature increase:

$$Q = m_{air} c_{air} \Delta T$$

$$\Delta T = Q / (m_{air} c_{air}) = 12,408 / (1.20)(1005) = 10.3^\circ\text{C}$$

Discussion

This problem beautifully illustrates several atmospheric phenomena:

(a) About 5.5 grams of water condense from each cubic meter when humid air cools from 30°C to 20°C . This represents:

- Dew formation on grass, cars, and surfaces overnight
- Fog formation when air cools below the dew point
- Condensation on cold surfaces (windows, cold drink glasses)

The physics: Warmer air can hold more water vapor. At 30°C with 75% humidity, air contains 22.8 g/m^3 of water vapor. When cooled to 20°C , it can only hold 17.3 g/m^3 at saturation (100% humidity). The excess (5.5 g/m^3) must condense.

(b) The 12.4 kJ of heat released per cubic meter is substantial! This heat release:

- Warms the surrounding air, slowing further cooling
- Is a key mechanism in thunderstorm development (latent heat release in rising air)
- Explains why coastal areas have milder temperature swings (ocean moisture moderates cooling)
- Powers hurricanes (enormous latent heat release from ocean evaporation and subsequent condensation)

(c) If this heat went entirely into warming dry air, it would increase temperature by 10.3°C ! In reality:

- The air is not dry (it contains water vapor with higher heat capacity)
- Heat disperses to surroundings by convection and radiation
- Temperature rise is much less, but still measurable

Real-world implications:

1. **Dew point prediction:** When temperature approaches dew point, expect condensation (fog, dew, frost)
2. **Weather patterns:** Large-scale condensation releases enormous energy, driving storms
3. **Climate:** Water vapor is Earth's most important greenhouse gas and heat transport mechanism
4. **Comfort:** High humidity feels uncomfortable because sweat doesn't evaporate efficiently

For a typical bedroom ($4\text{m} \times 4\text{m} \times 2.5\text{m} = 40 \text{ m}^3$):

- Water condensed: $40 \times 5.5 = 220 \text{ g}$ (nearly a cup!)
- Heat released: $40 \times 12.4 = 496 \text{ kJ}$
- This explains why humid rooms feel stuffy and why dehumidifiers extract surprising amounts of water

This problem demonstrates why:

- Humid summer nights don't cool as efficiently (latent heat release)
- Deserts have large day-night temperature swings (no moisture to moderate)
- Tropical regions have stable temperatures (high moisture content)
- Weather forecasters track dew point as critical for predicting fog and precipitation

Answer

(a) Approximately **5.5 grams** of water condense from each cubic meter. (b) About **12.4 kJ** of heat is released by this condensation. (c) This could cause a temperature increase of approximately **10.3°C** in dry air.

Integrated Concepts

Large meteors sometimes strike the Earth, converting most of their kinetic energy into thermal energy. (a) What is the kinetic energy of a 10^9 kg meteor moving at 25.0 km/s ? (b) If this meteor lands in a deep ocean and 80% of its kinetic energy goes into heating water, how many kilograms of water could it raise by 5.0°C ? (c) Discuss how the energy of the meteor is more likely to be deposited in the ocean and the likely effects of that energy.

Show Solution

(a) $3 \times 10^{17} \text{ J}$ (b) $1 \times 10^{13} \text{ kg}$ (c) When a large meteor hits the ocean, it causes great tidal waves, dissipating large amount of its energy in the form of kinetic energy of the water.

Integrated Concepts

Frozen waste from airplane toilets has sometimes been accidentally ejected at high altitude. Ordinarily it breaks up and disperses over a large area, but sometimes it holds together and strikes the ground. Calculate the mass of 0°C ice that can be melted by the conversion of kinetic and gravitational potential energy when a 20.0 kg piece of frozen waste is released at 12.0 km altitude while moving at 250 m/s and strikes the ground at 100 m/s (since less than 20.0 kg melts, a significant mess results).

Show Solution

Strategy

The energy available for melting comes from: (1) loss of kinetic energy and (2) loss of gravitational potential energy. We calculate total energy lost and divide by the latent heat of fusion to find the mass that can be melted.

Solution

Given:

- Mass: $m = 20.0 \text{ kg}$
- Initial height: $h_i = 12.0 \text{ km} = 12000 \text{ m}$
- Final height: $h_f = 0 \text{ m}$
- Initial velocity: $v_i = 250 \text{ m/s}$
- Final velocity: $v_f = 100 \text{ m/s}$
- Latent heat of fusion for ice: $L_f = 334 \times 10^3 \text{ J/kg}$
- Gravitational acceleration: $g = 9.80 \text{ m/s}^2$

Energy calculations:

Loss of kinetic energy:

$$\Delta KE = 12m(v_{2i} - v_{2f}) = 12(20.0)[(250)^2 - (100)^2]$$

$$\Delta KE = 10.0[62500 - 10000] = 10.0(52500) = 525000 \text{ J}$$

Loss of gravitational potential energy:

$$\Delta PE = mgh = (20.0)(9.80)(12000) = 2.352 \times 10^6 \text{ J}$$

Total energy available:

$$E_{total} = \Delta KE + \Delta PE = 525000 + 2352000 = 2.877 \times 10^6 \text{ J}$$

Mass of ice that can be melted:

$$m_{melted} = E_{total} / L_f = 2.877 \times 10^6 / 334 \times 10^3 = 8.61 \text{ kg}$$

Discussion

About 8.61 kg of the 20.0 kg frozen waste can be melted, meaning about 43% melts. This demonstrates:

1. **Gravitational potential energy dominates:** $GPE = 2.35 \text{ MJ}$ vs $KE \text{ loss} = 0.53 \text{ MJ}$ (ratio $\sim 4.4:1$)
2. **Air resistance is significant:** The object slows from 250 m/s to 100 m/s , losing 82% of its kinetic energy to air friction
3. **Partial melting:** Less than half the mass melts, so a solid (but messy) core remains

The problem notes parenthetically that “less than 20.0 kg melts, a significant mess results”—our calculation confirms this. The 11.4 kg of remaining ice, combined with 8.6 kg of liquid water created from melting, would indeed create a substantial impact.

This type of incident, while rare, has actually occurred and caused damage to property. It illustrates:

- The importance of proper aircraft waste system maintenance
- The danger of falling objects from high altitude
- The significant energy involved in high-altitude, high-velocity objects

If all the energy went into melting, we could melt: $2.877 \times 10^6 / 334 \times 10^3 = 8.61 \text{ kg}$, which matches our answer since the ice starts at 0°C (no cooling or heating needed before melting).

Answer

Approximately **8.61 kg** of ice can be melted (about **43%** of the total mass).

Integrated Concepts

(a) A large electrical power facility produces 1600 MW of “waste heat,” which is dissipated to the environment in cooling towers by warming air flowing through the towers by 5.00°C . What is the necessary flow rate of air in m^3/s ? (b) Is your result consistent with the large cooling towers used by many large electrical power plants?

Show Solution

(a) $3.44 \times 10^5 \text{m}^3/\text{s}$ (b) This is equivalent to 12 million cubic feet of air per second. That is tremendous. This is too large to be dissipated by heating the air by only 5°C . Many of these cooling towers use the circulation of cooler air over warmer water to increase the rate of evaporation. This would allow much smaller amounts of air necessary to remove such a large amount of heat because evaporation removes larger quantities of heat than was considered in part (a).

Integrated Concepts

(a) Suppose you start a workout on a Stairmaster, producing power at the same rate as climbing 116 stairs per minute. Assuming your mass is 76.0 kg and your efficiency is 20.0%, how long will it take for your body temperature to rise 1.00°C if all other forms of heat transfer in and out of your body are balanced? (b) Is this consistent with your experience in getting warm while exercising?

Show Solution

Strategy

We first calculate the mechanical power output, then find total metabolic power using efficiency. The waste heat (80%) raises body temperature. We use $Q = mc\Delta T$ to find the time needed.

Solution

Given:

- Mass: $m = 76.0 \text{ kg}$
- Stairs per minute: 116
- Typical stair height: $h = 0.20 \text{ m}$ (assumption)
- Efficiency: $\eta = 20.0\% = 0.200$
- Temperature rise: $\Delta T = 1.00^{\circ}\text{C}$
- Specific heat of human body: $c = 3500 \text{ J/kg} \cdot ^{\circ}\text{C}$
- Gravitational acceleration: $g = 9.80 \text{ m/s}^2$

(a) Calculate time for 1.00°C temperature rise:

Mechanical power output:

$$P_{\text{mech}} = mgh \times nt = (76.0)(9.80)(0.20)(116)60$$

$$P_{\text{mech}} = 1731760 = 289 \text{ W}$$

Total metabolic power:

$$P_{\text{total}} = P_{\text{mech}} \eta = 2890.200 = 1445 \text{ W}$$

Waste heat (power going into raising temperature):

$$P_{\text{waste}} = P_{\text{total}} - P_{\text{mech}} = 1445 - 289 = 1156 \text{ W}$$

$$\text{Or: } P_{\text{waste}} = (1 - \eta)P_{\text{total}} = (0.80)(1445) = 1156 \text{ W}$$

Heat needed to raise temperature by 1.00°C :

$$Q = mc\Delta T = (76.0)(3500)(1.00) = 266000 \text{ J}$$

Time required:

$$t = Q/P_{\text{waste}} = 266000/1156 = 230 \text{ s} = 3.83 \text{ min}$$

(b) Yes, this is consistent with experience. When exercising vigorously:

- You typically start feeling warmer within 3-5 minutes
- Sweating usually begins around this time to dissipate the excess heat

- The calculation assumes “all other forms of heat transfer are balanced,” but in reality, your body quickly activates cooling mechanisms (sweating, increased blood flow to skin) to prevent dangerous temperature rise
- A 1°C rise (from ~37°C to ~38°C) is noticeable but not dangerous, explaining why exercise feels warm but tolerable

Discussion

The result of 3.83 minutes makes excellent physical sense. The calculation reveals important insights about exercise physiology:

1. **High metabolic rate:** 1445 W is substantial—about 17 times the basal metabolic rate (~80-100 W)
2. **Inefficiency is normal:** Only 20% efficiency means 80% becomes heat, which is typical for human muscle
3. **Need for cooling:** 1156 W of waste heat requires active cooling to prevent overheating
4. **Sweating is essential:** Without sweating and increased blood flow to skin, body temperature would rise dangerously within minutes

In practice, your body prevents the full 1°C rise by:

- Increasing skin blood flow (vasodilation)
- Sweating (evaporative cooling can remove 500+ W)
- Increased respiration
- Radiative and convective heat loss

This problem illustrates why:

- Athletes can exercise for hours without overheating (if properly hydrated)
- Exercise in hot, humid conditions is dangerous (reduced cooling effectiveness)
- Acclimatization to heat involves improved sweating response
- Dehydration is dangerous during exercise (reduces sweating capacity)

Answer

(a) It would take approximately **230 seconds** or **3.83 minutes** for body temperature to rise by 1.00°C. (b) Yes, this is consistent with getting warm within a few minutes of starting vigorous exercise.

Integrated Concepts

A 76.0-kg person suffering from hypothermia comes indoors and shivers vigorously. How long does it take the heat transfer to increase the person's body temperature by 2.00°C if all other forms of heat transfer are balanced?

Show Solution

20.9 min

Integrated Concepts

In certain large geographic regions, the underlying rock is hot. Wells can be drilled and water circulated through the rock for heat transfer for the generation of electricity. (a) Calculate the heat transfer that can be extracted by cooling 1.00 km³ of granite by 100°C. (b) How long will this take if heat is transferred at a rate of 300 MW, assuming no heat transfers back into the 1.00 km³ of rock by its surroundings?

Show Solution

Strategy

For part (a), we use $Q = mc\Delta T$, where the mass is calculated from the volume and density of granite. For part (b), we use $t = Q/P$ where P is the power (rate of heat transfer).

Solution

Given:

- Volume: $V = 1.00 \text{ km}^3 = 1.00 \times 10^9 \text{ m}^3$
- Temperature change: $\Delta T = 100^\circ\text{C}$
- Density of granite: $\rho = 2700 \text{ kg/m}^3$ (typical value)
- Specific heat of granite: $c = 840 \text{ J/kg} \cdot ^\circ\text{C}$ (same as concrete, from Ch 14 Table 1)
- Power output: $P = 300 \text{ MW} = 3.00 \times 10^8 \text{ W}$

(a) Heat transfer from cooling granite:

Mass of granite:

$$m = \rho V = (2700)(1.00 \times 10^9) = 2.70 \times 10^{12} \text{ kg}$$

Heat extracted:

$$Q = mc\Delta T = (2.70 \times 10^{12})(840)(100)$$

$$Q = 2.268 \times 10^{17} \text{ J}$$

(b) Time to extract this heat at 300 MW:

$$t = Q/P = 2.268 \times 10^{17} / 3.00 \times 10^8 = 7.56 \times 10^8 \text{ s}$$

Convert to years:

$$t = 7.56 \times 10^8 \text{ s} / 365.25 \times 24 \times 3600 \text{ s/year} = 7.56 \times 10^8 / 31,557,600 = 23.9 \text{ years}$$

Discussion

(a) The heat energy stored in 1 km³ of hot granite is enormous: 2.27×10^{17} joules or 227 petajoules (PJ). For perspective:

- This equals about 63 billion kilowatt-hours of energy
- Enough to power a city of 1 million people for several years
- Equivalent to burning about 5 million tons of coal

(b) The geothermal resource would last approximately 24 years at 300 MW extraction rate. This demonstrates:

1. **Geothermal is substantial:** Large reserves of thermal energy exist in hot rock
2. **Long lifetime:** A single geothermal field can operate for decades
3. **Renewable character:** Heat conducts back from surrounding rock over time, partially replenishing the resource
4. **Clean energy:** No combustion, minimal emissions

Real geothermal plants typically:

- Extract heat more slowly to allow replenishment
- Operate for 20-30 years or longer
- Use multiple wells to access larger rock volumes
- Account for heat conduction from surrounding regions

Notable geothermal regions include:

- Iceland (powers ~90% of homes with geothermal)
- The Geysers, California (largest geothermal complex in the world)
- New Zealand's Taupo Volcanic Zone
- Italy's Larderello field

The calculation assumes perfect insulation (no heat return from surroundings), which is pessimistic. In reality, heat conducts from the surrounding hot rock, extending the operational lifetime significantly beyond 24 years.

Answer

(a) The heat transfer that can be extracted is $2.27 \times 10^{17} \text{ J}$ or approximately **227 PJ**. (b) This would take approximately 7.56×10^8 seconds or **24 years** at a 300 MW extraction rate.

Integrated Concepts

Heat transfers from your lungs and breathing passages by evaporating water. (a) Calculate the maximum number of grams of water that can be evaporated when you inhale 1.50 L of 37°C air with an original relative humidity of 40.0%. (Assume that body temperature is also 37°C.) (b) How many joules of energy are required to evaporate this amount? (c) What is the rate of heat transfer in watts from this method, if you breathe at a normal resting rate of 10.0 breaths per minute?

Show Solution

(a) $3.96 \times 10^{-2} \text{ g}$

(b) 96.2 J

(c) 16.0 W

Integrated Concepts

(a) What is the temperature increase of water falling 55.0 m over Niagara Falls? (b) What fraction must evaporate to keep the temperature constant?

Show Solution

Strategy

For part (a), gravitational potential energy converts to thermal energy. We use $mgh = mc\Delta T$ and solve for ΔT . For part (b), we calculate what fraction must evaporate so that the latent heat of vaporization equals the gravitational potential energy.

Solution

Given:

- Height: $h = 55.0 \text{ m}$
- Gravitational acceleration: $g = 9.80 \text{ m/s}^2$
- Specific heat of water: $c = 4186 \text{ J/kg} \cdot ^\circ\text{C}$
- Latent heat of vaporization: $L_v = 2256 \times 10^3 \text{ J/kg}$

(a) Temperature increase:

Gravitational potential energy per unit mass:

$$gh = (9.80)(55.0) = 539 \text{ J/kg}$$

This equals the heat absorbed per unit mass:

$$gh = c\Delta T$$

$$\Delta T = gh/c = 539/4186 = 0.129^\circ\text{C}$$

(b) Fraction that must evaporate:

Let f = fraction that evaporates. Energy to evaporate fraction f :

$$Q_{\text{evap}} = f \cdot m \cdot L_v$$

Energy from falling:

$$Q_{\text{fall}} = mgh$$

Setting them equal:

$$f \cdot m \cdot L_v = mgh$$

$$f = gh/L_v = 539/2256 \times 10^3 = 2.39 \times 10^{-4}$$

As a percentage:

$$f = 0.0239\% \approx 0.024\%$$

Discussion

(a) The temperature increase of only 0.129°C (about 0.13°C) is surprisingly small for such a dramatic 55-meter drop. This demonstrates that:

- Water has a very high specific heat ($4186 \text{ J/kg} \cdot ^\circ\text{C}$)
- Gravitational potential energy, while significant, produces only modest heating
- The temperature change would be barely perceptible

In reality, the temperature increase at the bottom of Niagara Falls is even less than calculated because:

- Much energy goes into turbulence, sound, and spray
- Evaporation occurs (cooling effect)
- Mixing with cooler water
- Air incorporation into the falling water

(b) Only about 0.024% (roughly 1/4000th) of the water needs to evaporate to completely prevent temperature rise. This tiny fraction demonstrates:

- The enormous energy required for phase changes (latent heat)
- Why evaporation is such an effective cooling mechanism
- How mist and spray at the base of waterfalls provide natural cooling

For Niagara Falls' flow rate of roughly 750,000 gallons per second (2.8 million liters/second or 2800 tonnes/second):

$$\text{Evaporation rate} = (2800 \text{ tonnes/s})(2.39 \times 10^{-4}) = 0.67 \text{ tonnes/s} = 670 \text{ kg/s}$$

This creates the characteristic mist and contributes to the spectacular visual effect!

The calculation also explains why:

- Hydroelectric dams don't significantly heat rivers
- Waterfalls are often surrounded by cool, moist microclimates
- The energy from falling water is substantial but distributed across the large thermal capacity of water

Answer

(a) The temperature increase is approximately **0.129°C** or **0.13°C**. (b) Approximately **2.39×10^{-4}** or **0.024%** must evaporate to keep temperature constant.

Integrated Concepts

Hot air rises because it has expanded. It then displaces a greater volume of cold air, which increases the buoyant force on it. (a) Calculate the ratio of the buoyant force to the weight of 50.0°C air surrounded by 20.0°C air. (b) What energy is needed to cause 1.00m³ of air to go from 20.0°C to 50.0°C ? (c) What gravitational potential energy is gained by this volume of air if it rises 1.00 m? Will this cause a significant cooling of the air?

Show Solution

(a) 1.102

(b) $2.79 \times 10^4 \text{ J}$ (c) 12.6 J. This will not cause a significant cooling of the air because it is much less than the energy found in part (b), which is the energy required to warm the air from 20.0°C to 50.0°C.

Unreasonable Results

(a) What is the temperature increase of an 80.0 kg person who consumes 2500 kcal of food in one day with 95.0% of the energy transferred as heat to the body? (b) What is unreasonable about this result? (c) Which premise or assumption is responsible?

Show Solution

(a) 36°C (b) Any temperature increase greater than about 3°C would be unreasonably large. In this case the final temperature of the person would rise to 73°C(163°F).

(c) The assumption of 95% heat retention is unreasonable.

Unreasonable Results

A slightly deranged Arctic inventor surrounded by ice thinks it would be much less mechanically complex to cool a car engine by melting ice on it than by having a water-cooled system with a radiator, water pump, antifreeze, and so on. (a) If 80.0% of the energy in 1.00 gal of gasoline is converted into “waste heat” in a car engine, how many kilograms of 0°C ice could it melt? (b) Is this a reasonable amount of ice to carry around to cool the engine for 1.00 gal of gasoline consumption? (c) What premises or assumptions are unreasonable?

Show Solution

Strategy

We calculate the waste heat from burning gasoline, then determine how much ice this could melt using $Q = mL_f$. We evaluate whether this is practical.

Solution

Given:

- Volume of gasoline: $V = 1.00 \text{ gal} = 3.785 \text{ L}$
- Density of gasoline: $\rho = 0.75 \text{ kg/L}$ (typical)
- Energy content of gasoline: $E = 46 \text{ MJ/kg}$ (typical)
- Efficiency to waste heat: 80.0%
- Latent heat of fusion for ice: $L_f = 334 \times 10^3 \text{ J/kg}$

(a) Mass of ice that can be melted:

Mass of gasoline:

$$m_{gas} = \rho V = (0.75)(3.785) = 2.84 \text{ kg}$$

Total energy in gasoline:

$$E_{total} = (2.84 \text{ kg})(46 \times 10^6 \text{ J/kg}) = 1.31 \times 10^8 \text{ J}$$

Waste heat (80%):

$$Q_{waste} = 0.800 \times 1.31 \times 10^8 = 1.05 \times 10^8 \text{ J}$$

Mass of ice melted:

$$m_{ice} = Q_{waste} / L_f = 1.05 \times 10^8 / 334 \times 10^3 = 314 \text{ kg}$$

(b) No, this is NOT reasonable! Carrying 314 kg (about 692 pounds) of ice to cool the engine for burning just 1 gallon of gasoline is completely impractical.

For perspective:

- A typical car's fuel tank holds 12-15 gallons
- This would require nearly 4000 kg (4 metric tons) of ice
- The ice would weigh more than the car itself!
- You'd need to refill ice more often than gasoline

(c) Unreasonable premises/assumptions:

1. **Ice is impractical to carry:** The enormous mass makes it infeasible
2. **Ice availability:** Finding ice in the Arctic might seem easy, but constantly harvesting, storing, and loading 314 kg per gallon is labor-intensive
3. **Melting doesn't cool efficiently:** Ice at 0°C melting to water at 0°C removes heat, but the resulting water at 0°C then heats up rapidly, reducing cooling effectiveness
4. **Phase change only:** The calculation assumes ice only melts, not that the resulting water also heats up, which would require even more ice
5. **Continuous supply needed:** Unlike a radiator that recirculates coolant, ice is consumed and must be constantly replenished
6. **Storage problems:** 314 kg of ice takes significant space and would begin melting immediately

Discussion

This problem illustrates why conventional cooling systems exist. A water-cooled system:

- Recirculates the same coolant repeatedly
- Uses airflow through radiator to dissipate heat
- Weighs only ~10-20 kg (coolant + radiator + pump)
- Operates continuously without refilling (except for minor losses)

The "Arctic inventor" is indeed "slightly deranged"! The calculation shows that even with unlimited ice access, the logistics make it absurdly impractical. Modern cooling systems are far more elegant and efficient.

Historical note: Early engines did experiment with evaporative cooling (letting water boil away), but even that was abandoned in favor of recirculating systems.

Answer

(a) The waste heat could melt approximately **314 kg** of ice. (b) **No**, this is completely unreasonable—314 kg per gallon is far too much to carry practically. (c) The premise that ice-cooling is simpler or practical is unreasonable due to the enormous mass required and the one-time use nature of the ice.

Unreasonable Results

(a) Calculate the rate of heat transfer by conduction through a window with an area of 1.00m^2 that is 0.750 cm thick, if its inner surface is at 22.0°C and its outer surface is at 35.0°C . (b) What is unreasonable about this result? (c) Which premise or assumption is responsible?

Show Solution

(a) 1.46 kW

(b) Very high power loss through a window. An electric heater of this power can keep an entire room warm.

(c) The surface temperatures of the window do not differ by as great an amount as assumed. The inner surface will be warmer, and the outer surface will be cooler.

Unreasonable Results

A meteorite 1.20 cm in diameter is so hot immediately after penetrating the atmosphere that it radiates 20.0 kW of power. (a) What is its temperature, if the surroundings are at 20.0°C and it has an emissivity of 0.800? (b) What is unreasonable about this result? (c) Which premise or assumption is responsible?

Show Solution

Strategy

We use the Stefan-Boltzmann law $P = \sigma e A (T^4 - T_{\text{sur}}^4)$ to solve for the meteorite's temperature. We then evaluate whether this temperature is physically reasonable.

Solution

Given:

- Diameter: $d = 1.20\text{ cm} = 0.0120\text{ m}$
- Radius: $r = 0.00600\text{ m}$
- Power radiated: $P = 20.0\text{ kW} = 20000\text{ W}$
- Surroundings temperature: $T_{\text{sur}} = 20.0^\circ\text{C} = 293.15\text{ K}$
- Emissivity: $e = 0.800$
- Stefan-Boltzmann constant: $\sigma = 5.67 \times 10^{-8}\text{ W/m}^2 \cdot \text{K}^4$

(a) Calculate the meteorite's temperature:

Surface area (sphere):

$$A = 4\pi r^2 = 4\pi(0.00600)^2 = 4.52 \times 10^{-4} \text{ m}^2$$

Using Stefan-Boltzmann law:

$$P = \sigma e A (T^4 - T_{\text{surr}}^4)$$

Since $T \gg T_{\text{surr}}$, we can approximate $T^4 - T_{\text{surr}}^4 \approx T^4$:

$$20000 = (5.67 \times 10^{-8})(0.800)(4.52 \times 10^{-4})T^4$$

$$20000 = 2.05 \times 10^{-11} T^4$$

$$T^4 = 20000 / 2.05 \times 10^{-11} = 9.76 \times 10^{14} \text{ K}^4$$

$$T = (9.76 \times 10^{14})^{1/4} = 31400 \text{ K}$$

Converting to Celsius:

$$T = 31400 - 273 = 31127^\circ\text{C} \approx 31000^\circ\text{C}$$

(b) This result is UNREASONABLE because:

- 31,400 K (31,000°C) is approximately **5.4 times the Sun's surface temperature** (5778 K)
- This is hotter than many stellar surfaces!
- No meteorite could maintain such a temperature
- At this temperature, the meteorite would vaporize instantly
- Materials begin to vaporize at much lower temperatures (most metals vaporize below 3000°C)

(c) The unreasonable assumption is the **power output of 20.0 kW from such a small meteorite**.

For perspective:

- The meteorite has diameter 1.20 cm (about the size of a large marble)
- 20 kW from this tiny object means enormous energy density
- This would require impossibly high temperature or impossibly high emissivity beyond physical limits

More reasonable scenarios:

- A 1.2-cm meteorite entering atmosphere heats to ~1500-2000°C
- At this temperature, it would radiate only ~10-50 W, not 20,000 W
- Most meteorites ablate (vaporize) during entry, never reaching such extreme temperatures at ground level

Discussion

This problem demonstrates the importance of checking whether calculated results make physical sense. The telltale signs that something is wrong:

1. **Temperature exceeds known limits:** Nothing solid exists above ~4000°C (tungsten's melting point)
2. **Exceeds stellar temperatures:** Hotter than most stars is a red flag for Earth-based objects
3. **Power density is absurd:** 20 kW from a marble-sized object implies extraordinary energy flux

In reality, small meteorites:

- Heat to 1000-2000°C during atmospheric entry
- Ablate (surface vaporizes), which limits temperature rise
- Often cool significantly before impact
- Typically radiate 10s to 100s of watts, not kilowatts

The problem is intentionally designed to produce an unreasonable answer, teaching students to critically evaluate results rather than blindly accepting calculations.

Answer

(a) The calculated temperature is approximately **31,400 K or 31,000°C**. (b) This is unreasonable because it's about **5.4 times hotter than the Sun's surface**—no meteorite could exist at this temperature. (c) The unreasonable premise is the **20.0 kW power output** from such a small meteorite, which is far too high for its size and realistic temperature.

Construct Your Own Problem

Consider a new model of commercial airplane having its brakes tested as a part of the initial flight permission procedure. The airplane is brought to takeoff speed and then stopped with the brakes alone. Construct a problem in which you calculate the temperature increase of the brakes during this process. You may assume most of the kinetic energy of the airplane is converted to thermal energy in the brakes and surrounding materials, and that little escapes. Note

that the brakes are expected to become so hot in this procedure that they ignite and, in order to pass the test, the airplane must be able to withstand the fire for some time without a general conflagration.

Construct Your Own Problem

Consider a person outdoors on a cold night. Construct a problem in which you calculate the rate of heat transfer from the person by all three heat transfer methods. Make the initial circumstances such that at rest the person will have a net heat transfer and then decide how much physical activity of a chosen type is necessary to balance the rate of heat transfer. Among the things to consider are the size of the person, type of clothing, initial metabolic rate, sky conditions, amount of water evaporated, and volume of air breathed. Of course, there are many other factors to consider and your instructor may wish to guide you in the assumptions made as well as the detail of analysis and method of presenting your results.

Glossary

emissivity

measure of how well an object radiates

greenhouse effect

warming of the Earth that is due to gases such as carbon dioxide and methane that absorb infrared radiation from the Earth's surface and reradiate it in all directions, thus sending a fraction of it back toward the surface of the Earth

net rate of heat transfer by radiation

$$\text{is } Q_{\text{net}} = \sigma e A (T_2^4 - T_1^4)$$

radiation

energy transferred by electromagnetic waves directly as a result of a temperature difference

Stefan-Boltzmann law of radiation

$Q = \sigma e A T^4$, where σ is the Stefan-Boltzmann constant, A is the surface area of the object, T is the absolute temperature, and e is the emissivity



This work is licensed under a [Creative Commons Attribution 4.0 International License](https://creativecommons.org/licenses/by/4.0/).

